AN INDEPENDENT STUDY COMPANION

# World History Dossier

*Study Notes on Twentieth-Century International History*

A complete digital dossier of 33 chapters on twentieth-century international history, designed for comfortable reading, revision, and sharing.

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00 Introduction: Twentieth-Century International History - The Changing Face of Empire 5

01 Imperialism 12

02 Nationalism 25

03 Internationalism 35

04 A Shrinking World 43

05 A Changing Diplomatic World 50

06 The Triple Alliance 57

07 The Ententes, 1894–1914 64

08 The July Crisis 72

09 Wartime Promises and Postwar Europe 79

10 Wartime Promises and the Postwar Empires 86

11 Envisioning a New World Order 93

12 The Versailles System 100

13 The Legacy of the First World War 107

14 Why International Finance Mattered: 1919–1939 113

15 The Far Eastern Crisis and the Balance of Power, 1920–1941 120

16 The Challenge to Empire in the Middle East and Asia 127

17 Mussolini's War in Ethiopia 135

18 The Challenge in Europe, 1935–1941 142

19 Appeasement 149

20 Stalin and the West 157

21 The United States and the End of Isolation 164

22 The Grand Alliance, 1941–1945 ..... 171

23 A Bipolar World ..... 179

24 A Third World? ..... 186

25 Making the New Europe: European Integration since 1950 ..... 194

26 The Making of Modern Southeast Asia in the Age of Decolonization and the Cold War ..... 204

27 The Middle East, 1945–1991: The Making of a Mare's Nest ..... 213

28 The Sino-Soviet Alliance ..... 221

29 The Collapse of the Soviet Union and the End of the Cold War ..... 230

30 War and Peace in the Global Community, 1989–2001 ..... 239

31 Globalization ..... 248

32 Terrorism: September 11, 2001 and its Consequences ..... 256

CHAPTER 00 · INTRODUCTION

# Introduction: Twentieth-Century International History - The Changing Face of Empire

*Study notes: A Twentieth-Century International History*

GORDON MARTEL

CENTRAL THESIS

The international history of the twentieth century is fundamentally a history of **imperial struggle**. Rather than a simple progression of nation-states, the era is best understood as a continuous contest in which Great Powers—usually calling themselves nations—sought to impose their specific versions of modernity and progress upon the world. While the rhetoric of empire shifted from the “empires of property” in the 1900s to the “empires of race, class, and markets” later in the century, the underlying dynamics of power assertion remained constant.

TIMELINE

- **1900**
- **1914**
- **1918**
- **1939**
- **1955**
- **1989**
- **2001**

# I The Age of Imperial Vitality (1900–1914)

*Empire was treated as the measure of national vitality.*

At the dawn of the twentieth century, the world was not a collection of independent nations, but a playground for the **"Great and would-be Great."** In 1900, to be a Great Power was, by definition, to be an empire. This was an era governed by a stark binary: **growth or decay; expansion or impotence; empire or servitude.**

**The Imperial Mindset:** Leaders believed the age of small states was over—a "primeval" remnant of the past. Territorial expansion was viewed as a biological necessity, as "inescapable... a sign of vitality in a nation as the corresponding processes in the growing human body."

**The Geopolitical "Heartland":** The pseudo-science of **geopolitics** emerged, suggesting the future belonged to the massive landmasses of Russia and the United States. Older powers, like Britain, sought to overcome geographic limitations through sea power and colonial resources.

**The German Dilemma:** Germany, fearing its status as the "anvil" rather than the "hammer" of world politics, sought a "place in the sun" through a mix of naval power, coaling stations, and a *Drang nach Osten* (drive to the east) via a Berlin-to-Baghdad railway.

IMPERIAL AMBITIONS AT THE OPENING OF THE CENTURY

| Power | Imperial Ambition |
|---|---|
| **Germany** | Transform from a European power to a "World Power." |
| **Japan** | Establish itself as the premier power in Asia. |

DEFINITION

**Geopolitics**

A theory linking large landmasses, geographic resources and future global power. In the chapter it is described as a **pseudo-science**.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**The imperial equation**

Growth | Vitality | Empire

For Great Powers in 1900, expansion was treated as evidence of national strength.

IMPERIAL AMBITIONS AT THE OPENING OF THE CENTURY (CONTINUED)

| Power | Imperial Ambition |
|---|---|
| **Austria-Hungary** | Maintain a multicultural system to remain relevant. |
| **Italy** | Revive a “Roman Empire” in North Africa and the Mediterranean. |
| **United States** | Realize a “Manifest Destiny” extending from sea to sea. |

# II The Crucible of the First World War

*Imperial security and expansion collided in southeastern Europe.*

History often simplifies the First World War as a failure of alliances or “mounting tensions.” In this chapter’s interpretation, the war was fought to maintain or expand imperial integrity. The spark was not just an assassination, but a clash between the Habsburgs’ need to crush a Slavic threat and the Romanovs’ need to protect an imperial satellite.

Habsburg fear of a Slavic threat → Romanov protection of a Serbian satellite → Imperial collision in the Balkans

**Misconceptions of Imperialism:** Many associate “imperialism” only with overseas colonies in Africa or Asia. However, the First World War demonstrated that the primary “Great Game” was played in Europe first.

### THE AMBITIONS OF THE “LESS-THAN-GREAT”

**Serbia:** Aimed to create a “Greater Serbia,” an empire subsuming Croatians, Bosnians, and Montenegrins.

**Turkey:** The “Young Turks” sought a secularized **Pan-Turanianism**, an empire stretching from the Balkans to China, recovering lost territories in Russian Azerbaijan and Persia.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**Not only overseas colonies**

**Misreading:** Imperialism was chiefly a competition for African or Asian colonies.

**Correction:** Rival imperial claims in Europe, especially the Balkans, helped produce war in 1914.

DEFINITION

**Pan-Turanianism**

The Young Turks’ proposed transregional imperial vision, extending from the Balkans towards China.

**Japan:** Joined the Entente specifically to seize German territories in the Far East.

**The Reality of 1914:** The account presents the actors' pursuit of empire as a struggle over national survival and status. The war proved that empire was a source of strength; while the Central Powers were starved of resources, the British Empire utilized the "bounty of the world" in men, metals, and food.

## III The Radicalization of the Interwar Period

*Race, class and markets offered new justifications for power.*

After 1918, the "older" empires of Britain and France emerged as the victors, but they were hollowed out by the "tragedy of the trenches." While they shifted toward a policy of "policing" and gradual retreat, new, more aggressive imperialisms were being forged in the fires of dissatisfaction.

### 1. THE "EMPIRES OF RACE" (GERMANY AND JAPAN)

Rejecting the liberal "mercantile" model, Germany and Japan adopted a racist ethos. They claimed the right to command "lesser beings" (*Untermenschen*) by virtue of inherent superiority.

**Germany:** Transitioned from religious to "blood-based" identity.

**Japan:** Rejected European science to find superiority in the "divine descent" of their sovereign and the "Yamato soul."

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**Two ideological claims to empire**

**Race**
Germany and Japan asserted racial superiority.

**Class**
The Soviet model claimed revolutionary legitimacy.

### 2. THE “EMPIRE OF CLASS” (USSR)

Lenin and the Bolsheviks framed imperialism as “the highest stage of capitalism.” To counter Western “capitalist coalescence,” they created a new socialist federation. However, the Kremlin imposed a centralized authority that would have been the envy of any Tsarist administrator.

### 3. THE “IMPERIAL PRESIDENT” (USA)

The chapter interprets Woodrow Wilson’s **self-determination** as an imperial tool: dismantling European empires could open their markets to the United States. Wilson maintained the **Monroe Doctrine**, effectively keeping the Americas as a private imperial sphere.

## Ⓘⅴ The Bipolar Masquerade (Cold War Era)

*The language of imperialism changed, but its strategic competition continued.*

The Second World War eradicated the empires of race, but imperialism itself survived. It merely changed its “face” to avoid the stigma of the word. In the Cold War, imperialism became “the policy that dare not speak its name”—a grenade thrown at the enemy while one’s own expansions were labeled “aid” or “security.”

**The “Four Policemen” Vision:** Franklin Roosevelt originally envisioned a world partitioned into four great spheres of influence (US, USSR, Britain, China). The account presents this as an exceptionally extensive imperial division scheme, frustrated by the Chinese Revolution and mutual suspicion.

**The Rhetorical Shift:** Both superpowers denied their imperial credentials. The **USSR** described itself as “Saving socialism from capitalist imperialism”; the **USA** framed its role as “Defending democracy from the Evil Empire.”

EXAM INSIGHT

**Read Cold War rhetoric critically**

Distinguish what each superpower *called* its policies—security, aid or ideological defence—from the chapter’s argument about continued imperial competition.

**The Invention of the "Third World":** At the **Bandung Conference (1955)**, leaders like Sukarno, Nasser, and Nkrumah attempted to forge a path outside the two orbits. Paradoxically, these leaders often used anti-colonial rhetoric to establish their own police states or "Pan-Arab/Pan-African" imperial designs.

## Ⓥ The Modern Metamorphosis: From Property to Profit

*Empire moved from direct control of territory toward commercial influence.*

As the twentieth century closed, the "Empires of Property"—the actual occupation of land—became unsustainable. They were replaced by a more efficient model: the empire of "profit and play."

**The Head Office Model:** Former colonial powers realized they didn't need to police "the natives" to extract wealth. Metals and oil would still flow to Europe.

**The "End of History" Illusion:** The fall of the Berlin Wall led to "American triumphalism"—the belief that the liberal, free-market model was the only remaining system. This was shattered on September 11, 2001.

**The Return of Ideology:** The "War on Terror" and the rise of "Islamic Fundamentalism" demonstrated that the future remains contested terrain.

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

**From direct rule to leverage**

Territory → Resources → Markets

Economic power could persist even after direct colonial administration ended.

# § Summary of Twentieth-Century Imperial Evolutions

*Four faces of empire, one persistent dynamic.*

FACES OF EMPIRE ACROSS THE TWENTIETH CENTURY

| Era | Primary Face of Empire | Central Motivation |
|---|---|---|
| **Pre-1914** | **Empires of Territory** | National vitality and “Growth vs. Decay.” |
| **Interwar** | **Empires of Race & Class** | Ideological/Racial destiny and total control. |
| **Cold War** | **Bipolar Spheres** | Strategic dominance disguised as “Security/Aid.” |
| **Post-Cold War** | **Empires of Profit & Play** | Market dominance and resource extraction. |

## KEY FINDINGS

**1. Continuity of Dynamics:** Despite changing names (Colonialism, Mandates, Spheres of Influence, New World Order), the underlying pursuit of power remains constant.

**2. Empire as Modernity:** Empires were the vehicles through which states attempted to impose their version of “progress” on the global stage.

**3. The Fragility of Peace:** International conflicts (1914, 1939, Cold War, War on Terror) are almost always rooted in the collision of these competing imperial visions.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**Four changing faces**

1. Territory
2. Race & class
3. Bipolar spheres
4. Profit & play

> *“The rhetoric of empire has changed while the underlying dynamics of the imperial process has remained the same.”*
>
> GORDON MARTEL

CHAPTER 01

# Imperialism

*Imperial Power and Decolonization — How Empire Was Built, Challenged and Remade*

JOHN MACKENZIE

CENTRAL THESIS

The twentieth century began with European and American **imperial power** at its height, yet ended with most formal colonies independent. Different forms of control, Britain’s growing strategic pressures, two world wars and anticolonial movements explain this shift. But independence did not erase the borders, migrations or economic inequalities created under empire.

TIMELINE

- **1898**
- **1902**
- **1914**
- **1919**
- **1926**
- **1931**
- **1947**
- **1957**
- **1960**
- **1990**
- **1994**
- **1997**

At the beginning of the twentieth century, European states and the United States were at the height of their **imperial power**. By the century's end, most colonies had gained **formal independence**. John MacKenzie's central question is how an international order dominated by empires became one made mainly of nation-states—and why the influence and inequalities of empire did not disappear with colonial rule.

## I Empires at Their Peak: Different Ways to Rule

*By 1900, imperial expansion had divided much of the world, but the forms of control varied.*

By **1900**, the late-nineteenth-century **partition of Africa** and competition for Pacific islands had brought extensive territories under European control. The United States was also an imperial power: after defeating Spain in **1898**, it acquired the Philippines and territories in the Caribbean. Russia extended its authority through Central Asia and the trans-Siberian railway; Japan took Taiwan in **1895** and later annexed Korea in **1910**. Expansion was a rivalry among several powers.

### FORMAL EMPIRE, INFORMAL EMPIRE AND PROTECTORATE

These terms explain why imperial control did not always appear as direct foreign government.

MODES OF IMPERIAL CONTROL

| Form | What the term means | Example or characteristic |
|---|---|---|
| **Formal empire** | The imperial state directly governs territory and builds institutions to serve trade and control. | British Crown colonies; French Indochina. |
| **Informal empire** | A country retains local rulers but another power strongly influences its trade, finance or policy. | British economic power in Argentina; influence around the Gulf. |

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**Formal, informal, protectorate**

| | |
|---|---|
| **Formal** | Direct foreign administration |
| **Informal** | Economic pressure without direct rule |
| **Protectorate** | Local rulers under external oversight |

DEFINITION

**Chartered company**

A trading company allowed to govern territory or perform state functions, as in the British South Africa Company.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**A map needs three questions**

**Who controlled it?** How directly? **Who governed locally?** What economic interests shaped the arrangement?

MODES OF IMPERIAL CONTROL (CONTINUED)

| Form | What the term means | Example or characteristic |
|---|---|---|
| **Protectorate** | Traditional rulers remain visible while an outside state supervises important decisions, especially external relations. | British oversight through the Foreign Office; Egypt formally declared a protectorate in 1914. |
| **Self-governing dominion** | A predominantly settler colony controls much of its domestic government while retaining imperial connections. | Canada, Australia, New Zealand. |
| **Chartered company rule** | A commercial company exercises powers of administration or territorial control. | British South Africa Company in the Rhodesias until 1923. |

The map reflected these differences. In **India**, Britain ruled many districts directly but supervised **princely states** through British residents; it also watched buffer states such as Bhutan and Nepal because of Russian and Chinese influence. Across Southeast Asia, the French held Indochina and the Dutch ruled the East Indies, while Britain controlled Burma, Malaya and Singapore. Around the Atlantic, the United States promoted influence through the **Monroe Doctrine**, even where British finance and trade remained powerful. Formal possession did not always equal practical influence.

Imperial rivalries made this division unstable. At **Fashoda in 1898**, British and **French** forces faced one another on the Upper Nile. Italy had already suffered defeat at **Adowa in 1896** against Ethiopia, one of the few African states outside European rule. Empires also depended on local rulers, commercial collaborators and educated elites. Education helped these elites work within empire, but also prepared some to lead **nationalist movements** against imperial rule. Empire helped produce its own challengers.

Imperial expansion reshaped populations as well as borders. European settlers moved into overseas territories; the slave trade had displaced Africans; indentured labor moved many Indians to the Caribbean, Africa and Indian Ocean; and Chinese migration created networks around the Pacific and beyond. Migration met labor demands but provoked racist exclusion and tension. **Migration and inherited boundaries** became lasting legacies of imperial rule.

# II The “Weary Titan”: Why British Supremacy Became Fragile

*The largest empire could win wars and still discover that it could no longer defend every commitment.*

The British Empire was vast, but rivals were catching up. The United States and Germany overtook Britain in steel production, while British planners doubted whether the Royal Navy could maintain its **two-power standard**. Irish nationalism and labor unrest added strain. Colonial Secretary **Joseph Chamberlain** called Britain a **“weary Titan”**: powerful, but burdened by responsibilities that were becoming harder to sustain.

## THE ANGLO-BOER WAR (1899–1902): VICTORY WITHOUT SECURE AUTHORITY

The war exposed how costly it could be to impose imperial control even on small states.

Britain fought the Boer (Afrikaner) republics of the **Transvaal** and **Orange Free State** in southern Africa. The aims included control over Transvaal gold, the position of European settlers there and the security of the Cape and Natal routes connecting Britain with India and Australasia. Boer **guerrilla warfare** prolonged resistance after the main towns were captured. Britain won in **1902**, but many Afrikaners remained hostile, and Africans suffered dispossession and political exclusion. These conditions helped prepare the ground for **apartheid**: military victory had not secured an equal or stable society.

## FROM SPLENDID ISOLATION TO ALLIANCES

Britain adjusted its diplomacy because naval power could no longer guarantee security everywhere.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**Victory did not settle the Boer War’s costs**

Britain won militarily in 1902; Afrikaner resentment and African dispossession made lasting stability a different question.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**How splendid isolation ended**

- **1902** Alliance with Japan
- **1904** Entente with France
- **1906** First *Dreadnought*
- **1907** Agreement with Russia

Britain had favored **splendid isolation**. But it could not comfortably defend distant interests in East Asia while Germany expanded its navy in Europe. Britain signed the **Anglo-Japanese Alliance (1902)** to strengthen its position in the Far East. Under Admiral **Jack Fisher**, it also concentrated naval defense closer to Europe and introduced the battleship *Dreadnought* in **1906**. Both answered imperial overstretch.

Britain also reached the **Entente Cordiale with France (1904)** and an agreement with Russia in **1907**. Russian expansion had previously alarmed Britain in Persia, Afghanistan and near India in a rivalry known as the **Great Game**; Japanese victories over Russia in **1904–05** altered the balance in Asia. By easing older disputes and cooperating with former rivals, Britain could concentrate more attention on Germany. **Those agreements marked the end of splendid isolation:** Britain increasingly sought safety through partnerships instead of relying on independent imperial reach alone.

Imperial predominance also depended on **steamships, railways, submarine telegraph cables and modern weapons**. Ships and railways moved goods and troops; telegraph cables carried orders; modern weapons enforced control. Colonized peoples increasingly used such technologies themselves. Brutally suppressed revolts, including the **Maji Maji** and **Herero** uprisings against Germany, and the strengthening of nationalism in India and Africa showed that technology did not remove resistance. Britain’s strategic retreat and these local challenges both exposed the limits of imperial supremacy.

# III World War, Interwar Strength and Imperial Weakness

*The first war redistributed colonies; the second weakened the ability to keep them.*

MacKenzie stresses that the **First World War** had mainly European causes, but major imperial consequences. Its imperial consequences were unmistakable. Germany lost its African and Pacific colonies, and Ottoman defeat opened Arab provinces to new control. Under the **League of Nations mandate system**, victorious states administered former German and Ottoman possessions while claiming to act under international supervision. Britain received responsibilities in Tanganyika, Palestine, Transjordan and Iraq; France gained Syria and Lebanon. South Africa, Australia and New Zealand also acquired mandates. In consequence, the largest empires could actually **expand after 1918**, even as anticolonial demands were growing.

## THE INTERWAR PARADOX: EMPIRES LOOKED STRONGER WHILE PRESSURES MOUNTED

A larger, more organized empire could still be politically and economically insecure.

During the 1920s and 1930s, European governments improved colonial administration and promoted imperial loyalty through exhibitions, publicity and economic policy. Britain's **Empire Marketing Board (1926)** encouraged imperial products; the **Ottawa agreements (1932)** introduced **imperial preference**. At the same time, Britain's predominantly settler **dominions** gained further autonomy under the **Balfour Declaration of 1926** and **Statute of Westminster of 1931**. Egypt and Iraq illustrate another route: formal control could be loosened while Britain continued to influence defense, diplomacy or trade. Imperial rule was being preserved through adaptation.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**Interwar imperial paradox**

Better administration, trade preferences and propaganda projected strength while depression and nationalist demands weakened colonial rule.

EXAM INSIGHT

**What did each war change?**

**1914–18:** colonial possessions were largely redistributed.
**1939–45:** colonial prestige and resources were undermined, particularly in Asia.

The **Great Depression after 1929** reduced wages and living standards across many colonies, contributing to labor unrest and nationalist mobilization. Expansionist powers also challenged the international order: Japan occupied **Manchuria in 1931**, and Mussolini's Italy invaded **Ethiopia in 1935–36**. The League of Nations could not prevent either aggression. Thus the interwar "golden age" of imperial administration concealed mounting pressures.

### WHY THE SECOND WORLD WAR CHANGED THE BALANCE

Europe's wartime weakness became visible to people under colonial rule.

In **1941–42**, Japan overran European possessions across East and Southeast Asia, demonstrating that European armies were not invincible. The French Empire itself split between Vichy and Free French forces, while North Africa became a major battleground. Japanese occupation helped stimulate armed and often communist-led resistance in places including Indochina, Malaya and Indonesia. After Japan's defeat, weakened European states tried to return; the **United States** increasingly questioned colonial restoration partly because instability might strengthen communist movements. Unlike the First World War, the Second World War made a broad return to secure formal empire far less realistic.

The distinction between the wars completes the chapter's central turning point. **1914–18** transferred colonies and enlarged the holdings of some victorious empires; **1939–45** exposed the weakness of colonial authority, strengthened resistance and burdened imperial governments financially. **War did not itself grant independence; it weakened the means of denying it.**

# IV Decolonization: Different Regions, Different Paths

*Nationalist action, wartime costs and local conditions determined how—and how violently—colonial rule ended.*

After 1945, **decolonization** did not unfold in the same way across the European empires. Britain and France still proposed investment and development schemes, and some former mandates became **United Nations trust territories**. Yet nationalist movements demanded more than gradual improvement within colonial rule. War debts and security costs made colonial government harder to maintain. Local politics and settlers made the paths diverge.

## INDIA: LIMITED CONSTITUTIONAL REFORM BECOMES PARTITION

British concessions could not satisfy growing demands for complete political independence.

In India, the **Government of India Act (1935)** expanded provincial self-government while Britain retained central control over defense and foreign affairs. MacKenzie describes these divided responsibilities as **dyarchy**. During the Second World War, India was committed to war without consulting nationalist leaders; the **Quit India movement** and imprisonment of Congress politicians deepened the rupture. The **Indian National Congress** had been founded on a nonsectarian basis, but the **Muslim League**, led by **Muhammad Ali Jinnah**, increasingly demanded a separate Muslim state. No united constitutional outcome remained.

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

**Human cost of Partition**

**17.5 million**

people moving across the new borders in MacKenzie's estimates

He also reports **over one million deaths**. Such counts are estimates, not exact totals.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**One empire, several exits**

| | |
|---|---|
| **India** | Partition, 1947 |
| **Indonesia** | War and independence, 1949 |
| **Ghana** | Constitutional advance, 1957 |
| **Algeria** | Violent settler conflict, 1962 |

Britain’s postwar financial weakness pushed **Clement Attlee’s** government toward rapid withdrawal. Under **Lord Mountbatten**, the subcontinent was divided into **India and Pakistan in 1947**. MacKenzie estimates that roughly **ten million Hindus** and **seven and a half million Muslims** moved across the new borders, with **over one million people killed** in communal violence. These are MacKenzie’s estimates, not exact totals. Pakistan’s eastern and western wings also proved difficult to hold together; **East Pakistan became Bangladesh in 1971**. Thus independence ended British direct rule but **Partition created its own enduring political and human consequences**.

### SOUTHEAST ASIA AND THE MIDDLE EAST: AUTHORITY COULD NOT SIMPLY BE RESTORED

Military resistance and competing political communities complicated withdrawal.

In **Indonesia**, Dutch authority could not be restored after Japanese occupation; **Sukarno** led the struggle that brought independence in **1949**. In Indochina, French attempts to regain control ended in defeat at **Dien Bien Phu (1954)**; partition and later United States intervention extended the conflict. Britain defeated a communist insurgency in **Malaya**, which became independent in **1957**; Singapore later separated from Malaysia in **1965**. In **Palestine**, British withdrawal amid Jewish–Arab conflict preceded the creation of Israel in **1948** and war. These cases show that the end of European rule could lead to new states, partition or continuing warfare—not one uniform process.

### AFRICA: RAPID CONSTITUTIONAL EXITS AND PROTRACTED SETTLER CONFLICTS

The strength of settler communities and the colonial state shaped the pace of decolonization.

**Ghana** gained independence in **1957**, followed by many other British territories in West Africa. In East Africa, the **Mau Mau uprising** in Kenya and the growing costs of policing empire strengthened Britain's decision to withdraw. France released much of West and Equatorial Africa in **1960**, but **Algeria**, with a large French settler population (*pieds-noirs*), required a much more violent struggle before independence in **1962**. Belgium also left the **Congo in 1960**, amid severe instability. These experiences followed no single African timetable.

Settler power delayed the final retreat farther south. The **Central African Federation** created in **1953** failed as African nationalists opposed continued white dominance; Northern Rhodesia and Nyasaland became Zambia and Malawi. White-minority rule persisted in **Southern Rhodesia** until it became **Zimbabwe in 1980**. The overthrow of Portugal's dictatorship in **1974** accelerated independence for its African colonies in **1975**. **Namibia** became independent in **1990**; **Nelson Mandela** was released that year, and South Africa's first democratic national elections in **1994** brought an end to apartheid government. Africa's decolonization was therefore both a quick constitutional transformation in some places and a decades-long struggle against settler rule in others.

## Ⓥ After Empire: New States and Old Inequalities

*Formal colonial rule declined, but the global distribution of power did not become equal.*

By the end of the century, the international system centered on **independent nation-states**, reflected in the enlarged membership of the **United Nations**. The breakup of Soviet control in Eastern Europe from **1989** and the dissolution of the Soviet Union in **1991** extended this process beyond the old overseas European empires. In **1997**, Britain transferred Hong Kong to China at the expiry of the New Territories lease. MacKenzie provocatively interprets this as a transfer of power between empires rather than the creation of a new independent state. These were different endings under the broad label *decolonization*.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**Last transitions**

- **1989–91** Soviet bloc and union break apart
- **1990** Namibia independent; Mandela released
- **1994** South African democratic transition
- **1997** Hong Kong handover

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

**Independence ≠ equality**

Formal colonial government largely ended, but unequal economic relationships, inherited borders and population movements continued.

CONTINUITY AND CHANGE: AROUND 1900 AND AROUND 2000

| Dimension | Imperial order around 1900 | Post-imperial order by 2000 |
|---|---|---|
| **Political authority** | European and other empires directly or indirectly rule many territories. | Most territories possess their own governments and membership in international bodies. |
| **Economic influence** | Imperial states and trading networks set unequal terms. | Markets and institutions such as the IMF and World Bank influence states without governing them as colonies. |
| **Population** | Settler, enslaved, indentured and commercial migration reshapes societies. | Migration continues; divisions and diasporas inherited from empire remain. |
| **Sources of conflict** | Territorial conquest, strategic rivalry, revolt. | Inherited borders, unequal resources and regional or ethnic tensions alongside new rivalries. |

The legacies were not only political. Colonial boundaries and population movements helped shape conflicts in the Middle East, Kashmir, Sri Lanka and elsewhere. Migrants from former colonies later moved to European states, where their labor could be valued while racist exclusion persisted. MacKenzie points to growing Asian economies and institutions such as the **World Bank** and **International Monetary Fund**, arguing that some influence formerly exercised by imperial powers now operated through economic relationships. They do not govern colonies; the issue is that **political sovereignty and economic power can differ**.

The chapter thus returns to its opening contrast. Imperial governments lost most of their colonies, while a **westernized nationalist bourgeoisie** came to govern many independent states. Yet older systems had left borders, patterns of migration, trading ties and inequalities that were harder to undo. **Formal empire largely ended; the unequal structures and disputes shaped by imperialism did not.** That is both the achievement and the limit of twentieth-century decolonization.

# § Revision: What Ended—and What Endured

*Test the difference between independence on paper and continuing influence in practice.*

For revision, follow one connected chain: **imperial expansion → competing forms of rule → British overstretch → world wars → nationalist decolonization → independent states with enduring imperial legacies**. Explain how each stage changes the conditions for the next rather than memorizing the list as isolated facts.

KEY TERMINOLOGY — CLICK THE DOTTED-UNDERLINED TERMS WHEN READING ONLINE

| Term | Meaning in this chapter |
|---|---|
| **imperial power** | The ability of a state to control other peoples or territories through political, military or economic influence. |
| **formal independence** | A territory becomes politically independent and is no longer directly governed as a colony. |
| **Monroe Doctrine** | A US policy opposing renewed European colonization or interference in the Americas, later used to justify US regional influence. |
| **nationalist movements** | Political movements seeking self-government or independence for a nation or people. |
| **two-power standard** | The British naval aim of maintaining a fleet at least as strong as the next two largest navies combined. |
| **guerrilla warfare** | A method of fighting using small, mobile attacks rather than set-piece battles by large armies. |
| **apartheid** | South Africa’s later system of legally enforced racial segregation and white-minority rule. |
| **splendid isolation** | Britain’s preference for avoiding permanent alliances with other major European powers while relying on its own strength. |
| **Great Game** | The strategic rivalry between Britain and Russia over Central Asia and the approaches to British India. |

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

**The question to answer**

How did empires lose direct rule, and why did their influence persist? Link **forms of control → pressures → decolonization → legacies**.

KEY TERMINOLOGY — CLICK THE DOTTED-UNDERLINED TERMS WHEN READING ONLINE (CONTINUED)

| Term | Meaning in this chapter |
|---|---|
| **mandate system** | The League-supervised administration of former German and Ottoman territories by designated victorious powers. |
| **imperial preference** | Preferential trade arrangements giving products from within an empire advantages over outside imports. |
| **decolonization** | The process by which colonies end foreign rule and gain political independence. |
| **dyarchy** | A division of governing responsibilities between different authorities; here used for limited Indian powers alongside continued British control. |
| **westernized nationalist bourgeoisie** | Educated, often Western-trained middle-class nationalist leaders who came to govern many new states. |

CHAPTER 02

# Nationalism

*Study notes: The Paradox of the Modern Civic Religion / The Secular Religion of the Modern Age*

R. J. B. BOSWORTH

CENTRAL THESIS

The nation is a **modern construct** and a kind of **civic religion**: made possible by Enlightenment rationalism, industrial modernity and mass institutions, yet sustained by invented traditions, collective myths and the exclusion of an “Other.”

TIMELINE

- **1599**
- **1789**
- **1914**
- **1948**
- **2000**

In 1599, Shakespeare staged a tense exchange in *Henry V* in which the Irish soldier MacMorris demands of a Welsh counterpart, “What ish my nation? Who talks of my nation?” The word “nationalism” had not yet emerged, yet the scene anticipates the visceral power of belonging—and its potential to divide. National identity now structures passports, taxation, civic obligations and even the sporting teams people support. It can inspire sacrifice, solidarity and violence.

The nation often appears to be an eternal fact of nature. Here it is understood as a modern political idea—one that promises collective identity but measures belonging against an excluded “Other.” That tension provides the chapter’s central problem.

## I Defining the Nation: Theoretical Perspectives

*What scholars mean when they call nations modern or imagined.*

Scholars disagree about the nation’s origins and moral meaning. Some locate its rise in the institutions of modernity; others emphasize the fabrication of traditions, the force of shared imagination or the historical depth of ethnic identities.

FOUR INTERPRETATIONS OF THE NATION

| Thinker | Perspective | Central claim |
|---|---|---|
| **Ernst Gellner** | Modernist | Nationalism is connected to the development of bureaucracy, mass education and industry. |
| **Eric Hobsbawm** | Marxist / critical | National belonging can operate as “false consciousness” sustained by “inventors of tradition.” |
| **Benedict Anderson** | Constructivist | Nations are “imagined communities”; shared identity may bring comfort and joy even among strangers. |
| **Anthony D. Smith** | Ethnic / organicist | Ethnic identities can have deep “organic” roots predating modern nation-states. |

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**Four readings of nationalism**

**Gellner**
Industry and bureaucracy

**Hobsbawm**
Invented tradition

**Anderson**
Imagined community

**Smith**
Deep ethnic roots

DEFINITION

**Imagined community**

Anderson’s idea that members of a nation imagine a shared communion despite never meeting most other members.

These theories ask different questions. **Anderson** explains how strangers imagine a shared community; **Hobsbawm** asks how traditions acquire apparently ancient authority; **Smith** stresses ethnic continuities that accounts of modern construction can overlook. The table also identifies **Gellner's** institutional explanation, developed in Section IV.

## II The Three Pillars of National Myth

*Nature, language and history are turned into evidence of belonging.*

### 1. NATURE AND "NATIVE SOIL"

Nationalists regularly present mountains, rivers, coastlines and landscapes as eternal frontiers: the Pyrenees, the Rhine or a cherished "native soil." Distinctive flowers, foods and scenery become national emblems—tulips, kiwis or spaghetti. Yet rivers can be channeled, soils paved over and coastlines altered. Even the cultural appreciation of mountains or beaches for leisure has a history rather than timeless meaning.

The point is not that geography is unreal, but that the *national meaning* attached to geography is historically produced. Romanticism helped transform natural landscapes into symbols of collective identity.

### 2. LANGUAGE AND THE MOTHER TONGUE

Language is often treated as proof of a primordial nation. But there are approximately **6,800 languages** with about **230 states**, demonstrating that linguistic and political boundaries do not map neatly onto each other. Countries can share languages inherited through imperial histories; Canada, Paraguay and Yemen illustrate different ways languages cross supposedly natural national divisions.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**Three pillars to test**

| Nature | Language | History |
|---|---|---|

Ask which supposedly ancient source of identity has been interpreted or constructed politically.

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

**Languages are not states**

**6,800 : 230**

approximate languages to states, as presented in the account

Political borders do not map neatly onto linguistic ones.

Modern Hebrew, Greek and Italian are given as examples of languages deliberately revived, standardized or shaped during nation-building. Language also varies with class, gender and migration. It can be an instrument of national integration rather than an immutable precondition of statehood.

### 3. HISTORY AND THE “USABLE PAST”

Every nation needs a story connecting its present with an imagined past and future. Nineteenth-century writers such as **Jules Michelet** in France and **George Bancroft** in the United States helped furnish national histories with near-biblical moral purpose. The emergence of journals such as the *English Historical Review*, *American Historical Review* and *Rivista Storica Italiana* accompanied the professionalization of historical writing.

The “usable past” can therefore unify a population even as it distorts complexity. Hobsbawm’s critical warning is that nationalism often demands assent to what careful historical scrutiny cannot sustain. History can build nations, but rigorous history can also challenge their myths.

> *“Nationalism requires too much belief in what is patently not so.”*
> ERIC HOBSBAWM

# III The Nationalization of the Masses

*How a secular political identity acquires the force of religion.*

Historian **George Mosse** called this process the “nationalization of the masses.” In the Enlightenment and French Revolutionary imagination, popular will displaced divine right and the monarch’s personal authority. Yet as the old religious order receded, the “God of the Nation” took its place. The nation became a **civic religion** requiring loyalty, ritual and symbols that command something close to sacred respect.

THE CIVIC RELIGION: ANALOGIES OF RITUAL AND DEVOTION

| Traditional religious form | National counterpart |
|---|---|
| Saints, founders of faith | National heroes and founding figures |
| Hymns and sacred chants | National anthems, including *La Marseillaise* |
| Holy relics | Flags and other revered emblems |
| Blasphemy | The perceived desecration or “insult” of the nation |
| Collective religious ceremony | Anthem rituals, public festivals, sporting spectacles and visible insignia |

Flags, anthems, festivals, lapel pins and sporting occasions continually rehearse belonging. These familiar rituals do not simply reflect a pre-existing nation: they help teach people to experience it as a shared moral community.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**Nationalism as civic religion**

**Sacred ritual**
Hymns, relics and saints

**National ritual**
Anthems, flags and founders

## IV Bureaucracy, Railways and Industrial Modernity

*Modern institutions make national identity administratively effective.*

Nationalism became powerful not only because of sentiment but because it suited the practical needs of modern industrial societies. Railways—the emblem of nineteenth-century technological advance—demanded coordinated routes, administration and bounded jurisdictions. The modern bureaucracy required trained citizens who could communicate through standardized institutions.

Mass education thus joined language teaching with a state-sponsored account of national history. The resulting relationship could be expressed as a chain: **industrial coordination → centralized bureaucracy → national education → standardized language and historical identity**. To be modern was increasingly to be educated; to be educated was also to be "nationalized."

## V Socialism and Communism: The Anti-Nation

*Why international class solidarity did not displace national loyalty.*

**Karl Marx** and **Friedrich Engels** offered the most influential universalist challenge: class, not ethnicity, was supposed to organize the modern world. The appeal to the workers of all countries to unite implied a solidarity that could supersede state frontiers.

The First World War exposed the fragility of that claim. In 1914, the German Social Democratic movement supported war credits for its national government, revealing national allegiance as more politically compelling than socialist internationalism. The Soviet Union likewise professed a transnational union of workers, yet Stalin, once associated with the nationality question, mobilized Russian historical heroes such as **Ivan the Terrible** and **Peter the Great** during the "Great Patriotic War."

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**How modernity spread belonging**

Railways & industry
↓
Bureaucracy
↓
Mass education
↓
National identity

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**Universal class loyalty prevailed?**

**Claim:** Socialist internationalism superseded nationalism.

**Counterexample:** In 1914, German social democrats supported war credits for their national government.

The recurring paradox is that an ideology designed to transcend nations repeatedly borrowed the emotional language and collective memories of the nation to survive.

## VI The Jewish Experience: Exclusion, Racism and Zionism

*The destructive consequences of measuring who belongs.*

The experience of European Jews provides a particularly stark example of nationalism's exclusionary logic. Enlightenment ideals initially promised individuals the chance to participate as secular citizens. In the nineteenth and twentieth centuries, however, racial ideologues converted the impulse to classify society into claims about immutable "blood," making Jews the supposed ultimate outsider because they were said to lack one territory or one language within Europe.

Nationalist pseudo-science reached its most murderous form in the Nazi "Final Solution," including mass murder at Auschwitz. A desire to classify, perfect and order society was transformed into a program of racial extermination.

**Theodor Herzl** proposed a Zionist state in response to antisemitic exclusion. Israel's establishment in **1948** illustrates a different paradox: the effort to secure national refuge and sovereignty intertwines modern civic belonging with inherited religion, migration and claims of historical continuity.

EXAM INSIGHT

**Follow the mechanism of exclusion**

Connect the constructed "Other" to racial pseudoscience and antisemitic persecution rather than treating national identity as automatically inclusive.

# VII Modern Nationalism and the Return of Religion

*The late-century tension between secular civic identity and fundamentalist certainty.*

At the end of the twentieth century, **Francis Fukuyama's** "end of history" argument suggested the worldwide triumph of liberal democracy. Yet the sources emphasize the continuing entanglement of nationalism with religious and ideological certainty. The United States exemplifies a particular contradiction: it defines itself through liberal democracy and constant immigration, while some forms of national identity claim a distinct Christian moral foundation and cast American principles as universally valid.

NATIONAL AND RELIGIOUS IDENTITIES IN THE EXAMPLES

| Setting | Political and religious tensions |
|---|---|
| **United States** | Wilsonian liberal democracy, capitalism and a changing immigrant society alongside Christian fundamentalism. |
| **India** | Modern national government and Hindu religious nationalism. |
| **Israel** | Civic nationalism, Jewish religious identity and settlement politics. |
| **Arab states** | Nation-building in tension with wider Muslim solidarity and Sunni–Shi'ite divisions. |

The underlying pattern is the reappearance of exclusive, sacred claims within a political form born from Enlightenment rationalism. This does not imply every nationalism has the same effects; it highlights the persistent risk when belonging becomes a test of moral purity.

EXAM INSIGHT

**Separate ideology from example**

The chapter traces national-religious tensions in the US, India, Israel and Arab states. Compare the examples without assuming their histories are identical.

Nationalism was among the most successful political forms of the period between **1789 and 2000**. It accompanied major advances in education, industry, citizenship and human welfare, but it also made collective identity dependent on myth, hierarchy and exclusion. The nation began with hopes of **liberty, equality and fraternity** and could deploy irrational faith and violence to defend its boundaries.

NATIONALISM: FOUR LINKED FINDINGS

| Finding | What to remember |
|---|---|
| **Identity** | Belonging is defined partly against an “Other.” |
| **Modernity** | Industry, railways, administration and education made national identities powerful. |
| **Myth** | Nature, language and a “usable past” are presented as timeless foundations. |
| **Conflict** | A rational ideal of progress can coexist with exclusionary ritual and destructive ideology. |

The central contradiction remains: a nation promises universal progress for its members while potentially requiring the exclusion of those outside the imagined community. In this interpretation, it is simultaneously a vehicle of modernity and a source of enduring political division.

# § Revision: Nationalism's Internal Contradiction

*Four principles for revision.*

> *"Identity is meaningless unless it conjoins future and past to what is presently occurring. History is both the primary tool of 'nation-building' and, when pursued rigorously, the most trenchant critic of this process."*
>
> R. J. B. BOSWORTH

CHAPTER 03

# Internationalism

*Study notes: The Century-Long Journey Toward a World Community*

CENTRAL THESIS

Internationalism has created functional cooperation, a broader body of international law and a growing global civil society, but its ambition to transcend international anarchy remains in persistent tension with the **sovereignty of nation-states**.

TIMELINE

- **1863**
- **1899**
- **1919**
- **1945**
- **1955**
- **1992**
- **2003**

**Internationalism** is a strategy for transcending the perceived anarchy of international relations: sovereign states traditionally face no effective authority above them. In matters of common concern—peace, security and law—internationalism asks states to accept formal commitments that limit unilateral action.

Across the twentieth century, the ideal developed from narrow cross-border agreements to a wider global civil society. Yet it always confronted the same dilemma: the institutions of a world community depend on states willing to restrain their own sovereignty.

# Ⅰ Pragmatic Foundations: Functionalism before 1914

*International organization begins with concrete problems.*

## INTERNATIONAL PUBLIC UNIONS

Expanding trade, communications and scientific cooperation made purely national solutions impractical. Governments created technical public unions to standardize common practices while preserving sovereign rights.

EARLY INTERNATIONAL PUBLIC UNIONS

| Organization | Founded | Primary function |
|---|---|---|
| **International Telecommunication Union** | 1865 | Global telegraph and communication standards. |
| **Universal Postal Union** | 1874 | A single postal territory; standardized transit charges. |
| **Bureau of Weights and Measures** | 1875 | Systematic scientific and intellectual collaboration. |
| **Permanent Sugar Commission** | 1902 | Common commodity management, including majority voting. |

MEMORY ANCHOR

**Institutions before world government**

- **1865** Telecommunication Union
- **1874** Universal Postal Union
- **1875** Weights and Measures
- **1902** Sugar Commission

DEFINITION

**Arbitration**

A procedure for settling inter-state disputes through agreed adjudication. At The Hague, it remained largely **voluntary**.

### THE ORIGINS OF HUMANITARIAN LAW

Founded in **1863**, the **International Committee of the Red Cross (ICRC)** introduced a non-state humanitarian presence in conflict by assisting casualties and prisoners. Its effectiveness depended on respect for the rights of governments, including the principle of "unanimous consent of the princes and nations of Europe."

### THE HAGUE CONFERENCES OF 1899 AND 1907

These conferences were among the first substantial efforts to limit the dangers of modern warfare. They did *not* produce disarmament, but they codified rules of land warfare and advanced peaceful dispute resolution.

**Codification:** The **1899 Convention on the Law and Customs of War on Land** provided a general multilateral statement of land-war rules. **Arbitration:** The **Permanent Court of Arbitration** established in 1899 was a panel of nominees rather than a permanently sitting court; governments resisted compulsory arbitration.

## II The League of Nations: The Great Experiment

*Collective security confronts the veto of sovereign power.*

The destruction of **1914–18** led to an unprecedented attempt to replace "unbridled nationalism" with collective security. Established in **1919**, the **League of Nations** made the aspiration of organized peace a standing political institution.

> *"Today we stand on a bridge leading from the territorial state to the world community."*
> CHRISTIAN LANGE, 1921 NOBEL PEACE PRIZE LECTURE

EXAM INSIGHT

**The League had two records**

**Security:** Failure to stop aggression in Manchuria, Ethiopia and Austria.

**Cooperation:** Significant advances in law, health and technical regulation.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**How the League worked**

| | |
|---|---|
| **Council** | Security; unanimity |
| **Assembly** | One vote per member |
| **Secretariat** | International civil service |

THE LEAGUE'S THREE PRINCIPAL ORGANS

| Organ | Role | Constraint / significance |
|---|---|---|
| **Council** | Executive security body | Unanimity allowed Great Powers to retain control. |
| **Assembly** | Public debate among member states | One vote per member gave smaller states an unusually strong voice. |
| **Secretariat** | International civil service | Coordinated administration rather than acting as an independent diplomatic player. |

## THE CONFLICT OVER SOVEREIGNTY

The League had no standing armed forces and relied on the voluntary cooperation of its members. It remained an adjunct of Great Power politics rather than a government over states. British Foreign Secretary **Lord Curzon** captured the principle in 1920:

> *"The League does not interfere with nationality. It is upon the fact of nationhood that it rests. The League is an association of sovereign states."*
>
> LORD CURZON, 1920

## ACHIEVEMENTS AND POLITICAL ECLIPSE

In social and technical affairs, the League coordinated efforts concerning drugs, liquor, slavery, health, communications and transit. Its legal activity included more than **120 new instruments** and the creation of the **Permanent Court of International Justice (PCIJ)** in **1922**.

Its security ambitions nonetheless collapsed into "unhappy irrelevance" in the late 1930s. It could not effectively check aggression in **Manchuria**, **Ethiopia** or the German absorption of **Austria**. The contrast between valuable technical cooperation and political failure is central to evaluating the League.

# III The United Nations: A New Global Police?

*Sovereign equality meets Great Power predominance.*

Created in **1945**, the **United Nations** inherited the League's internationalist aspirations but sought stronger measures against "naked aggression." Its Charter paired the language of sovereign equality with recognition of the major powers' capacity to act independently.

## THE SECURITY COUNCIL AND THE VETO

The five permanent members—**the United States, the Soviet Union, Britain, France and China**—received a **veto**. This embedded Great Power predominance at the center of the postwar security system even as the organization claimed universal principles.

## COLD WAR STALEMATE

The bipolar confrontation frequently immobilized the UN. The **USSR and United States used the veto 174 times combined between 1946 and 1990**. States therefore sought security through blocs such as **NATO** and the **Warsaw Pact**.

As newly independent countries joined in the 1960s, the UN's agenda increasingly emphasized **decolonization** and **economic development**, extending its role beyond military security.

## LEGITIMACY DESPITE FAILURE

The UN failed to prevent or halt atrocities in **Yugoslavia** and **Rwanda**, but it gained a distinctive legitimacy as a place where lawful international action ought to be discussed. Criticism of the **2003 Iraq War**, undertaken without UN sanction, illustrated the growing expectation that powerful states justify their conduct against international legal norms.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**Sovereignty versus enforcement**

| Legal ideal | Power reality |
| --- | --- |
| Equal sovereign states | Five permanent-member vetoes |

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

**Cold War vetoes**

**174**

combined Soviet and US vetoes, 1946–1990 (total in this account)

# IV Alternative Internationalisms beyond the State

*Class solidarity and humanitarian intervention offer different routes.*

## SOCIALIST INTERNATIONALISM

The **Comintern (Third International)**, founded in **1919**, pursued a world in which international class solidarity would transcend territorial states. In practice, the organization became closely tied to Soviet power and was discredited by its instrumental role in Soviet imperial expansion.

## THE "NEW HUMANITARIANISM"

Non-governmental organizations increasingly filled needs national governments could not or would not meet. Two humanitarian approaches differ:

TWO HUMANITARIAN MODELS

| Model | Underlying approach |
|---|---|
| **ICRC (traditional)** | Strict neutrality to maintain access to victims and prisoners. |
| **Médecins Sans Frontières (new)** | An explicitly political human-rights outlook, prepared to challenge official neutrality. |

These models illustrate an important divergence: transnational assistance can operate by respecting state consent or by publicly confronting abuses. Both enlarge the sphere of actors beyond the sovereign state.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**Two humanitarian models**

**ICRC**
Neutrality for access

**MSF**
Public human-rights advocacy

DEFINITION

**Comintern**

Third International, established in 1919 to advocate transnational class solidarity; the chapter emphasizes its later subordination to Soviet interests.

By the end of the twentieth century, political boundaries had become more permeable through international law, global organizations, professional associations, multinational companies and humanitarian networks. Yet the state remained the “foundation stone” of world organization: the very institutions designed to limit unilateral action still depended on states for consent and enforcement.

FOUR PHASES OF INTERNATIONALISM

| Era | Central mechanism | Primary goal | Relation to sovereignty |
|---|---|---|---|
| **Pre-1914** | Functional unions | Technical and economic efficiency | Sovereignty remains largely absolute; cooperation is narrowly scoped. |
| **League era** | Collective security | Prevention of war | Voluntary membership with weak enforcement. |
| **UN era** | Great Power security directorate | Response to aggression | Lawful force is contemplated, but major-power vetoes persist. |
| **Modern era** | Global civil society | Human rights and global management | Borders are more permeable; transnational actors multiply. |

**Final takeaways:** The idea of an international community is now too broadly recognized to discard; NGOs, corporations and professional associations blur local and global identities; and internationalism still depends on **states agreeing to limit their own freedom of action**. The “bridge” toward a world community continues to be built rather than having reached its destination.

# § Revision: The Perpetual Balance

*International community grows without eliminating the nation-state.*

MEMORY ANCHOR

**Four phases of cooperation**

1. Functional unions
2. League security
3. UN power politics
4. Global civil society

> *“The time of absolute and exclusive sovereignty ... has passed.”*
>
> BOUTROS BOUTROS-GHALI, 1992

CHAPTER 04

# A Shrinking World

*Study notes: The 20th Century's Acceleration of Globalism*

CENTRAL THESIS

Global interconnectedness is an ancient process. What made the twentieth century distinctive was not the invention of globalism, but its **unprecedented acceleration**: transport and communication compressed distance, time and the boundaries of political, economic and cultural life.

TIMELINE

- **1853**
- **1876**
- **1890**
- **1903**
- **1913**
- **1946**
- **1952**
- **1960**
- **1969**
- **1989**

Jeffrey A. Engel's account of **a shrinking world** traces the technological, economic and social transformation of previously distant regions into an increasingly connected global marketplace and shared consciousness. It is an argument about the *pace* of change, not simply a succession of inventions.

## I A Process of Pace, Not Just Innovation

*The desire to bridge distance is ancient; twentieth-century speed was new.*

Long before the twentieth century, people crossed frontiers for trade, power and movement: the **Punic Wars** and the road networks of **Genghis Khan** show that linking distant places was never a modern invention. Earlier generations also regarded themselves as pioneers of interconnection.

What changed was the ability to sustain **truly global political, financial and cultural structures**. Real-time electronic communication and journeys completed in hours compressed time and space. Following the fall of communism and the end of the Cold War, the century saw the emergence of a practically universal marketplace.

## II The Communications Revolution

*Information moved from physical wires to invisible signals and shared images.*

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**Globalism began in the twentieth century**

| Long history | New velocity |
| --- | --- |
| Punic Wars; Mongol road networks | Real-time messages and travel in hours |

HIGH-YIELD FINDING

**What actually shrank?**

Time to communicate
↓
Time to travel
↓
Distance between markets

## TELEGRAPHY: THE FIRST HIGH-SPEED INFORMATION NETWORK

The electric telegraph was already central to international relations at the century's start. **Morse code** transmitted information across long distances by wire, making rapid exchange possible before goods or people could arrive. The search for transoceanic cables led to the **first scientific mapping of the ocean floor in 1853**—an example of commercial demand stimulating scientific investigation.

**Economic centralization:** Traders could learn world prices long before shipments arrived. By linking markets in **American cotton, Indian rice and Australian beef**, telegraphy helped turn **London into the global banking hub**. Faster information reshaped financial authority as well as commerce.

## TELEPHONY: A VOICE ON THE WIRE

**Alexander Graham Bell** patented the telephone in **1876**. Unlike the telegraph, it brought human speech into electronic communications. The expense of a long-distance call then fell dramatically over the century.

AFFORDABILITY OF A THREE-MINUTE US COAST-TO-COAST CALL

| Year | Service | Cost to an average worker |
|---|---|---|
| **1925** | Three-minute coast-to-coast telephone call | Nearly a full day's salary |
| **1983** | Three-minute coast-to-coast telephone call | Less than five minutes of salary |

## WIRELESS, RADIO AND THE PARADOX OF PEACE

In the **1890s**, **Guglielmo Marconi** helped pioneer radio and wireless communication, freeing messages from the need for continuous physical cables. Wireless became crucial for maritime safety, notably during the *Titanic* disaster, and for military strategy.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**The telegraph transformed markets**

Price information arrives
↓
Trade can be coordinated
↓
London's financial centrality grows

HIGH-YIELD COMPARISON

**The price of a telephone call**

**1925**
≈ One working day's pay

**1983**
< Five minutes of pay

EXAM INSIGHT

**Communication is not the same as peace**

**Promise:** faster contact should lessen conflict.

**Counterexample:** the 1917 Zimmerman Telegram showed how insecure communications could worsen crises.

Promoters repeatedly claimed that easier communication would foster peace. Yet the **Zimmerman Telegram (1917)** demonstrated another possibility: rapid but insecure information could inflame passions and accelerate conflict. Connectivity was not automatically a force for harmony.

### TELEVISION AND THE MAKING OF GLOBAL CONSCIOUSNESS

Envisioned at the **1900 World's Fair** and developed through the cathode-ray tube, television became a dominant cultural medium after **1945**. US household television ownership grew from roughly **8,000 in 1946** to **more than 45 million by 1960**.

Television enabled simultaneous or shared viewing of events such as the **1969 Moon landing**, the **1989 fall of the Berlin Wall**, and the **Tiananmen Square crackdown**. It also produced cross-border celebrities—from **Michael Jordan** to **David Beckham**—whose public recognition could exceed that of political or religious leaders.

## III The Travel Revolution

*Internal combustion and aerodynamics transformed physical movement.*

### THE AUTOMOBILE: MASS PRODUCTION AND ITS COSTS

Cars moved from expensive curiosities for enthusiasts to a central feature of mass consumption. **Henry Ford did not invent the automobile or the assembly line**; he perfected the assembly-line method for automobile production. In **1913**, production time fell from about **12.5 hours** to **under three hours** per car.

HIGH-YIELD FIGURE

**The television explosion**

**45m+**

US homes with televisions by 1960, versus approximately 8,000 in 1946.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**Four turning points in movement**

| | |
|---|---|
| **1903** | Wright brothers' first flight |
| **1913** | Ford assembly line |
| **1930s** | Douglas DC-3 |
| **1952** | de Havilland Comet jet |

COMMON MISTAKE

**What Ford actually invented**

**Not** the car or assembly line itself.

He **perfected mass-production methods**, cutting the time per car from 12.5 to under three hours.

Automobility changed landscapes and cities, prompting government spending on large transport networks, including the **1956 Interstate Highway Act** in the United States. By the 1960s its darker consequences had become apparent: **Los Angeles smog**, traffic hazards and safety criticisms such as **Ralph Nader's *Unsafe at Any Speed***.

### AVIATION: KITTY HAWK TO THE JET AGE

Air travel was overwhelmingly a twentieth-century transformation. The Wright brothers' first flight in **1903** lasted **59 seconds**. Military contracts accelerated aviation; observers already understood by **1909** that even the **English Channel** could no longer guarantee geographical isolation.

The **Douglas DC-3** made profitable transcontinental commercial travel increasingly practical during the **1930s**. The British **de Havilland Comet** inaugurated commercial jet service in **1952**, but serious technical failures and crashes eventually helped American manufacturers, including **Boeing**, take the lead.

> *"The A-380, and the Boeing 747 before it, each offers a wingspan longer than the total distance of the Wright brothers' first flight."*

### CONCLUSION: THE NEUTRALITY OF TECHNOLOGY

The chapter treats technology as **morally neutral**: its effects depend on how people use it. An airplane can reconnect families or deliver bombs; television can inform viewers or encourage sedentary living; the Internet can organize social change or facilitate criminal networks. The decisive factor is the human **will to use the tools**.

The account also links technology to **more homogeneous goods and more global firms**. Political conditions shaped access: it contrasts relatively open telephony in the West with authoritarian surveillance and restrictions elsewhere. Faster connection therefore changed both commerce and the means of political control.

The century's overarching result was the **annihilation of time and distance**. Connectivity was an ancient aspiration, but its new speed affected nearly every part of political, financial and cultural life. Globalization was therefore not a finished destination but an **accelerating process** continuing into the twenty-first century.

# § Summary of Technological Milestones

*Five technologies that compressed the global scale.*

TECHNOLOGIES AND THEIR GLOBAL EFFECTS

| Technology | Key figure or event | Primary impact |
|---|---|---|
| **Telegraph** | Samuel Morse | First global financial and news network. |
| **Radio** | Guglielmo Marconi | Ship-to-shore safety and mass broadcasting. |
| **Automobile** | Henry Ford | Mass production and altered urban geography. |
| **Aviation** | Wright brothers / Juan Trippe | Conquest of distance; near-24-hour global access. |
| **Television** | Zworkin / Baird | Shared visual culture on a global scale. |

REVISION MEMORY ANCHOR

**Recall both revolutions**

1. **Telegraph + radio**
2. **Television**
3. **Automobile**
4. **Aviation**

FINAL TAKEAWAYS

**Three lessons from the century**

| | |
|---|---|
| **Utopian claims** | Every technological leap inspired premature forecasts of peace. |
| **Global firms** | Technology made goods more homogeneous and firms more global. |
| **Political control** | Open telephony in the West; authoritarian surveillance and limits elsewhere. |

CHAPTER 05

# A Changing Diplomatic World

*Study notes: The Evolution and Transformation of Modern Diplomacy*

CENTRAL THESIS

Twentieth-century diplomacy was transformed by communication, total war and a multiplication of international actors. Foreign services became more **professional, centralized and specialized**—yet those same changes increasingly threatened the autonomy and distinctiveness of the traditional diplomat.

TIMELINE

- **1827**
- **1855**
- **1907**
- **1917**
- **1924**
- **1943**
- **1999**
- **2004**

Diplomacy changed from the relatively private and aristocratic **“Old Diplomacy”** of the nineteenth century into a more complex system of professional services, specialized agencies, public negotiations and multilateral organizations. These changes reflected the transformation of international relations themselves.

# I The Catalysts of Diplomatic Change

*Technology, total war and a rapidly expanding set of actors.*

## TECHNOLOGICAL REVOLUTION

The **steamship and railway** opened distant areas to regular travel and trade, creating demands for reliable mail systems and consular representation. The **telegraph** was even more disruptive: ambassadors who had once acted on their own judgment could now receive instructions and report back to their home ministries within hours. This began to shift diplomatic authority from the post abroad toward officials in the capital.

Later **aviation, television and the Internet** compressed decision-making times further. Electronic information and mass-media coverage gave the public a new capacity to observe—and influence—foreign policy, pushing diplomacy out of its traditional secrecy.

## TOTAL WAR AND THE “NEW DIPLOMACY”

In the nineteenth century, **Clausewitz** famously described war as the continuation of politics by other means. The chemical weapons and mass civilian casualties of twentieth-century **total war** made that idea harder to defend. War increasingly became something diplomacy sought to prevent rather than merely serve.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**The telegraph changed who decided**

Ambassador acts independently

↓

Rapid instructions reach post

↓

Capital controls decisions

MEMORY ANCHOR

**Wilson’s three pillars of peace**

| Democracy | Free trade | Collective security |
|---|---|---|

HIGH-YIELD CONTRAST

**Old power map versus new**

| Before | After |
|---|---|
| European governments and envoys | States, NGOs, organizations, corporations |

**Woodrow Wilson's "New Diplomacy"**, prominent after **1917**, contrasted with secretive, narrowly national balance-of-power politics. It emphasized the preservation of peace through **democratization** (public accountability and distrust of authoritarian regimes), **free trade** (interdependence as a barrier to war) and **collective security** (permanent procedures against aggression rather than changing ad hoc alliances).

### THE PROLIFERATION OF INTERNATIONAL ACTORS

The diplomatic world no longer belonged to a few European courts. Successive waves of new states emerged after the **Habsburg and Ottoman collapses**, after post-1945 decolonization and following the **break-up of the Soviet Union**.

Other participants included **Amnesty International** and **Greenpeace**, which produced independent information and influenced governments; the **League of Nations, United Nations, NATO and European Union**, which offered multilateral forums; and **multinational corporations** sometimes richer than small states. Globalized terrorism also exploited modern technology to bypass established diplomatic channels.

## II Professionalization and Administrative Reform

*Foreign ministries had to become staffed institutions rather than personal networks.*

### FROM ARISTOCRATIC PRIVILEGE TO CAREER SERVICE

The diplomatic profession developed merit-based entry and predictable ranks. **Prussia introduced examinations in 1827** and **Britain in 1855**; **France (1858)** and **Britain (1861)** formalized career hierarchies. The old **unpaid attaché** system disproportionately favored the independently wealthy.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**Four steps toward career diplomacy**

- **1827** Prussia: entry examinations
- **1855** Britain: entry examinations
- **1907** France: service merger
- **1924** US Rogers Act

DEFINITION

**Diplomatic versus consular**

| Diplomatic | Consular |
|---|---|
| Political relations | Trade and commercial matters |

EXAM INSIGHT

**Two routes to reduced envoy autonomy**

| Communication | Leader travel |
|---|---|
| Telegraph lets ministries direct envoys rapidly. | Summits let leaders negotiate directly. |

Salary reform broadened access and established diplomacy as a professional civil service. The **US Rogers Act of 1924** offered sufficient remuneration for career diplomats, emblematic of a broader shift away from aristocratic dependence.

## EXPANSION, SPECIALISTS AND FOREIGN-SERVICE STAFFING

Wider responsibilities required larger services and specialist expertise. The table illustrates that expansion; its different benchmark years prevent a direct comparison of national growth rates.

ILLUSTRATIVE GROWTH IN FOREIGN-SERVICE STAFFING (YEARS DIFFER)

| Country | Earlier staffing | Later staffing |
|---|---|---|
| **France** | 477 (1945) | 9,293 (2004) |
| **United States** | 1,228 (1900) | 15,506 (1997) |
| **Germany** | Approximately 350 (1900) | 6,550 (“Today” (year unspecified)) |

**Merging separate services:** Diplomatic branches traditionally dealt with political affairs and often drew aristocratic recruits; consular branches dealt with commerce and drew staff from less privileged backgrounds. Recognizing the growing political significance of trade, **France merged the services in 1907**, followed by **Germany in 1918**, **Britain in 1943** and eventually the United States.

**New functions:** Ministries established units for cultural diplomacy (including **Alliance Française** and the **British Council**), press relations and multilateral affairs. These divisions acknowledged that international influence had become more than confidential political negotiation.

### CENTRALIZATION AND THE DECLINE OF EMBASSY AUTONOMY

In the nineteenth century, a “family embassy” might travel with an ambassador’s personally recruited staff. More complex affairs required permanent, interchangeable officials loyal to the ministry rather than the individual envoy.

**Summit diplomacy** further reduced the envoy’s monopoly. Improved travel enabled leaders to negotiate directly—in the “Geneva tea parties” of the 1920s and wartime meetings such as **Tehran** and **Yalta**. Ambassadors increasingly supported or implemented decisions made at higher political levels.

## III Different National Paths to Modernization

*The same pressures produced different state-level institutional responses.*

### FRANCE: THE ADMINISTRATIVE INNOVATOR

France pioneered the union of diplomatic and consular services, geographic divisions of foreign-policy work and cultural diplomacy, exemplified by **Alliance Française**.

### GERMANY: REFORM AFTER 1918

Major restructuring followed the fall of the Kaiser’s regime. Germany was the first to experiment with a **Secretary of State for foreign economic policy**, making the economic dimension more visibly part of diplomacy.

### UNITED KINGDOM: A LATE MERGER

Britain retained the diplomatic–consular division longer than France. Its wartime unification illustrates how slowly institutions could adapt even after commercial relations had become central to foreign policy.

IMPORTANT COMPARISON

**Four national reform patterns**

| | |
|---|---|
| **France**<br>Early merger; cultural diplomacy | **Germany**<br>Post-1918 overhaul; economic specialization |
| **Britain**<br>Merged services in 1943 | **USA**<br>Agency model; 1999 integration |

### UNITED STATES: THE AGENCY MODEL

Instead of placing every new function directly within the State Department, the United States built partly autonomous organizations, including the **CIA, USAID and USIA**. The **Foreign Affairs and Restructuring Act of 1999** subsequently integrated many such functions into the State Department.

## IV The Contemporary Crisis: The End of Classic Diplomacy?

*More global affairs do not necessarily mean more autonomy for diplomats.*

### THE EROSION OF INFORMATION MONOPOLY

Diplomats once functioned as a government's primary overseas "eyes and ears." By the twenty-first century, **CNN** and **Al-Jazeera** could report events as they occurred, shaping priorities before an embassy memo arrived. Intelligence services likewise assumed a larger role in planning high-stakes policy, including around the **Gulf War**.

### DOMESTIC AND FOREIGN POLICY CONVERGE

Globalization made the boundary between domestic and international issues less clear. **Finance ministers (G8)**, justice officials and environment ministers routinely negotiated directly with counterparts, often without relying on their foreign ministries.

**The European Union** illustrates this shift especially clearly: domestic ministries such as Agriculture and Interior maintain their own European divisions, while the **Council of the European Union**, consisting of specialist ministers, is a principal decision-making body. The traditional all-purpose diplomat becomes a secondary participant in many policy areas.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**More diplomacy must mean stronger diplomats**

**More global negotiation** creates additional work.

But **media, intelligence agencies and specialist ministries** can reduce the classic envoy's independent role.

IMPORTANT CONCEPT

**The EU's specialist channel**

Domestic-policy ministry

↓

Specialist EU negotiations

↓

Council of EU ministers

# § Key Insights: The Diplomatic Transformation

*Specialization strengthens institutions but challenges the classic envoy.*

> *“While in the nineteenth century Clausewitz could still claim that war was the continuation of politics ... the total war of the new century proved so abominable that it could no longer be justified by political means and became completely discredited instead.”*

**Three historical stages: Old Diplomacy (pre-1914)** was aristocratic, relatively autonomous, secretive and concerned with the balance of power. **New Diplomacy (1918–1945)** became more professional, centralized and public-facing, while emphasizing collective security and free trade. **Modern multilateralism (after 1945)** is highly specialized, agency-intensive and intertwined with domestic governance.

**Major findings:** The telegraph transferred authority from ambassadors to the capital; merging consular and diplomatic services acknowledged trade’s centrality to state power; and the blurring of foreign and domestic affairs raises the possibility that an exclusive agency for “foreign affairs” may eventually lose its distinctive role.

REVISION MEMORY AID

**The changing face of diplomacy**

1. **Old: aristocratic**
2. **New: peace-focused**
3. **Modern: multilateral**
4. **Today: cross-ministry**

CHAPTER 06

# The Triple Alliance

*Study notes: The Irony of Stability — The Rise and Fall of the Triple Alliance*

CENTRAL THESIS

The Triple Alliance was built chiefly to **reassure, supervise and restrain** Germany, Austria-Hungary and Italy, while isolating France. Yet the defensive system intended to preserve Europe's monarchies and peace gradually hardened into rival blocs and failed to prevent the war that destroyed its founding political order.

TIMELINE

- **1871**
- **1878**
- **1879**
- **1881**
- **1882**
- **1887**
- **1890**
- **1902**
- **1914**
- **1915**

The creation of the **German Reich in 1871** reshaped the European state system. States could no longer assume that law alone guaranteed their survival. Europe had become a **"Darwinian" arena** in which military power and the support of others were essential to political security. The irony is that the defensive arrangements made to protect the new and reconstructed states helped bring about the First World War.

## I The Genesis of a New Order, 1871–1879

*New and reconstructed powers fear being undone by war.*

**Germany, Austria-Hungary and Italy** had all been made or remade through war between 1859 and 1871. Their governments feared that another war could destroy the states and constitutional settlements recently created by victory, defeat and compromise. They therefore shared an interest in stability, even while retaining ambitions and rivalries of their own.

THE FUTURE ALLIANCE MEMBERS AFTER 1871

| State | Formative event | Condition after 1871 |
|---|---|---|
| **German Empire** | Victory in the Franco-Prussian War (1870–71) | A largely satisfied power, committed to preserving the status quo. |
| **Austria-Hungary** | Defeat in 1866; Compromise of 1867 | Reconstructed Dual Monarchy, vulnerable to internal and external pressures. |
| **Italy** | Unification, 1861–70 | Constitutional monarchy aspiring to Great Power standing. |

DEFINITION

***Revanchisme***

The desire to reverse defeat or recover lost standing. Bismarck feared an aggrieved **France–Russia coalition**.

HIGH-YIELD CONTRAST

**States made by war**

**Germany**
Confident, status quo

**Austria-Hungary**
Reconstructed, vulnerable

**Italy:** newly unified, seeking status.

### THE CONGRESS OF BERLIN, 1878

After the **Russo-Turkish War**, Bismarck presented himself at the **Congress of Berlin** as an "honest broker." By cutting down the "Big Bulgaria" created under Russian auspices, the Congress avoided an immediate confrontation but disappointed St. Petersburg. Russia believed its battlefield achievements had been taken away and blamed Germany's chancellor, deepening Russo-German friction.

Bismarck feared a coalition of ***revanchisme***: a France determined to undo its defeat joined by a Russia hostile to Berlin. His strategic answer was to remain ***à trois***—one of three in a Europe of five Great Powers—so Germany would never face a hostile combination alone.

## II Constructing the Bismarckian System

*Overlapping commitments designed to reassure, deter and restrain.*

### THE DUAL ALLIANCE, 1879

Germany and Austria-Hungary concluded a **defensive pact**. If either were attacked by **Russia**, the other would provide assistance; if attacked by another power, notably **France**, the partner would maintain "benevolent neutrality." Its principal purpose was deterrence: Russia would hesitate to challenge Vienna in the Balkans if Berlin might also become an opponent.

### THE THREE EMPERORS' LEAGUE AND REINSURANCE TREATY

Bismarck also tried to keep Russia within his diplomatic system. The ***Dreikaiserbund*** **(Three Emperors' League) of 1881** emphasized monarchical solidarity against republicanism and radical social movements. Austro-Russian disputes over Bulgaria undermined it. Germany then signed the **Reinsurance Treaty with Russia in 1887**, a secret bilateral undertaking of neutrality.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**The Bismarckian sequence**

- **1879** Dual Alliance
- **1881** Three Emperors' League
- **1882** Triple Alliance
- **1887** Reinsurance Treaty

DEFINITION

***Casus foederis***

The conditions that trigger a treaty partner's duty to intervene; an attack triggering the alliance's defensive obligations was central to the *Triplice*.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**An aggressive expansion pact?**

**No:** the alliance aimed to deter attack and **restrain its own allies**, not authorize offensive war.

### THE TRIPLE ALLIANCE, 1882: THE *TRIPLICE*

**Italy joined Germany and Austria-Hungary** in 1882, despite Italy's historic antagonism with Vienna. The impetus included the **"slap of Tunisia"**: France's 1881 annexation of Tunis frustrated Italian ambitions and helped push Rome toward Berlin. For Germany, the pact was an instrument of **"surveillance and pacification"**, intended to contain its allies' rival interests as much as to defend them.

THE TRIPLE ALLIANCE: COMMITMENTS AND LIMITS

| Arrangement | Declared obligation | Practical limit |
|---|---|---|
| **Germany and Italy** | Mutual support if attacked by France. | The commitment was defensive, not an invitation to start a war. |
| **All three** | Action if one member was attacked by two other Great Powers, including France and Russia. | Such an attack created a *casus foederis* (case for alliance intervention). |
| **Restraint clause** | Common security through cooperation and consultation. | A member's aggressive war was not automatically covered. |

## III The "New Course" and the Erosion of Stability

*German global ambitions loosen the alliance's internal bonds.*

After **Bismarck's resignation in 1890**, German policy increasingly turned away from his continental emphasis. Under a "New Course" associated with **Bernhard von Bülow**, Germany pursued ***Weltpolitik***—a world policy marked by global ambition—and began constructing a **high-seas fleet in 1897**. This pursuit of imperial standing aggravated relations with Britain and unsettled the alliance network.

KEY TERMINOLOGY

***Weltpolitik* & *Italia irredenta***

**Weltpolitik:** German global-power policy. **Italia irredenta:** Italian claims to Austrian-held territories including Tyrol and Trieste.

GEOGRAPHIC FRICTION

**Three fault lines**

| | |
|---|---|
| **Balkans** | Austria-Hungary ↔ Russia |
| **North Africa** | Italy ↔ France |
| **Rhine** | Germany ↔ France |

### CONTRADICTIONS WITHIN THE ALLIANCE

Italy's nationalists continued to demand ***Italia irredenta*** (“unredeemed Italy”), including the Austrian-held **Tyrol and Trieste**. Austria-Hungary and Russia competed in the **Balkans**; Italy and France contested interests in **North Africa**; Germany and France remained antagonists around the **Rhine**. These intersecting pressures made the alliance an uneasy instrument of restraint rather than a shared expansionist project.

### ALLIES SEEK SECURITY ELSEWHERE

As Berlin's policy became less predictable, its partners made independent diplomatic arrangements. **Austria-Hungary and Russia** agreed to supervise Balkan affairs in the **Mürzsteg Convention of 1903** and made a neutrality agreement in **1904**. **Italy and France** repaired their relationship; in **1902**, Italy promised neutrality if France became involved in an unprovoked war. These agreements gave members alternative partners and weakened their dependence on the Triple Alliance.

## IV Military Failure and the July Crisis

*Defensive treaties fail to create a common military strategy.*

### UNCOORDINATED WAR PLANS

Political obligations were not matched by meaningful operational integration. After **1897**, Germany and Austria-Hungary lacked significant coordinated military arrangements. **German planning** assumed an attack on **France in the west** while Austria contained **Russia in the east**. **Austrian planning** instead prioritized a campaign against **Serbia**, assuming Germany would shield it from Russia. Both relied on expectations the other had not accepted.

EXAM INSIGHT

**Two incompatible war plans**

| Berlin | Vienna |
| --- | --- |
| Strike France; Vienna holds Russia | Strike Serbia; Berlin covers Russia |

CRITICAL SEQUENCE

**Italy's exit**

| | |
| --- | --- |
| 1912 | Deployment uncertain |
| 1914 | Neutrality after no consultation |
| 1915 | Joins Entente |

**Italy's commitment** was doubted in Berlin and Vienna. By **1912**, the Italian position suggested that mobilization did not guarantee troops would actually deploy in Germany's support. The members had a formal alliance but no dependable common plan for a continental war.

## JULY 1914: CONSULTATION BREAKS DOWN

After the assassination of **Archduke Franz Ferdinand**, Vienna treated the crisis as an opportunity to resolve the perceived Serbian threat. Berlin backed this approach, fearing that the balance of power was shifting toward the **Franco-Russian grouping** and the wider **Triple Entente**. Germany and Austria-Hungary did not consult Italy as their arrangements required, partly because they distrusted its loyalties.

Italy used that absence of consultation, together with the pact's **defensive character**, to justify **neutrality in August 1914**. In **1915**, Italy entered the war on the **Entente side** following promises of more attractive territorial gains. The alliance built to secure the Central Powers had failed at the moment it was most needed.

The Triple Alliance was a victim of its own success: Bismarck's effort to isolate France helped encourage the countervailing **Franco-Russian alliance**, producing a **“balance of terror”** that held war at bay for decades without resolving underlying rivalries. Defensive agreements became increasingly rigid blocs, while military planning remained disjointed and based on wishful thinking.

# § Revision: The Alliance Paradox

*An architecture of security ultimately helps destroy its creators.*

THE FINAL ACCOUNTING

| Key idea | Historical significance |
|---|---|
| **Bismarck's goal** | Secure the *Kaiserreich* through a conservative status quo and the isolation of France. |
| **The paradox** | Pacts meant to deter war reinforced opposing blocs and amplified the consequences of crisis. |
| **Military disharmony** | Independent and uncoordinated strategies exposed "wishful thinking" at the heart of planning. |
| **Legacy** | Italian defection in 1915 changed the balance and contributed to the eventual destruction of the Hohenzollern and Habsburg empires. |

> *"The Triple Alliance was not a combination of 'nations' but one of monarchs and their cabinets ... intended to work against the republican and anticlerical movements ... to assure the maintenance of social and political order."*

The alliance designed to safeguard the **monarchical principle** and **social order** became part of the process that destroyed both. The "Darwinian" European world Bismarck had sought to manage ultimately consumed his political system.

REVISION ANCHOR

**Four stages of the paradox**

1. **Reassurance**
2. **Counter-blocs**
3. **Weak coordination**
4. **Collapse**

CHAPTER 07

# The Ententes, 1894–1914

*Study notes: The Evolution of the Ententes — Power, Diplomacy, and the Road to 1914*

CENTRAL THESIS

The **Triple Entente was not a predetermined military alliance**. It emerged through pragmatic colonial settlements and a shifting European balance of power. German diplomatic and naval challenges strengthened these loose understandings; only the pressures of **July–August 1914** turned them into a firm wartime alignment.

TIMELINE

- **1815**
- **1890**
- **1894**
- **1898**
- **1902**
- **1904**
- **1905**
- **1906**
- **1907**
- **1908**
- **1911**
- **1914**

The road to the **Triple Entente** was contingent rather than inevitable. Republican France, autocratic Russia and imperial Britain had different traditions and often conflicting interests. They came closer through **complementary strengths, colonial settlements** and an increasingly shared concern about Germany. For Britain especially, an understanding did not initially mean an unconditional military guarantee.

# Ⅰ France, Russia and the End of Isolation

*The improbable alignment of a republic and an autocracy.*

Following the **Congress of Vienna (1815)**, European diplomacy had sought to contain France and avert another era of French hegemony. **Bismarck** refined that approach by preventing French ***revanche***—revenge for defeat and territorial loss after 1871—from finding strong allies. His departure in **1890** and Germany's rapid industrial growth disturbed this settlement.

## THE FRANCO-RUSSIAN ALLIANCE OF 1894

The **1894 Franco-Russian Alliance** united ideologically contrasting powers: **republican France** and **autocratic Russia** differed deeply over popular government and civil rights. They nonetheless combined resources that each lacked on its own. France's population grew slowly and its economy offered abundant investment capital; Russia's population expanded sharply and it needed foreign finance to support growth and military power.

WHY FRANCE AND RUSSIA WERE COMPLEMENTARY

| Dimension | France | Russia |
|---|---|---|
| **Demography** | Low population growth; a demographic trough. | Population rose by roughly two-thirds between 1861 and 1914. |

DEFINITION

***Revanche***

A desire to reverse national defeat: after 1871, France sought redress against Germany.

WHY THE ALLIANCE WORKED

**Complementary strengths**

**France**
Capital; limited manpower

**Russia**
Manpower; capital needs

WHY FRANCE AND RUSSIA WERE COMPLEMENTARY (CONTINUED)

| Dimension | France | Russia |
|---|---|---|
| **Military** | Needed manpower against German conscript armies. | Provided the imagined “steamroller” of human resources. |
| **Economy** | Surplus capital and financial stability. | Relied on foreign capital to finance expansion. |
| **Security** | Viewed Germany as a threat. | Also feared German power and its effect on the European balance. |

# II The British Enigma: “Splendid Isolation”

*Freedom of manoeuvre mistaken for permanent neutrality.*

Britain was the **“great unknown”** of European coalition politics. Its supposed **“splendid isolation”** is misleading: London sought a **freedom of manoeuvre** that protected its worldwide empire and kept it out of unnecessary continental commitments. Its imperial interests often clashed with France in Africa and with Russia near the approaches to **British India**.

## WHY BERLIN EXPECTED A BRITISH PARTNERSHIP

German leaders believed Britain and Germany were almost destined to be partners. They cited shared **Protestant traditions**, dynastic ties and earlier cooperation against France; Britain's supposedly irreconcilable rivalries with **France and Russia**; and **Social Darwinist** fantasies of an Anglo-Saxon–German kinship distinct from “Latin French” and “Russian Slavs.” These assumptions underestimated Britain's concern for European balance.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**Britain was simply isolated**

“Splendid isolation” obscures Britain's deliberate **freedom of manoeuvre** and active imperial diplomacy.

CAUSE AND CONSEQUENCE

**Tirpitz's Risk Fleet**

Threaten British sea power
↓
Expect British alignment
↓
Produce naval rivalry instead

### TIRPITZ'S "RISK FLEET" BACKFIRES

**Admiral Tirpitz** proposed building a German fleet dangerous enough to the Royal Navy to force London toward Berlin. Instead, this **"Risk Fleet"** provoked competition and distrust. The **1906 launch of HMS *Dreadnought*** symbolized the expanding Anglo-German naval race. A policy conceived to secure British cooperation encouraged British resistance.

## III From Imperial Friction to Diplomatic Entente

*Overseas bargains make European cooperation possible.*

The **Sino-Japanese War of 1894–95**, rivalry over Chinese railway concessions and the **Fashoda Crisis of 1898**—when Britain and France approached war over the Upper Nile—showed that colonial disputes could upset European diplomacy. Britain gradually shifted from reacting to each imperial problem in isolation toward resolving several at once.

THREE MILESTONES ON THE ROAD TO THE ENTENTE

| Agreement | Principal purpose | What it was—and was not |
|---|---|---|
| **Anglo-Japanese Alliance (1902)** | Share the burden of East Asian defence. | A regional security pact, not a European anti-German alliance. |
| **Entente Cordiale (1904)** | Settle British-French colonial irritations in Southeast Asia, Egypt and Newfoundland. | Negotiated by Théophile Delcassé and Lord Lansdowne; **not** a military alliance. |
| **Anglo-Russian Convention (1907)** | Define spheres of influence in Persia, Afghanistan and Tibet. | A colonial settlement helped by Russia's weakened position after defeat by Japan. |

MEMORY ANCHOR

**Three diplomatic steps**

- **1902** Anglo-Japanese alliance
- **1904** Entente Cordiale
- **1907** Anglo-Russian convention

EXAM INSIGHT

**Entente ≠ alliance**

**1904:** a settlement of colonial disputes.

**1914:** military cooperation hardened through war.

Settling these **imperial disputes** reduced the cost of cooperation without committing Britain to fight a European war. Russia wanted to restore its weight in Europe after the **Russo-Japanese War**; Britain wanted fewer exposed imperial frontiers. The understandings made cooperation easier without removing every source of conflict.

## IV Edward Grey and the Policy of Balance

*Strengthening the Entente without giving partners a blank cheque.*

The younger British **"Edwardian"** policy-makers, led by **Sir Edward Grey**, favoured a more active balance-of-power strategy. Grey was a **Liberal Imperialist**: he spoke for legal restraint and stable relations while recognizing the role of force in European politics.

Grey pursued three linked aims: help **Russia recover** as a counterweight to Germany; keep support for France and Russia **conditional** so they would not take British backing for granted; and **mediate** crises before they became wars.

## V The Crucible of Crises, 1905–1911

*Efforts to divide the Entente instead strengthen it.*

### FIRST MOROCCAN CRISIS, 1905

Germany challenged France's position in **Morocco**, hoping to expose divisions among the understanding powers. The challenge instead encouraged Grey to permit **exploratory Anglo-French military and naval conversations**, demonstrating the practical value of the Entente while still falling short of an unconditional treaty.

GREY'S BALANCING ACT

**Three linked aims**

| | |
|---|---|
| **Recover** | Russia as counterweight |
| **Condition** | Avoid carte blanche |
| **Mediate** | Negotiate crises |

CRISIS SEQUENCE

**1905 → 1908 → 1911**

- **1905** Morocco: Anglo-French talks
- **1908** Bosnia: limits exposed
- **1911** Agadir: Britain reconsiders

### BOSNIAN CRISIS, 1908

**Austria-Hungary's annexation of Bosnia** alarmed Russia. France and Britain offered **diplomatic support, not war**: the Entente did not yet guarantee military intervention.

### AGADIR CRISIS, 1911

Germany's new challenge in **Morocco** led Britain to reassess policy, insist on **civilian control of military planning** and signal that it might intervene in a continental war. Attempts to split the Entente instead drew its partners closer.

## VI The Breakdown of Diplomacy: July 1914

*The choice for Britain remains contingent until war begins.*

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By **1913**, Russia's recovery seemed to restore a more equal European balance, apparently supporting Grey's strategy. Yet this recovery also made Russia more assertive in **Persia**, threatening the very Anglo-Russian Convention that helped underpin the Entente. Even on the eve of war, the alliance network was **“no piece of well-oiled machinery.”**

### BRITAIN'S GRIM ALTERNATIVES

When crisis erupted in **July 1914**, British intervention was not predetermined. Remaining neutral risked a **Central Powers victory** that would dominate Europe or a **Franco-Russian victory** that might leave Britain's imperial interests exposed. Joining the war could therefore appear the **“lesser of two evils”** in the effort to prevent permanent destruction of the European balance.

**German attacks on France and Russia** turned the loose **1907 Entente** into a wartime alliance in **August 1914** through political choice, not automatic treaty obligations.

HIGH-YIELD DECISION

**Britain's dilemma**

| Neutral | Intervene |
| --- | --- |
| Risk hostile postwar hegemon | Prevent one-sided European balance |

The movement from British freedom of manoeuvre to the Triple Entente was **non-linear and contingent**. The partnerships of **1894, 1904 and 1907** reflected complementary strengths and colonial accommodation. German naval and diplomatic challenges brought the powers closer, but the **Triple Entente of history textbooks** only fully emerged when war began in August 1914.

# § Revision: An Entente Made by Events

*From limited imperial settlements to wartime alignment.*

RELATIONSHIP MAP: MOTIVES AND ALIGNMENTS

| Power | Primary motivation | Position in the Entente story |
|---|---|---|
| **France** | Security against Germany. | Core Franco-Russian partner; sought greater British military commitment. |
| **Russia** | Recovery and Balkan influence. | Core partner; settled colonial friction with Britain to refocus on Europe. |
| **Britain** | European balance and imperial security. | Tentative partner, avoiding formally binding continental commitments until the 1914 crisis. |
| **Germany** | Continental dominance and diplomatic “free hand.” | Unintended catalyst: aggressive diplomacy drew its rivals together. |

**Key terminology:** ***Revanche*** meant French revenge after 1871; ***Dreadnought*** signified the battleship that accelerated Anglo-German naval rivalry; **Risk Fleet** was Tirpitz's strategy of compelling Britain through naval threat; and the **Liberal Imperialists** were British politicians, including Grey, who defended the empire through continuity and balance.

REVISION MEMORY AID

**From agreements to war**

1. France + Russia
2. Colonial settlements
3. German challenges
4. War aligns partners

> *“British options were grim. A victory by either side with Britain remaining neutral would be disadvantageous ... Going to war seemed to be the lesser of two evils.”*

CHAPTER 08

# The July Crisis

*Study notes: The July Crisis — A Perfect Storm of Statecraft*

CENTRAL THESIS

The outbreak of the **First World War was an advertent event**: not a mere accident of alliance momentum. Nationalism, rivalries and military plans created pressure, but individual statesmen in **Vienna, Berlin, St. Petersburg, Paris and London** chose to treat war as a defensible instrument of honour, security and national standing.

TIMELINE

**1911**

**1912**

**1913**

**1914**

The five weeks between the **Sarajevo assassination (28 June 1914)** and **Britain's declaration of war (4 August)** were marked by calculated decisions, misread signals and increasingly rigid military requirements. To understand the "perfect storm," distinguish its **long-term fuel** from the decisions that ignited it.

# I The Fracturing Balance, 1911–1913

*Diplomatic confrontations and Balkan wars harden European expectations.*

## AGADIR CRISIS, 1911

Germany's effort to obstruct French control of **Morocco** failed, reinforcing French resolve. **General Joseph Joffre** became French chief of staff with greater power and developed an offensive plan; **Raymond Poincaré** strengthened ties to Russia and Britain. Germany, worried that its army could not match the Franco-Russian combination, added **136,000 troops** to its forces.

## BALKAN WARS AND A RISING SERBIA

Ottoman weakness encouraged the **Balkan League**—Serbia, Greece, Montenegro and Bulgaria—with Russian support. Serbian territorial success alarmed Austria-Hungary. Foreign Minister **Count Leopold Berchtold** helped deny Serbia an Adriatic outlet through the creation of **Albania**. Across four confrontations with Serbia and Montenegro in 1912–13, Vienna's coercive "militant diplomacy" appeared effective, encouraging the belief that threats or force could settle the Serbian question.

THE STRATEGIC FEARS BEHIND THE CRISIS

| Actor | Principal strategic motivation |
|---|---|
| **Austria-Hungary** | Protect the multiethnic monarchy from South Slav nationalism. |

HIGH-YIELD FRAME

**What changed by 1913?**

**Paris**
Offensive preparation; firmer ties

**Berlin**
More troops; fear of encirclement

Agadir intensified both preparations.

EXAM INSIGHT

**Militant diplomacy's trap**

1. **Threat issued**
2. **Rival retreats**
3. **Leaders infer force works**

Repeated Balkan successes made a future crisis more dangerous.

THE STRATEGIC FEARS BEHIND THE CRISIS (CONTINUED)

| Actor | Principal strategic motivation |
|---|---|
| **Serbia** | Seek a “Greater Serbia,” including through support for violent nationalist networks. |
| **Germany** | Resist perceived “encirclement” and a growing Russian military threat. |
| **Russia** | Defend Balkan influence and its claim to leadership among Slavs. |

# II Sarajevo and the Black Hand

*A regional assassination becomes an imperial test of strength.*

Serbian politics were divided between the civilian government of **Nikola Pašić** and a military intelligence network led by **Colonel Dragutin Dimitrijević (“Apis”)**. Apis headed the **Black Hand**, a clandestine Greater Serbian nationalist organization.

### THE ATTACK, 28 JUNE 1914

Three Bosnian Serb students—**Gavrilo Princip, Trifko Grabež and Nedeljko Čabrinović**—were armed with bombs and Browning pistols and smuggled into Bosnia through the Black Hand network. During Archduke **Franz Ferdinand’s** Sarajevo visit, an initial bomb attack failed. A mistake in the car’s movements then brought the archduke and his wife **Sophie** directly before Princip, who shot and killed them.

> *“Because of their deaths, a war would come that eventually claimed **9.5 million more combatants’ lives**.”*

KEY ACTORS

**Apis and the Black Hand**

**Apis:** Colonel Dragutin Dimitrijević, leader of a Serbian military-intelligence network tied to the nationalist Black Hand. Distinguish it from **Pašić’s civilian government**.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**A random assassination caused war?**

**No.** Sarajevo supplied the trigger; the later decisions in Vienna, Berlin, Russia and beyond converted it into a European war.

# III Five Phases of the July Crisis

*From punishment of Serbia to European general war.*

THE JULY CRISIS: FIVE-STAGE ESCALATION

| Phase / dates | Decision or development |
|---|---|
| **1 · Punish Serbia**<br>28 June–7 July | Vienna chooses confrontation. **5–6 July:** Kaiser Wilhelm II and Chancellor Bethmann Hollweg give Austria-Hungary the German **"blank cheque"** of support. |
| **2 · The lull**<br>8–18 July | Berlin and Vienna seek an apparently calm interval before a localized action. Leaks through Italy alert Russia and Serbia to their intentions. |
| **3 · Ultimatum prepared**<br>19–23 July | Vienna finalizes a **48-hour ultimatum** intended to be unacceptable, timing its delivery after Poincaré leaves St. Petersburg. |
| **4 · Rupture**<br>23–28 July | Serbia accepts much of the demand but rejects a joint investigation it considers incompatible with sovereignty. Austria-Hungary breaks relations and declares war **28 July**. |
| **5 · General war**<br>28 July–4 August | Russia orders general mobilization **30 July**; Germany enacts its western offensive through neutral Belgium; Britain enters war **4 August**. |

Germany regarded **Russian general mobilization** as a *casus belli*. Its **Schlieffen–Moltke** strategy envisaged defeating France rapidly through **neutral Belgium** before concentrating on Russia. The violation of Belgian neutrality unified the previously divided British cabinet behind intervention. These decisions turned an Austro-Serbian confrontation into a continental war. In the account's allocation of responsibility, **France** prioritized solidarity rather than restraining Russia, while **Britain's** late ambiguity weakened deterrence.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**Five anchor dates: June–August**

- `28 Jun` Assassination
- `5–6 Jul` Blank cheque
- `23 Jul` Ultimatum
- `28 Jul` War on Serbia
- `4 Aug` Britain enters

KEY TERM

**Blank cheque**

Berlin's **unconditional backing** for Vienna on 5–6 July 1914, even though Austrian action might provoke a wider conflict.

DECISIVE POINT

**30 July 1914**

**30 JUL**

Russian general mobilization

German war planning treated this as an urgent trigger for action.

# IV The Anatomy of Escalation

*Civilian aims collide with inflexible military timetables.*

### AUSTRIA-HUNGARY: THE HARVEST LEAVE DELAY

General **Conrad von Hötzendorf** had released troops for harvest leave; the monarchy could not launch its desired offensive immediately. By the time action became possible, much of the sympathy initially generated by the assassination had evaporated.

### CONFLICTING DEPLOYMENT PLANS

Conrad initially implemented **“Plan B”** against Serbia even while Russia was mobilizing. He then had to transfer forces in a chaotic and lengthy redeployment to the Russian frontier. Germany’s planned western strike, meanwhile, required speed and near-perfect execution: its underlying assumptions treated delay as existential danger and pushed political leaders toward rapid escalation.

# V Historiography: Why War Happened

*From the Versailles verdict to a focus on intentional choice.*

**Versailles (1919)** primarily blamed Germany and Austria-Hungary. **Revisionists** argued that Europe “slithered” into unintended war without a single wholly responsible government. **Fritz Fischer (1960s)** portrayed German policy as a preventive-war calculation amid domestic and international pressures. The modern interpretation in the account emphasizes **advertent decisions**—conscious choices: leaders separately judged war acceptable in defence of honour and security.

MILITARY CONTRAST

**Two timing traps**

| Austria | Germany |
| --- | --- |
| Harvest leave delays attack | War plan punishes delay |

EXAM INSIGHT

**Intent is not one culprit**

| Revisionism | Advertent view |
| --- | --- |
| Inadvertent slide | Converging choices |

Discuss responsibility without claiming every actor shared identical goals.

The July Crisis brought together a succession of decisions by men who believed **military action could protect honour, alliances or security**. Opportunities for restraint were repeatedly neglected as preserving strategic standing took priority over preserving peace. This “perfect storm” was ultimately **an act of statecraft**. The governments did not share identical goals, but their choices allowed a local crisis to become European war.

# § Revision: The Convergence of Choice

*War as a deliberate option—not an act of nature.*

HOW THE PRINCIPAL POWERS CONTRIBUTED TO ESCALATION

| Power | Critical choice or failure |
|---|---|
| **Austria-Hungary** | Pursued a military showdown to address its South Slav and Serbian fears. |
| **Germany** | Gave the blank cheque and launched war through neutral Belgium. |
| **Serbia** | Faced Black Hand connections and refused an ultimatum demand affecting sovereignty. |
| **Russia** | Ordered general mobilization, precipitating German military responses. |
| **France** | Did not restrain Russia; prioritized solidarity with its ally. |
| **Britain** | Maintained ambiguity until late in the crisis, weakening deterrence. |

REVISION ANCHOR

**Pressure → choice → war**

1. **Underlying rivalry**
2. **Vienna and Berlin commit**
3. **Mobilization triggers plans**
4. **European war**

CHAPTER 09

# Wartime Promises and Postwar Europe

*Study notes: Wartime Promises and Postwar Europe — The Diplomatic Architecture of the Great War*

CENTRAL THESIS

The First World War was not a diplomatic void or merely senseless slaughter. Its **military and diplomatic histories were inseparable**: belligerents made secret treaties and expansive territorial promises in order to reshape the postwar order. Those frequently contradictory objectives helped make a negotiated compromise peace impossible.

TIMELINE

- **1914**
- **1915**
- **1916**
- **1917**
- **1918**
- **1919**
- **1960**
- **1970**

Behind the trench warfare was a sustained diplomatic struggle over **security, territory and future power**. Secret commitments and promises to prospective allies expanded the stakes of victory: the First World War can be read, in the Clausewitzian sense, as **politics pursued by military means**.

# I From Accident to Calculation

*Changing archival access reshapes the diplomatic history of the war.*

### THE "SLITHERED INTO WAR" NARRATIVE

Early accounts—including **David Lloyd George's memoirs**—presented the outbreak as a tragic accident: nations had "slithered over the brink," producing confusion, futility and incomprehensible bloodshed. The human cost and government control over diplomatic archives contributed to the neglect of wartime political objectives.

### WAR GUILT AND AN ARCHIVE REVOLUTION

After Versailles, **Article 231**, later called the **"War Guilt Clause,"** made responsibility for the war a central controversy. Governments selectively published records to support competing conclusions. Wider access to archives in the **1960s and 1970s** revealed deliberate diplomacy and recognizable national-interest calculations throughout the conflict.

HISTORICAL MISCONCEPTION

**War without political purpose?**

**No.** Mass loss of life does not make diplomacy meaningless. Governments were simultaneously bargaining over security and territory.

HISTORIOGRAPHY

**Revisiting the archives**

- **1919** Versailles war-guilt dispute
- **1960s** New archival research
- **1970s** Wider diplomatic reappraisal

# II Allied Powers: Expanding Aims

*Defensive declarations give way to territorial bargaining.*

## BRITAIN: A RELUCTANT EXPANSIONIST

Britain entered to defend the **European balance and naval supremacy**. It nonetheless depended on Russia's commitment to victory; **Arthur Balfour** warned in 1914 that a conclusive outcome required Russia wholeheartedly on the Allied side. British statesmen remained wary that **France and Russia** might threaten imperial interests after a German defeat. **Lord Kitchener** hoped to conserve British forces so London could determine the eventual settlement. Recruiting other powers, especially Italy, meant promising territories and inheriting their ambitions as Allied obligations.

## FRANCE: SECURING THE RHINE

France initially wanted to recover **Alsace-Lorraine**, lost in the Franco-Prussian War. Its proposed security order expanded to the **1790 frontiers**, including the **Saarland**, and to autonomous **Rhineland buffer states** under French influence. The **Salonika campaign** also served French designs for an eastern Mediterranean sphere to offset Russian gains.

## RUSSIA: CONSTANTINOPLE AND THE STRAITS

Russia demanded **Constantinople** and access to the **Bosphorus**. The **March 1915 Straits Agreement** marked a dramatic reversal of Britain's older commitment to Ottoman integrity. Russia also wanted German power reduced on both frontiers and envisaged a **Polish buffer state** under the Russian "sceptre."

ALLIED WAR AIMS

**Three different priorities**

| | |
|---|---|
| **Britain** | Balance and empire |
| **France** | Rhine and security |
| **Russia** | Straits and buffers |

EXAM INSIGHT

**The entente's double edge**

Britain needed **Russian participation** to defeat Germany yet feared a postwar **France–Russia ascendancy**. Alliance did not erase rivalry.

# III Germany and the September Memorandum

*A vision of continental economic and political hegemony.*

Germany dominated the diplomatic calculations of its Central Power partners: **Austria-Hungary, Ottoman Turkey and Bulgaria**. Chancellor **Bethmann Hollweg's September Memorandum (1914)** sketched terms designed to prevent France from returning as a Great Power and to push Russia back from Germany's eastern frontier.

GERMAN WAR AIMS IN THE SEPTEMBER MEMORANDUM

| Concept | Proposed order |
|---|---|
| ***Mitteleuropa*** | A Germany-centred customs union extending across Western Europe, Poland, Scandinavia and the Central Powers, giving Berlin continental economic leverage. |
| **Vassal states** | Belgium and Poland outwardly independent but dependent on Germany militarily and economically. |
| **Territorial revision** | Weaken France and reduce Russia's strategic and territorial position. |

**Fritz Fischer** later challenged the argument that German actions were solely defensive, treating such aims as evidence of a willing expansionist war. The **Treaty of Brest-Litovsk (March 1918)** underscored the scale of eastern German demands: Russia surrendered **90% of its coal mines and 50% of its industry**.

KEY TERM

***Mitteleuropa***

A proposed **Germany-led economic bloc** that would secure control through trade structures as well as territorial pressure.

HIGH-YIELD FIGURES

**Brest-Litovsk, 1918**

**90%**
Coal mines

**50%**
Industry

Russia's reported territorial and industrial losses.

## IV The Price of Intervention

*Neutral states become prizes in a diplomatic bidding contest.*

PROMISES USED TO RECRUIT NEW BELLIGERENTS

| Power / agreement | Bargain and consequence |
|---|---|
| **Italy · Treaty of London, April 1915** | The Entente promised **Trentino, South Tyrol, Istria and northern Dalmatia**; Allied war aims expanded to include Italian claims. |
| **Bulgaria · 1915** | The Central Powers won Bulgaria with promises of **Macedonian territory** it had lost in earlier wars. |
| **Romania · Treaty of Bucharest, 1916** | The Allies promised a dramatic territorial enlargement—**Transylvania, Bukovina and the Banat**—in exchange for entry. |

This contest to **"purchase" allies** locked the principal powers into each recruit's claims. What began as a struggle for survival increasingly became a competition to **partition territories** and design the postwar balance.

## V The Diplomatic Transformation of 1917

*Revolution exposes secret treaties; America complicates the settlement.*

### RUSSIA'S REVOLUTION AND SELF-DETERMINATION

The fall of the Tsarist regime and the Bolshevik seizure of power resulted in the **publication of secret wartime treaties**. Their disclosure discredited exclusive traditional diplomacy and helped promote the language of **self-determination**.

MEMORY ANCHOR

**The bidders, 1915–16**

- **1915** Italy → Entente
- **1915** Bulgaria → Central Powers
- **1916** Romania → Entente

EXAM FRAME

**How promises prolong war**

1. Recruit new ally
2. Offer territorial reward
3. Adopt ally's demand
4. Compromise gets harder

1917 PIVOT

**Two challenges to old diplomacy**

**Bolsheviks**
Expose secret treaties

**Wilson**
Question territorial deals

### THE UNITED STATES ENTERS AS AN ASSOCIATED POWER

The United States entered as an **“associated,” rather than “allied,” power**. **Woodrow Wilson** distrusted Europe’s territorial bargains and offered an alternative idealist language. Britain and France faced the problem of reconciling earlier secret promises with growing American influence over peace terms.

## VI Why Compromise Peace Became So Difficult

*Territorial promises made compromise harder to accept.*

Territorial claims such as a French-dominated **Rhine**, a Russian **Constantinople** and an Italian **Tyrol** were impossible for opponents simply to accept. Because the powers had promised outcomes to their own electorates and their partners, **compromise became ever harder**. Each government pursued identifiable goals, but its territorial demands often excluded the settlement its opponents could accept.

Wartime diplomacy helps explain why military confrontation continued despite enormous human losses. Secret and public commitments transformed battle into a contest over the world’s map. Some of the rival claims made between **1914 and 1918**—especially in the Near and Middle East—have continued to shape international relations. Once governments promised territories to secure allies, withdrawing those promises threatened the coalition on which victory depended.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**Did shared victory aims mean peace?**

**No.** Allied cooperation concealed incompatible postwar claims; even victorious partners would have to settle their promises.

# § Revision: The Architecture of an Unending War

*Promises enlarged the conflict and mortgaged the peace.*

MAJOR WARTIME AGREEMENTS AND THEIR CONSEQUENCES

| Agreement | Date | Participants | Principal outcome |
|---|---|---|---|
| **September Memorandum** | Sep 1914 | Germany | Plan for *Mitteleuropa* and the reduction of French and Russian power. |
| **Straits Agreement** | Mar 1915 | Britain, France, Russia | Constantinople promised to Russia; Ottoman dismemberment contemplated. |
| **Treaty of London** | Apr 1915 | Britain, France, Italy | Italian intervention secured through Austrian and Balkan territorial promises. |
| **Treaty of Bucharest** | Aug 1916 | Allies, Romania | Romanian entry secured with promises of territorial expansion. |
| **Treaty of Brest-Litovsk** | Mar 1918 | Germany, Russia | German eastern objectives imposed; Russia exits the war. |

REVISION QUOTATION

**Arthur Balfour, 1914**

“The war cannot possibly be conclusive in our favour ... unless the Western Allies have **Russia wholeheartedly on their side** till the end.”

CHAPTER 10

# Wartime Promises and the Postwar Empires

*Study notes: Wartime Promises and the Postwar Empires — The Architecting of a New Global Order*

CENTRAL THESIS

The First World War dismantled the **German and Ottoman empires**, but its settlement reflected a fundamental tension between **wartime military promises** and **imperial territorial ambitions**. The League of Nations **mandate system** reconciled these ambitions with anti-imperial rhetoric while often preserving colonial rule under another name.

TIMELINE

- **1914**
- **1915**
- **1916**
- **1917**
- **1918**
- **1919**
- **1960**

The war extended far beyond Europe. The defeat of Germany and the Ottoman Empire created a political vacuum across the **Middle East, Africa and the Pacific**. Secret treaties, the search for additional allies and competing versions of national self-determination shaped the new imperial map—and left disputes that would outlast the peace.

# I The Middle East: Four Conflicting Promises

*Britain's wartime needs pull its diplomacy in incompatible directions.*

Before 1914 Britain generally defended the **Ottoman Empire's integrity** as a barrier to Russian expansion toward India. The Ottomans' entry into the war on the side of the Central Powers in **October 1914** reversed that strategy. Britain became the leading military power operating in the Middle East and negotiated several overlapping settlements.

### THE RUSSIAN CARROT: CONSTANTINOPLE, MARCH 1915

To retain Russia's participation in the war, Britain and France promised it the **Dardanelles, Sea of Marmara, Bosphorus and Constantinople (Istanbul)**—the "richest prize" of the struggle. The **Constantinople Agreement** proposed Russian control of the city while retaining its status as a **free port**. It abandoned Britain's century-old resistance to Russian control of the Straits.

### THE ARAB PROMISE: HUSAYN–MCMAHON, 1915–16

Britain sought an Arab ally in **Emir Husayn of Mecca**. In correspondence with **Sir Henry McMahon**, it offered to "recognize and uphold the independence of the Arabs" across much of Arabia and the Fertile Crescent. After the **Gallipoli** setback, London hoped a friendly Arab state would bolster British prestige and perhaps curb French influence. Yet the letters excluded areas including **Mersin** and parts of Syria west of Damascus. Whether **Palestine** fell inside the independence promise remained deeply disputed. Interpreting references to Ottoman administrative districts, or **vilayets**, contributed to that controversy.

DIPLOMATIC MEMORY LINE

**Four commitments, 1915–17**

- **1915** Straits → Russia
- **1915–16** Arab independence letters
- **1916** Sykes–Picot partition
- **1917** Balfour national home

EXAM MISCONCEPTION

**One coherent British promise?**

**No.** London issued overlapping commitments to **Russia, Arab leaders, France and Zionists** for strategic purposes that were not mutually consistent.

KEY OTTOMAN TERM

***Vilayet***

An **Ottoman administrative district**; interpreting geographical exclusions in the Husayn–McMahon correspondence became controversial.

## SECRET PARTITION: SYKES–PICOT, 1916

While negotiating with Husayn, Britain secretly agreed with France to divide Ottoman lands into spheres of influence. Under **Sykes–Picot**, France received the **blue zone** around Lebanon and coastal Syria; Britain claimed a **red zone** covering central and southern Mesopotamia. **Palestine** was to be internationalized to accommodate wider Christian-power interests. The agreement sat uneasily beside the rhetoric of Arab independence.

## THE ZIONIST COMMITMENT: BALFOUR, NOVEMBER 1917

**Foreign Secretary A. J. Balfour** announced British support for a **“national home for the Jewish people”** in Palestine. Britain's strategic calculation was that backing Zionist aspirations could bolster its own claim to influence and help bypass the earlier proposal for international administration of Palestine.

FOUR OVERLAPPING WARTIME COMMITMENTS IN THE MIDDLE EAST

| Agreement | Date | Beneficiary | Core promise or plan |
|---|---|---|---|
| **Constantinople** | 1915 | Russia | Control of the Straits and Istanbul. |
| **Husayn–McMahon** | 1915–16 | Hashemite Arabs | Independence across much of the Middle East, subject to disputed exclusions. |
| **Sykes–Picot** | 1916 | Britain and France | Direct zones and spheres of influence; international Palestine. |
| **Balfour Declaration** | 1917 | Zionist movement | British support for a Jewish national home in Palestine. |

# II Africa: A Second Imperial Partition

*A geographically brutal war ends by reallocating German possessions.*

## THE MILITARY AND HUMAN REALITY

The African campaigns were often treated as a European-war "sideshow," but fighting across immense distances was destructive. British, French, Belgian, South African and Portuguese forces attacked German possessions in **Togoland, Cameroons, Southwest Africa and East Africa**. Small mobile columns fought with machine guns amid severe disease and supply problems. In German East Africa **Paul von Lettow-Vorbeck**, commanding German officers and local ***askaris***, tied down substantial Entente resources until after the European Armistice. The figures estimate that **two million Africans** served as soldiers or porters and approximately **200,000 died**, principally from disease.

## THE SETTLEMENT: TRANSFERS, NOT INDEPENDENCE

Victorious powers took over Germany's African possessions as **League mandates**. Most of Togoland, Cameroons and Tanganyika fell in **Class B**; Southwest Africa became a **Class C** mandate under South Africa. Section IV compares what these categories permitted. For African populations, the immediate change was a transfer of imperial managers rather than independence.

HUMAN COST · SOURCE FIGURES

**African campaigns**

**2 million**
Soldiers and porters

**~200,000**
Deaths, mostly from disease

KEY TERM

***Askaris***

Locally recruited African soldiers who served in the region's colonial forces, including Lettow-Vorbeck's East African campaign.

# III The Far East: Japan's Imperial Opportunity

*The German defeat in Asia and the Pacific accelerates Japanese ambition.*

## OCCUPATION ACROSS THE EQUATOR

Japan entered the war as a **British ally** and seized German interests in the **Pacific north of the Equator**—the Mariana, Caroline and Marshall islands—as well as **Tsingtao (Kiaochow)** in China. **Australia** occupied German New Guinea, and **New Zealand** took Samoa south of the Equator. By the end of 1914, German holdings in the Far East had been dismantled.

## THE TWENTY-ONE DEMANDS, 1915

Japan presented **China** with demands that would have greatly enlarged Japanese control, potentially reducing China to a protectorate in practice. Some demands were withdrawn under **United States pressure**, but Tokyo entrenched its position in **Manchuria and Shantung**.

## THE RACIAL EQUALITY CLAUSE, 1919

At the **Paris Peace Conference**, Japan proposed a **racial equality clause** for the Covenant of the League of Nations. Opposition led by **Australia and the United States** blocked the proposal. The rejection intensified Japanese resentment toward Western powers and, in the interpretation, contributed to the alienation later exploited by militarist movements.

PACIFIC DIVISION

**German Pacific possessions**

| North | South |
|---|---|
| Japan: Micronesia | Australia and New Zealand |

CAUSAL CONNECTION

**Japan's postwar grievance**

1. **Wartime territorial gains**
2. **Racial equality proposed**
3. **Clause rejected**
4. **Western order challenged**

# IV The Mandate System: Annexation by Another Name

*The League reconciles colonial expansion with internationalist language.*

The **League of Nations mandate system** was a compromise between the victorious states' desire to control former enemy territories and **Woodrow Wilson's anti-imperial language**. It framed administration as an international duty rather than outright annexation, yet the practical outcome often resembled colonial control.

THREE CLASSES OF LEAGUE MANDATES

| Class | Typical region | Form of administration |
|---|---|---|
| **A** | Middle East | Independence provisionally recognized, with outside administrative advice and assistance. |
| **B** | Most former German African colonies | Colonial-style rule with international oversight for trade and religious freedoms. |
| **C** | Pacific islands and Southwest Africa | Administered under the mandatory power's laws as if an integral territory; no near-term independence. |

The postwar settlement **re-legitimized imperial control** under a new international formula. In the **Middle East**, overlapping British commitments and new boundaries contributed to long-running conflict. In **Africa**, former German possessions passed to other colonial powers and independence remained decades away. In the **Far East**, Japan emerged as a regional power while racial exclusion in diplomacy exposed the limits of the promised new world order.

INSTITUTIONAL COMPARISON

**Mandate classes**

| | |
|---|---|
| **A** | Provisional independence |
| **B** | Regulated colonial rule |
| **C** | Integral administration |

CRITICAL DISTINCTION

**Mandates ≠ independence**

International oversight did **not** mean the governed population had immediately acquired sovereignty.

# § Revision: The Enduring Imperial Framework

*The war changed sovereignty's vocabulary more readily than its underlying distribution.*

REVISION: THE THREE REGIONAL RESULTS OF WARTIME DIPLOMACY

| Region | Immediate result | Enduring issue |
|---|---|---|
| **Middle East** | Conflicting promises and British–French mandates | Disputed national claims and boundaries |
| **Africa** | German territories redistributed as mandates | Continuation of external rule until later decolonization |
| **Far East** | Japan gains German possessions and influence | Power rivalry and resentment of racial exclusion |

SOURCE QUOTATION · MATTHEW HUGHES

### Annexation in all but name

"The mandate system was accepted by the British Empire... but the mandates were **annexation in all but name**."

KEY TERMS

### Four revision anchors

| | |
|---|---|
| **Mandate** | League-authorized administration |
| **Vilayet** | Ottoman district |
| **Zionism** | Jewish nationalist movement for a state in Palestine |
| **Askaris** | African colonial troops |

CHAPTER 11

# Envisioning a New World Order

*Study notes: Envisioning a New World Order — The Ideological Battle Between Wilson and Lenin*

CENTRAL THESIS

The Great War destroyed the dynastic order and opened a contest between **Woodrow Wilson's liberal internationalism** and **Vladimir Lenin's revolutionary socialism**. Both rejected the imperial system that produced the war, but Wilson imagined peace through **democracy, markets and collective security**, while Lenin believed capitalism itself must be overthrown by **international class revolution**.

TIMELINE

**1917**

**1918**

**1919**

**1920**

The collapse of the empires of **Nicholas II, Wilhelm II and Franz Joseph** transformed Central and Eastern Europe. From that destruction came competing designs for a world beyond the prewar imperial order, advanced by the **United States** and revolutionary **Soviet Russia**. The ideological rivalry between Wilson and Lenin has been described as a kind of **“First Cold War.”**

# Ⅰ Wilson: Liberal Internationalism

*Moral force, democracy and open economic exchange against the balance of power.*

## THE CRITIQUE OF OLD DIPLOMACY

**Woodrow Wilson** regarded the traditional European **balance-of-power** system as a self-defeating contest in which one power’s gain required another’s loss. Secret diplomacy, temporary alliances and armaments competition made conflict likely. He believed the **United States**, drawing on European civilization but claiming no territorial ambition, was unusually placed to defend neutral principles of **peace and justice**.

## MORALITY, DEMOCRACY AND THE MONROE DOCTRINE

Wilson grounded foreign policy in **Christian moral language**, even invoking “holy scripture” and honour. He distinguished the **German people** from their **autocratic rulers** and insisted that democratic accountability could underpin reliable international commitments. In the account he also treated the **Monroe Doctrine** as a model for excluding external intervention from a region without controlling its constituent states' internal affairs.

WILSONIAN RECIPE

**A new rulebook for peace**

| | |
|---|---|
| **Government** | Democracy and accountability |
| **Economy** | Open markets and labour rights |
| **Security** | League and common trust |

EXAM INTERPRETATION

**The Monroe Doctrine paradox**

Wilson portrayed the doctrine as **regional restraint**. Compare that ideal with the claim that America had no external territorial ambitions: distinguish **his vision** from a neutral description of US conduct.

### THE FOURTEEN POINTS AND A LEAGUE OF NATIONS

In **January 1918**, Wilson announced his **Fourteen Points** as the foundation for a just peace. The proposed order combined national **self-determination**, economic openness, the rights of labour and a voluntary **League of Nations** to arbitrate disputes. Rather than the "sinister balance of power," he envisioned an association of nations bound by **trust, international opinion and democratic reform**. Even initially undemocratic states might eventually choose to join this association of "free and rich nations."

THE COMPONENTS OF WILSON'S PROPOSED PEACE

| Principle | Meaning | Intended effect |
|---|---|---|
| **National self-determination** | National communities should decide questions of sovereignty. | Limit domination and humiliation of smaller nations. |
| **Open markets** | More equal world-trade opportunities and access to the seas. | Replace economic exclusion with competition. |
| **Labour rights** | Protection of workers across borders. | Make commerce fairer to labour and capital. |
| **League of Nations** | Voluntary international organization for peaceful dispute resolution. | Replace ad hoc power politics with collective trust. |

## II Lenin: Capitalism and World Revolution

*War is rooted not in bad diplomacy, but in capitalist economic structures.*

**Vladimir Lenin** rejected Wilson's programme as a **"utopian dream."** Whether a government was formally democratic or autocratic mattered less than its underlying economic order. As long as the **capitalist system** survived, the pressure toward imperial conflict would remain.

KEY TERM

**Finance capital**

For Lenin, the **fusion of banking and industrial capital** underpinning monopoly capitalism and its drive for overseas resources.

LENIN'S CAUSAL CHAIN

**From capitalism to imperial war**

1. **Competition concentrates**
2. **Monopolies and finance**
3. **Search for colonies**
4. **Imperial conflict**

### IMPERIALISM: THE HIGHEST STAGE OF CAPITALISM

Lenin treated imperialism as an outcome of **monopoly capitalism**. Free competition gave way to **cartels and trusts**; bank and industrial interests merged into **finance capital**; and the search for **raw materials, colonies and markets** turned economic rivalry into global territorial struggle. The Great War was, in this analysis, a **predatory contest for economic gain** among capitalist powers.

### FROM IMPERIALIST WAR TO CIVIL WAR

Lenin called on the **proletariat** to stop fighting for the bourgeois state and instead turn the imperialist conflict into **class struggle at home**: a revolutionary effort to "smash the machinery of the bourgeois state." The **Third International (Comintern)**, established in **1919**, would support communist revolution beyond Russia. The larger objective was an international **socialist federation** managing the productive forces for the many under a **dictatorship of the proletariat**.

> *"The period of imperialism is the eve of the social revolution of the proletariat." — Vladimir Lenin*

## III Self-Determination: One Phrase, Two Projects

*Political independence and economic emancipation are not the same thing.*

TWO MEANINGS OF NATIONAL SELF-DETERMINATION

| Wilson | Lenin |
|---|---|
| An **exercise in democracy**: negotiated settlements and viable independent states, such as **Poland and Czechoslovakia**. | A **tactical step against imperialism**: formal independence is hollow if capitalist economic control persists. |

SAME WORD, DIFFERENT AIM

**Self-determination**

**Wilson**
Democratic national sovereignty

**Lenin**
Freedom from capitalist domination

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**Both anti-imperial = same policy?**

**No.** Wilson wanted to reform relations **between states**; Lenin sought to revolutionize the **economic system** that shaped them.

TWO MEANINGS OF NATIONAL SELF-DETERMINATION (CONTINUED)

| Wilson | Lenin |
|---|---|
| Nation-states coexist through **collective security and open exchange**. | Lasting liberation requires **socialist transformation** beyond the capitalist nation-state. |

The disagreement concerned what made independence real. A new border could satisfy **Wilson's** political test while failing **Lenin's** economic one: an independent Poland might still depend on capitalist powers. For Lenin, liberation therefore required changes in **property and class relations**, not simply a new state.

## IV Popularity and the Limits of Both Visions

*Popular hopes run into domestic politics and the failure of world revolution.*

### WILSON: ACCLAIM ABROAD, DEFEAT AT HOME

European crowds in **London and Paris** welcomed Wilson with extraordinary enthusiasm, seeing hope for a **"peace without victory"** after years of suffering. Yet the **United States Senate** would not ratify the **Treaty of Versailles**. A major **Democratic defeat in the 1920 election** marked the rejection of his comprehensive internationalist programme at home and deprived his League project of American participation.

### LENIN: REVOLUTIONARY APPEAL, SOVIET ISOLATION

Lenin's appeal reached radical workers and opponents of Allied involvement in the **Russian Civil War**. "**Hands off Russia**" campaigns mobilized support, and the **American Socialist Party** shifted from the Second to the Third International. But anticipated revolutions in **Hungary and Bavaria** were suppressed, and global socialist upheaval failed to spread. Soviet Russia became an isolated **pariah state** surrounded by capitalist rivals.

KEY TURNING POINTS

**Promise and disappointment**

- **1918** Wilson's Fourteen Points
- **1919** Comintern established
- **1919** US treaty ratification fails
- **1920** Democratic electoral defeat

EXAM COMPARISON

**Why did both programmes stall?**

| Wilson | Lenin |
|---|---|
| US domestic resistance | Revolutions fail abroad |

Wilson and Lenin both recognized the **death of the old imperial order** and feared the consequences of failing to replace it. Their rival programmes tried to remake international order, but each met limits: Wilson's domestic defeat weakened the League, while Lenin's failed worldwide revolution encouraged his successors to turn toward **“socialism in one country.”** Their clash between **liberal internationalism** and **revolutionary socialism** became central to the international history of the twentieth century and left the world vulnerable to further disorder.

# § Revision: An Unfinished New World Order

*Neither the liberal league nor global revolution was fully realized.*

REVISION: WILSON AND LENIN AT A GLANCE

| Feature | Woodrow Wilson | Vladimir Lenin |
|---|---|---|
| **Philosophical roots** | Liberal capitalism; Christianity | Revolutionary Marxism |
| **Instrument** | League of Nations; voluntary cooperation | Third International; revolutionary organization |
| **Political order** | Interconnected sovereign nation-states | Dictatorship of the proletariat; socialist federation |
| **Cause of war** | Balance of power and secret diplomacy | Monopoly capitalism and imperialism |
| **Path to change** | Democratic reform and moral renewal | International revolution from below |
| **Key text** | The Fourteen Points | *Imperialism, the Highest Stage of Capitalism* |

REVISION THESIS

**Two diagnoses; two solutions**

**Wilson:** Repair diplomacy and build cooperation.
**Lenin:** Overthrow the capitalist order generating imperial conflict.

TWO INSTITUTIONS

**League vs. Comintern**

**League**
States negotiate peace

**Comintern**
Workers spread revolution

CHAPTER 12

# The Versailles System

*Study notes: The Versailles System — Architecting a New International Order*

CENTRAL THESIS

The **Versailles System** was both a **punitive settlement** intended to disable German power and a far-reaching experiment in **international law, disarmament, minority protection and collective governance**. Its security design failed, but its institutional innovations survived.

TIMELINE

- **1919**
- **1921**
- **1923**
- **1924**
- **1925**
- **1926**
- **1929**
- **1933**
- **1936**
- **1938**

In the aftermath of the First World War, the Paris peace-makers attempted not merely to stop fighting but to build lasting international peace. British diplomat **Harold Nicolson** recalled their ambition: “We were preparing not Peace only, but Eternal Peace.” The **Treaty of Versailles** contained **440 clauses**; taken together with associated institutions and agreements, it sought to limit Germany while creating new ways to regulate international affairs.

# Ⅰ Punishment Versus Stable Peace

*France’s desire for security confronted British economic calculations and Wilsonian internationalism.*

## FRENCH SECURITY AND THE ANGLO-AMERICAN ALTERNATIVE

**France**, vulnerable to renewed German attack, pressed for tough reparations, restrictions and military safeguards. **David Lloyd George** increasingly questioned whether a crippled Germany could function as a market for Britain or resist political extremism. The **Fontainebleau Memorandum** argued for rehabilitation as well as restraint. **Woodrow Wilson** approached settlement through the **Fourteen Points**, national self-determination and a **League of Nations** intended to replace the old power-politics system.

These impulses produced a settlement of **dual character**: a punitive attempt to prevent German resurgence and an ambitious international experiment in **law, arms supervision, minority protection and economic coordination**. A later US State Department assessment warned that few treaties had been criticized more freely—or read less carefully.

EXAM INTERPRETATION

**Punish or rehabilitate?**

| France | Britain |
| --- | --- |
| Prevent another German assault. | Preserve markets and avoid radicalism. |

Wilson added a third premise: **rules and a League** should restrain war.

CONCEPTUAL PARADOX

**Two faces of Versailles**

| Restraint | Reconstruction |
| --- | --- |
| Restrict German military power. | Build institutions for cooperation. |

# II Reparations and Economic Crisis

*Disputed compensation led from financial coercion to American-backed stabilization.*

The Allies could not agree on a complete reparations bill in 1919, so a **Reparations Commission** was created. The resulting debt system became a source of economic pressure and political controversy, especially when defaults led France and Belgium to occupy the **Ruhr**. German hyperinflation peaked in 1923; subsequent plans sought to stabilize payments and the currency.

REPARATIONS: ASSESSMENT, COLLAPSE AND RESTRUCTURING

| Milestone | Date | Significance |
|---|---|---|
| **Reparations assessment** | 1 May 1921 | **$33 billion**, plus Belgian war debt, as assessed in 1921. |
| **Occupation of the Ruhr** | Jan 1923 | French and Belgian occupation after a German default. |
| **Hyperinflation peak** | Nov 1923 | One US dollar reportedly equalled **4.2 trillion German marks**. |
| **Dawes Plan** | 1924 | US-backed debt restructuring and a **$200 million** stabilization loan. |
| **Young Plan** | 1929 | Long-range repayments scheduled through 1988 and an international banking mechanism. |

The **Rentenmark** helped arrest the currency collapse. The Nazi regime ultimately rejected reparations in **1933**. The financial negotiations nevertheless left a lasting institutional legacy in the **Bank for International Settlements** in Basel, a framework for central-bank cooperation.

KEY FIGURE

**Currency collapse, 1923**

**4.2T**

German marks to US$1 at the reported November 1923 peak.

ECONOMIC SEQUENCE

**From coercion to management**

- **1921** Reparation assessment
- **1923** Ruhr and hyperinflation
- **1924** Dawes stabilization
- **1929** Young restructuring

## III War Guilt and the Origins of International Criminal Law

*Versailles linked responsibility, reparations and prosecution.*

### ARTICLES 231, 227 AND 228

**Article 231**, often labelled the **“War Guilt Clause,”** supplied the legal foundation for reparations by assigning responsibility for war-related losses to Germany and its allies. **Article 227** sought to charge former Kaiser **Wilhelm II** with an offence against international morality; **Article 228** provided for prosecution of alleged violations of the laws and customs of war.

The immediate prosecutions were limited: the **Netherlands declined to extradite Wilhelm II**, and German trials produced only a few light sentences. Yet the principle of holding individuals answerable under international law helped anticipate the later **Nuremberg and Tokyo tribunals** and the International Criminal Court.

## IV Disarmament and the Innovation of Verification

*Military restrictions were extensive; inspectors acquired new rights.*

GERMAN MILITARY LIMITS UNDER THE PEACE SETTLEMENT

| Armed service | Treaty restriction |
|---|---|
| **Army** | Limited to **100,000** troops; conscription prohibited. |
| **Navy** | Six battleships allowed; **submarines prohibited**. |
| **Air power** | German military air force abolished. |

TREATY TERMINOLOGY

**Three important articles**

| | |
|---|---|
| **231** | Reparation liability |
| **227** | Former Kaiser charged |
| **228** | War crimes prosecutions |

TREATY LIMIT

**The size of Germany’s army**

**100,000**

Maximum authorized soldiers; conscription banned.

GERMAN MILITARY LIMITS UNDER THE PEACE SETTLEMENT (CONTINUED)

| Armed service | Treaty restriction |
|---|---|
| **Rhineland** | Demilitarized: no German troops or fortifications. |

The **International Military Control Commission (IMCC)** introduced inspection rights, search powers and diplomatic immunities for international arms monitors. Germany nonetheless found ways to work around restrictions, including the development of tanks in **Sweden** and pilot training in **Soviet Russia**, facilitated by the cooperation associated with **Rapallo (1922)**.

# Ⓥ Borders, Plebiscites and Minority Rights

*National self-determination became an imperfect principle of territorial organization.*

## THE SAAR, DANZIG AND ETHNIC MINORITIES

The peace-makers used **plebiscites** to settle some frontier questions instead of relying exclusively on Great Power bargaining. The **Saar Basin** came under **League administration for 15 years**. The **Free City of Danzig** provided Poland access to the sea without assigning the largely German port directly to Poland. **Fourteen states** entered minority-rights arrangements intended to protect ethnic groups and allow petitions to the League. These provisions internationalized aspects of human rights while exposing conflicts between sovereignty and outside supervision.

TERRITORIAL MODELS

**Two distinct settlements**

**Saar**
League rule for 15 years.

**Danzig**
Free City under League protection.

# VI Locarno and Germany’s Return to Diplomacy

*The mid-1920s briefly substituted negotiated compliance for confrontation.*

### STRESEMANN’S POLICY OF FULFILMENT

Under Foreign Minister **Gustav Stresemann**, Germany followed a policy of **“fulfilment”**—satisfying obligations to demonstrate that it could again be a trusted international actor. At **Locarno in 1925**, Germany voluntarily accepted its western frontiers with France and Belgium, while **Britain and Italy** guaranteed the arrangement. Germany joined the **League of Nations in 1926**, marking its diplomatic rehabilitation.

# VII Erosion, Rearmament and Collapse

*The Depression and Hitler’s challenges undermined treaty enforcement.*

The settlement’s stability eroded amid the **Great Depression** and Nazi expansion. Hitler’s tactics were described as **“weekend surprises,”** announcements designed to catch foreign officials off guard. Rearmament, the return of conscription, the remilitarization of the Rhineland and the **Anschluss** eventually destroyed crucial treaty limits.

Versailles failed in its immediate political objective of preventing another European war, yet its significance was not confined to punishment. The **League of Nations**, **Permanent Court of International Justice**, **International Labour Organization** and **International Commission for Air Navigation** helped establish patterns later used in the **United Nations** and international systems of aviation, finance, arms regulation and human rights. The settlement was a faltering but consequential effort to replace peace by treaty alone with **peace through institutions**.

KEY DIPLOMATIC DATES

**From Locarno to the League**

- **1925** — Locarno western-border pact
- **1926** — Germany enters the League

TREATY CHRONOLOGY

**German challenges to Versailles**

The chronology records the **Luftwaffe** and **conscription** announcements under **1936**.

# § Revision: A Failed Peace With Enduring Institutions

*The treaty could not guarantee peace, but it anticipated important forms of international governance.*

REVISION CHRONOLOGY: TREATY VIOLATIONS (RECORDED DATES)

| Date given | Challenge | Allied response |
|---|---|---|
| 8 Mar 1936 | Re-establishment of the **Luftwaffe**. | Denunciation and no military intervention. |
| 16 Mar 1936 | Return of **conscription**; army reported at 550,000. | Protests without intervention. |
| Mar 1936 | German troops return to the **Rhineland**. | Britain and France do not act militarily. |
| Mar 1938 | **Anschluss** with Austria; challenge to Article 80. | Appeasement rather than enforcement. |

REVISION THESIS

**An institutional legacy despite failure**

**Immediate failure:** no durable security against renewed war. **Long-term innovation:** accountability, verification, rights and international organizations.

SOURCE QUOTATION

**Harold Nicolson on ambition**

“We were preparing not Peace only, but **Eternal Peace**.”

CHAPTER 13

# The Legacy of the First World War

*Study notes: The League of Nations — The Paradox of Permanent Peace*

CENTRAL THESIS

The **League of Nations** was a radical experiment in **collective peace**, but its founders remained dependent on Great Power influence and national sovereignty. Its failure to deter war obscures a lasting legacy in **financial reconstruction, refugee relief, minority protection and international diplomacy**.

TIMELINE

- **1919**
- **1920**
- **1922**
- **1923**
- **1924**
- **1925**
- **1932**
- **1939**

The **League of Nations**, established amid the peace settlements after the First World War, promised a revolutionary alternative to two millennia of power politics. Yet its founders remained, in the account's words, **"prisoners of their diplomatic heritage."** British and French imperial calculations repeatedly competed with collective security. Its eventual inability to restrain aggression has obscured substantial work in finance, refugees, minority protection and arbitration. Lenin dismissed it as a **"band of robber nations"**; others called it a **"toothless tiger."**

## I A New Order Embedded in the Peace Treaties

*The Covenant proposed collective dispute settlement while remaining tied to unequal postwar settlements.*

The **Covenant of the League** was incorporated as the **first 26 articles** of the main peace treaties rather than established as an entirely independent compact. League responsibilities extended to territorial arrangements, supervised territories and later financial assistance.

FOUR PEACE TREATIES AND THE LEAGUE'S EXPANDING RESPONSIBILITIES

| Treaty | Signing location | Connection to the settlement |
|---|---|---|
| **Versailles** | Paris suburb | Germany; League roles in Saar/Danzig and boundary settlements. |
| **Trianon** | Paris suburb | Hungary; later League-backed economic regeneration loans. |
| **Neuilly** | Paris suburb | Bulgaria; later League action in a regional crisis. |
| **Sèvres** | Paris suburb | Ottoman settlement associated in the account with mandates. |

KEY TERM

**League Covenant**

The **26 articles** setting out the League's operating rules, incorporated at the opening of major postwar treaties.

CONCEPTUAL REVOLUTION

**From force to conference**

State claims backed by force

↓

League consultation and arbitration

↓

Peace as a collective responsibility

### THE PHILOSOPHY: PEACE BY CONFERENCE

The old assumption that a sovereign state could legitimately use force to secure interests came under challenge. The League promised **conference and arbitration instead of war**, questioned the Social Darwinist assumption that the strongest states should prevail, and insisted that diplomacy could create a common security interest. This immediately raised the dilemma of how collective decisions could coexist with the **foreign-policy autonomy of states**.

## II The Anglo-French Engine and America's Absence

*Universal aspiration, unequal Great Power control.*

### A LEAGUE SHAPED BY BRITAIN AND FRANCE

The League's membership extended beyond Europe, but its politics were dominated throughout the 1920s by **London and Paris**. **Woodrow Wilson** helped conceive the organization, but the **US Senate** refused to ratify the associated peace treaty. American absence weakened the global balance of the institution and left European Great Powers as its central diplomatic actors.

### MANDATES AND THE QUASI-IMPERIAL PROBLEM

Through the **Permanent Mandates Commission (PMC)**, the League supervised territories removed from the defeated Central Powers. **Jan Smuts** helped develop mandate classifications: **Class A** in the Middle East (including Palestine, Iraq, Syria and Lebanon) and **Classes B and C** covering territories subjected to different degrees of colonial administration and oversight. Critics regarded the scheme as **imperialism in new language**, particularly where European powers drew boundaries using a "red crayon to a map."

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**Universality meant equality?**

**No.** The organization claimed global scope, but the absence of the United States and Anglo-French priorities concentrated political influence.

THREE MANDATE CLASSES

**Imperial administration under supervision**

| | |
|---|---|
| **A** | Middle Eastern territories |
| **B** | Colonial-style administration |
| **C** | Integral-style rule by mandatory power |

## III Financial Reconstruction and Humanitarian Work

*The League proved more capable in technical administration than in coercing major states.*

### STABILIZATION LOANS AND MONETARY REFORM

With support from figures such as **Montagu Norman** at the Bank of England, the League helped arrange reconstruction loans for vulnerable successor states and required oversight by its **Financial Committee**. Reconstruction loans amounted to **650 million gold crowns for Austria (1922)** and **more than £14 million for Hungary (1924)**. League-backed stabilization efforts also reached **Bulgaria, Greece and Estonia**. The work was presented both as reconstruction and as a means of resisting political radicalization.

### REFUGEES AND MINORITY PROTECTION

The collapse of the Russian, German and Habsburg empires displaced large populations. Norwegian explorer **Fridtjof Nansen**, the League's High Commissioner for Refugees, introduced the **Nansen Passport (1922)** to help stateless and displaced persons travel. Meanwhile, minority arrangements offered legal protection to ethnic, religious and linguistic communities. The account reports **13 states** with such protections by **1932**; governments often resisted them as external intrusion into national sovereignty.

## IV Arbitration in Practice: Five Crises

*Results depended heavily on whether Britain and France could agree—and on the rank of the aggressor.*

LEAGUE ARBITRATION: SELECTED EPISODES

| Dispute | Date | Outcome / significance |
|---|---|---|
| **Åland Islands** | 1920 | League mediation presented as a successful small-state dispute |

HIGH-YIELD FIGURE

**Austria's stabilization loan**

**650M**

Gold crowns reportedly loaned under League administration in 1922.

HUMANITARIAN INNOVATION

**Nansen Passport**

A **1922** travel document intended to assist stateless refugees following revolution and the dissolution of empires.

EXAM DISTINCTION

**Two kinds of success**

**Financial**
Currency and debt stabilization

**Humanitarian**
Refugee travel and minority claims

LEAGUE ARBITRATION: SELECTED EPISODES (CONTINUED)

| Dispute | Date | Outcome / significance |
|---|---|---|
| **Vilna** | 1920–23 | Polish occupation; the League could not secure an effective plebiscite. |
| **Upper Silesia** | 1922 | Industrial district divided between Germany and Poland; uneasy Great Power compromise. |
| **Corfu** | 1923 | Mussolini seized the island and forced settlement outside the League through the Conference of Ambassadors. |
| **Greek–Bulgarian crisis** | 1925 | British–French cooperation helped compel Greek withdrawal after invasion. |

## THE PATTERN BEHIND SUCCESS AND FAILURE

In smaller disputes where the Great Powers' interests coincided, the League could achieve meaningful results. The **Corfu incident** exposed limits when a permanent Council member was involved: Mussolini evaded League jurisdiction and **Article 16 sanctions** were too vague to ensure action. The contrasting **Bulgarian crisis** suggested the League could perform well when Britain and France acted in unison. Conference and arbitration changed the procedure for resolving disputes, but enforcement still depended on agreement among the Great Powers.

The League could not compel the surrender of absolute sovereignty needed for robust collective security. Strong nationalism, uneven Great Power commitment and Anglo-French disputes undermined it, and it did not answer the challenge of aggressive dictators in the 1930s. Yet its efforts to **stabilize economies, protect minorities, assist refugees and institutionalize international conference** supplied models later adopted by the **United Nations**. Its failures should be studied alongside the novel practices that made it a genuine turning point in international history.

ARBITRATION TEST CASES

**1920–25 in five snapshots**

- **1920** Åland Islands
- **1920–23** Vilna: plebiscite not secured
- **1922** Upper Silesia
- **1923** Corfu failure
- **1925** Bulgarian intervention

CAUSAL EXPLANATION

**Why outcomes differed**

**Aligned powers**
Bulgarian crisis: action possible

**Divided powers**
Corfu: enforcement weak

LEAGUE ARBITRATION

**Disputes involving Åland and Vilna**

The account discusses **Åland** and **Vilna** among the territorial disputes considered by the League.

# § Revision: An Imperfect League From an Imperfect Peace

*Collective security remained hostage to sovereignty, but the League's social and technical legacy endured.*

**Revision test:** Compare Corfu with the Greek–Bulgarian crisis, then use one financial and one humanitarian example to explain why the League's record cannot be judged by collective security alone.

REVISION ARGUMENT

### More than a failed police force

**Political limit:** sovereignty and power rivalry. **Institutional achievement:** financial reconstruction, refugees, minority protections and a continuing framework for diplomacy.

NOTABLE QUOTATION

### The imperfect settlement

"It was inevitable that an **imperfect League** would emerge from what was an equally **imperfect peace settlement**."

CHAPTER 14

# Why International Finance Mattered: 1919–1939

*Study notes: Why International Finance Mattered — The Interwar Financial Order*

CENTRAL THESIS

The financiers who sought to restore **liberal internationalism** after 1918 helped create a **double fragility**: vulnerable cross-border payments and deteriorating political solidarity. The **1929–33 crisis** did not directly cause the next war, but it undermined liberal governments and helped authoritarian expansion gain strength.

TIMELINE

- **1919**
- **1924**
- **1925**
- **1928**
- **1929**
- **1931**
- **1932**
- **1933**

The interwar collapse is often explained chiefly through politics, yet its foundations also lay in an **unstable global financial order**. Bankers pursued restored trade, stable currencies and international capital flows with considerable autonomy from the governments whose security depended on their decisions. Their programme sought prosperity through **liberal internationalism**, but its vulnerabilities eventually separated states that needed to cooperate.

# Ⓘ Britain: Global Finance and the Gold Standard

*Restoring London's central position carried domestic and diplomatic costs.*

## THE BRITISH BLUEPRINT

After the **1918 Armistice**, the **City of London** aimed to recover its pre-war standing in global finance. Officials and bankers linked a functioning European economy to the reintegration of **Germany**. Britain's return to the **gold standard in April 1925** at the pre-war rate of **$4.86 per pound** protected sterling's prestige, but contributed to **high interest rates, unemployment and weak industrial recovery**.

## THE GOLD EXCHANGE STANDARD

Because the world faced limited gold reserves, the **Bank of England** and the **League of Nations Financial Committee** encouraged smaller countries to hold **sterling or dollars** as reserve assets in place of gold itself. This made financial stability dependent on confidence in a few key currencies.

POLICY CONSEQUENCE

**Gold-standard restoration**

Return at pre-war parity (1925)

↓

Prestige protected, but sterling overvalued

↓

Tight credit weakens industry and employment

KEY TERM

**Gold exchange standard**

A system in which some states held **sterling or dollar reserves** rather than backing every unit of currency with physical gold.

EXAM DISTINCTION

**Finance versus diplomacy**

| Bankers | Governments |
| --- | --- |
| Re-establish capital flows and stable exchange | Maintain national security and industrial employment |

### GERMAN REPARATIONS AND THE RUHR

British **financial appeasement** favoured a solvent Germany that could pay debts and trade with Britain. London's financial circles denounced the **French and Belgian occupation of the Ruhr (1923)** following German default as "madness." The **Dawes Plan (1924)** formed part of the stabilization effort. The **London Conference of 1924** curbed France's independent sanctions power and moved reparations administration toward a commission in which **American financial interests held a veto**, as described in the account.

## II The American Paradox

*Wall Street internationalism collided with Washington protectionism.*

By **1929**, the **United States** occupied the centre of international trade and payments. Yet **Wall Street financiers** wanted overseas lending and portfolio investment, while a more **isolationist Washington** demanded repayments, protected domestic markets and avoided European commitments. This mismatch made the world reliant on American credit without providing an open American market through which borrowers could earn dollars.

TWO INCOMPATIBLE AMERICAN APPROACHES IN THE 1920S

| Issue | Wall Street: internationalist | Washington: protectionist / isolationist |
|---|---|---|
| **Goal** | Expand foreign lending and investment. | Protect domestic markets and avoid European entanglements. |
| **Trade** | Permit imports so foreign debtors could earn repayment funds. | High tariffs, including Fordney–McCumber and Smoot–Hawley. |
| **War debts** | Forgiveness or reduction to stabilize Europe. | Insistence on repayment and "rugged individualism." |
| **Leadership** | Benjamin Strong (New York Fed); J. P. Morgan Jr. | Harding, Coolidge and Hoover. |

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**The crash started everything?**

**Not in this account.** The withdrawal of American capital began in **1928**; the global payments system was already vulnerable before October 1929.

CAUSAL CHAIN

**A dollar shortage for Europe**

1. **US trade surplus**
2. **Tariff barriers limit dollar earnings**
3. **American loans fund repayments**
4. **Capital returns to New York**

### THE FATAL LOAN DEPENDENCY

The United States ran a large **balance-of-payments surplus**, yet closed its markets to many imports. European borrowers therefore needed repeated **American loans** to service debt. The **New York stock-market boom of 1928** pulled capital back to the US, weakening European credit *before* the 1929 market crash. **Herbert Hoover** dismissed Benjamin Strong as a “mental annex to Europe.”

## III France and the Myth of Financial Imperialism

*French financial policy is presented as defensive, but suspicion turned technical decisions into crises.*

### DEFENCE RATHER THAN EXPANSION

British observers depicted France’s abundant capital as a weapon used to contain Germany and dominate Eastern Europe. France's financial policy also reflected **defensive alliances with Poland, Romania and Yugoslavia** and the substantial expense of **rebuilding devastated French territory** without the reparations initially promised.

### THE STERLING–FRANC DISPUTE

The **Bank of France** accumulated substantial **sterling balances** while supporting the franc. Its request to exchange **£20 million** of sterling for gold, described here as a technical response to speculation, was interpreted in London as hostile political pressure. In **1931**, leaders including **Briand and Laval** attempted interest-rate reductions and loans to support Britain and Germany, but mutual distrust obstructed cooperation.

HISTORICAL INTERPRETATION

**Was French finance imperialist?**

**Historical interpretation:** French credit policy primarily defended its borders and currency. British fears of an aggressive “financial imperialism” made cooperation harder.

SIGNIFICANT RESERVE DISPUTE

**Sterling demanded as gold**

**£20M**

The amount France sought to convert from sterling to gold, provoking British suspicions.

# IV The Global Breakdown, 1929–1933

*A fragile payments network translated local setbacks into general depression.*

The chronology also records **Strong's central-bank warning (1927)** and, in **1933**, Hitler's rise and a US banker inquiry. The **Great Depression** was more than the Wall Street crash. Weakly regulated finance, international debts, vulnerable reserve currencies and rising tariff barriers turned downturn into a **global trade and payments collapse**. The financial breakdown involved **Creditanstalt in Austria**, British withdrawal from gold and the breakdown of reparations and war-debt cooperation.

HOW THE FINANCIAL CRISIS SPREAD, 1928–1932

| Date | Event | International significance |
|---|---|---|
| **1928–29** | New York market boom draws funds away from Europe. | Cuts off short-term finance and exposes borrowers. |
| **1930** | Smoot–Hawley tariff introduced in US trade policy. | Protection and retaliation narrow markets; the account gives March as the signature date. |
| **May 1931** | Austrian **Creditanstalt** collapses. | Banking contagion; France linked rescue to blocking an Austro-German customs union, which Britain called "blackmail." |
| **Sept 1931** | Britain leaves gold; sterling depreciates sharply. | Sterling depreciates about **30%**, imposing heavy losses on the Bank of France's large sterling holdings. |
| **1932** | Lausanne Conference effectively ends German reparations. | US still refuses to cancel Allied war debts. |

FINANCIAL TURNING POINTS

**From stabilization to crisis**

- **1928** — US capital begins returning home
- **1929** — Wall Street crash
- **1931** — Creditanstalt; sterling crisis
- **1932** — Reparations end; war debts remain

CONTAGION MECHANISM

**Why the depression spread**

International lending contracts
↓
Bank and currency crises
↓
Trade barriers and deflation
↓
Political cooperation collapses

The financiers of the 1920s pursued an international market order without adjusting it to the new political and debt landscape left by the Great War. **British attempts to build peace through trade** and **French efforts to purchase security through financial policy** failed. The crisis of **1929–33** did not mechanically produce the Second World War, but **discredited liberal governments**, divided the democracies and made authoritarian expansion easier in **Germany, Italy and Japan**.

# § Revision: Finance and the Fragility of Peace

*A liberal programme could prove politically destructive without being a conscious conspiracy.*

THREE INTERCONNECTED FAILURES OF INTERWAR FINANCE

| Concept | Interwar practice | Consequence |
|---|---|---|
| **Liberal internationalism** | Independent global banking and capital movement. | Systemic vulnerability beyond national control. |
| **Gold standard** | Restoration of pre-1914 parity in a transformed economy. | Deflation, unemployment and commercial conflict. |
| **Allied solidarity** | Disputes over reparations and war debts. | Breakdown of cooperation by 1932. |

REVISION THESIS

**A double fragility**

**Financial:** credit and currency interdependence.
**Political:** democracies unable to cooperate over debts, tariffs and security.

EXAM CAUSATION

**Crisis was not a direct war trigger**

**Not deterministic**
Depression did not automatically cause war

**Enabling condition**
Liberal collapse aided fascism and militarism

CHAPTER 15

# The Far Eastern Crisis and the Balance of Power, 1920–1941

*Study notes: The Far Eastern Crisis — From Washington Cooperation to Pacific War*

CENTRAL THESIS

The Far Eastern crisis was a prolonged contest between **Western-led status-quo imperialism** and **Japanese revisionism**. The cooperative **Washington System** depended on diplomatic restraint; depression, Chinese nationalism and Japanese military independence destroyed that restraint, producing escalating confrontation and war in **1941**.

TIMELINE

- **1922**
- **1929**
- **1931**
- **1933**
- **1934**
- **1937**
- **1939**
- **1940**
- **1941**

The clash in East Asia unfolded over two decades rather than in a single explosion. After the First World War, Western powers sought to replace the scramble for China with rules of **equal access and limited naval competition**. Japan came to regard these as restrictions imposed by states still enjoying their own imperial privileges. As the **Great Depression** broke down economic cooperation, nationalists and military commanders increasingly turned toward force.

# Ⅰ The Washington System: A Fragile Peace

*Pacific arrangements sought to manage naval rivalry and access to China.*

## TWO FOUNDATIONS OF COOPERATION

The postwar Far Eastern order rested on the **League of Nations** and the **Washington Treaty System (1922)**. The arrangements purported to preserve **Chinese sovereignty** and the **Open Door** for commerce while limiting competition among Pacific naval powers. This compromise amounted to the "orderly exploitation" of China rather than a complete rejection of imperialism.

THE THREE WASHINGTON TREATY ARRANGEMENTS

| Treaty | Objective | Principal treaty terms |
|---|---|---|
| **Nine-Power Treaty** | China and trade | Chinese territorial integrity; **Open Door** commercial access. |
| **Four-Power Treaty** | Pacific security | Consultation among Pacific powers; fortification restrictions are also listed here. |
| **Five-Power Naval Treaty** | Battleship limitation | Capital-ship ratio of **5 : 5 : 3** for Britain, the US and Japan. |

KEY PRINCIPLE

**Open Door**

Equal commercial access for foreign powers in **China**, while formally respecting China's territorial integrity.

NAVAL LIMIT

**A disputed ratio**

**5:5:3**

Washington capital-ship ratio: Britain, United States and Japan.

PACIFIC TREATY SYSTEM

**Fortification limits and naval policy**

The Washington treaty system addressed restrictions on Pacific fortifications in addition to naval ratios and commercial arrangements.

The **5:5:3** naval ratio appeared to Japan as a symbol of inferiority. Washington diplomacy also ended the **Anglo-Japanese Alliance**, leaving Tokyo feeling rebuffed by Britain and threatened by America's growing strength. Japan therefore resented an arrangement that Western powers treated as cooperation.

## II Eroding the Status Quo

*Chinese nationalism, Soviet force and weak Japanese civilian control destabilized agreements.*

### THREE SOURCES OF DESTABILIZATION

First, **Chiang Kai-shek** and the **Kuomintang** sought to unify China and abolish foreign **extraterritorial rights**, threatening outside interests. Second, the **USSR** defended its **Chinese Eastern Railway** position, using force in **1929** after a clash with Chiang's forces. Third, unstable Japanese cabinets, political assassination and military insubordination weakened Tokyo's civilian government.

The **Kwantung Army**, stationed in Manchuria, increasingly acted autonomously and pushed national policy toward unilateral expansion. This created a gap between diplomats who had accepted international rules and officers prepared to break them.

## III The Depression and the Manchurian Rupture

*A weakening economy and military initiative overwhelm collective security.*

EROSION OF COOPERATION

**Three pressures**

- China challenged foreign privileges.
- The USSR defended its railway interests.
- Japanese officers acted beyond civilian control.

KEY ACTOR

**Kwantung Army**

The Japanese force in **Manchuria** whose autonomous decisions pushed Japan toward expansion, often beyond civilian political control.

MANCHURIA SEQUENCE

**A failed collective-security test**

| | |
|---|---|
| **1929** | Depression begins |
| **1931** | Mukden; invasion |
| **1932** | Manchukuo regime |
| **1933** | Japan leaves League |

### THE MUKDEN INCIDENT (18 SEPTEMBER 1931)

Officers including **Ishiwara Kanji** and **Itagaki Seishiro** staged an attack on the **South Manchuria Railway** and used it to justify an invasion of **Manchuria**. Japan established the puppet regime of **Manchukuo**. The crisis directly repudiated the Washington security framework. The **Stimson Doctrine** expressed US non-recognition of territorial changes achieved by force.

### LYTTON AND THE LEAGUE

The **League of Nations**, preoccupied with the Depression and lacking the will to use force, dispatched the **Lytton Commission**. Its findings criticized Japanese militarism while acknowledging disorder in China. Japan rejected the report and **left the League in March 1933**. Economic nationalism and the failure of collective enforcement had thus reinforced one another.

## Ⅳ From Regional Revisionism to War in China

*The mid-1930s brought diplomatic defiance, naval competition and wider combat.*

### THE AMAU DECLARATION AND NAVAL REARMAMENT

The **Amau Declaration (1934)** opposed foreign assistance to China, asserting what resembled a Japanese **“Monroe Doctrine”** over East Asia. Japan demanded battleship parity at the **London Naval Conference** in the mid-1930s, then abandoned naval limitations when parity was refused, rekindling the arms race.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**A spontaneous border clash?**

**No.** Kwantung officers **staged** the railway incident that became the pretext for invasion.

EXAM DISTINCTION

**Escalation, not a single leap**

**1934–36**
Regional claims and naval treaty breakdown

**1937 onward**
Full-scale China war and diplomatic alignment

CHRONOLOGY

**Naval and military escalation**

1. **Amau Declaration (1934)**
2. **Demand for naval parity**
3. **Full invasion of China (1937)**

### WAR AND THE ANTI-COMINTERN ALIGNMENT

In **1937**, Japan launched a full-scale invasion of China. Bombing attacks on civilians helped transform Western perceptions of Japan into those of an international aggressor. Japanese alignment with **Germany and Italy** through the **Anti-Comintern Pact** also alarmed Britain because it threatened both communism and the wider imperial balance. The precise pact chronology in the submitted briefing requires checking.

## Ⓥ China as Proxy and the European War

*China becomes a theatre in a broader power struggle.*

### OUTSIDE ASSISTANCE AND NOMONHAN

From **1938**, the **US, Britain and the USSR** increasingly supported China as a strategic counterweight to Japan. The USSR and US furnished **advisers, aircraft and equipment**; Britain accelerated the **Burma Road** supply link to Chiang Kai-shek. At **Nomonhan (1939)**, a major Soviet–Japanese frontier battle ended in **Japanese defeat**, exposing weaknesses against mechanized armies.

### THE EUROPEAN STRATEGIC WINDOW

The **Nazi–Soviet Pact** shocked Japan by aligning Germany with the Soviet rival it had feared. The subsequent **fall of France** and heavy British commitments in Europe created an opportunity for a **southern advance** toward Dutch and British possessions in Southeast Asia. The chronology dates the Nazi–Soviet Pact to **August 1933**.

STRATEGIC LESSON

**Nomonhan (1939)**

Japan’s defeat in a large frontier battle against Soviet forces underscored the danger of a northern war against mechanized opponents.

STRATEGIC CROSSROADS

**Two directions for Japan**

**North**
Face Soviet military power

**South**
Seize European colonial raw materials

# VI The Final Descent, 1940–1941

*Trade sanctions and strategic calculation narrow the choices.*

## WESTERN COORDINATION AND EMBARGOES

With Japan expanding, the US, Britain, the Dutch and Australia moved toward regional defence cooperation, described in the account as an **ABDA** coalition. In the **summer of 1941**, the United States and Britain **froze Japanese assets** and placed restrictions on **oil and scrap steel**. Access to strategic raw materials became the "sinews of war." The formal timing of ABDA arrangements needs verification against the original source.

## JAPAN'S TWO CALCULATED OPTIONS

Japan could either **negotiate a settlement** that would require retreat from China and loss of regional ambition, or **strike south** while its armed forces still enjoyed an immediate advantage. Leaders hoped to win a short conflict before the Western industrial powers could mobilize superior resources. The assumption that Western societies lacked the will for prolonged war proved a fundamental miscalculation.

The Far Eastern crisis exposed the weaknesses of an international system that relied on **moral suasion and economic guidelines** while failing to manage changing power realities. The Depression undermined cooperation; Japan treated territorial conquest as the path to status; and the Western democracies misjudged the deterrent value of force. Japan ultimately wagered on a **short war** despite the industrial and demographic superiority of its adversaries. The resulting conflict brought about the destruction of the Japanese Empire.

DECISION TRAP

**Economic coercion becomes strategy**

Oil and assets restricted (1941)

↓

Japan faces resource crisis

↓

Retreat in China or seize supplies

↓

Gamble on rapid military victory

KEY STRATEGY

**Southern Advance**

Japan's proposed movement into **Southeast Asian colonial territories** to secure oil and other raw materials.

# § Revision: The Failure of Rationalism

*Regional grievance, depression and strategic miscalculation culminated in Pacific war.*

**Key terms for revision: Open Door Policy** (equal commercial access to China); **Kwantung Army** (autonomous force in Manchuria); **Manchukuo** (Japanese puppet state); **Stimson Doctrine** (US non-recognition of territorial changes achieved by force); **Southern Advance** (resources-oriented Southeast Asian strategy).

> *"China was the bone that the victorious Great Powers of the First World War would gnaw at their leisure, and as long as they were in agreement there would be no cause for dispute. That agreement, however, would prove continually harder and harder to achieve."*

REVISION THESIS

**From cooperation to confrontation**

**International arrangements** could not survive an economic collapse, military autonomy and incompatible visions of power in China and the Pacific.

THE CRISIS IN SIX DATES

**A rapid revision strip**

| | |
|---|---|
| **1922** | Washington System |
| **1931** | Manchuria invaded |
| **1933** | Japan leaves League |
| **1937** | China war expands |
| **1939** | Nomonhan |
| **1941** | Embargo and war |

CHAPTER 16

# The Challenge to Empire in the Middle East and Asia

*Study notes: The Illusion of Progress — The Challenge to Empire in Interwar Asia and the Middle East*

CENTRAL THESIS

The supposed interwar **“rise of nationalism”** did not simply transfer mass loyalty from empire to nation. **Western-educated elites** were often tied to colonial power, whereas many decisive challenges came from **spontaneous popular or subaltern movements** driven by taxation, hunger, injustice and repression. Nationalist histories later claimed these struggles as steps toward independence.

TIMELINE

- **1918**
- **1919**
- **1920**
- **1922**
- **1925**
- **1927**
- **1930**
- **1931**
- **1935**
- **1939**

In the aftermath of the First World War, **Britain and France** reached their greatest territorial extents by absorbing former imperial territories through League of Nations **mandates**. The era is often described as a straightforward "rise of nationalism," but the evidence in the account suggests a more divided landscape: nationalist elites borrowed Western concepts without always rallying ordinary people, while popular groups resisted oppression through their own actions and grievances.

The central question is why widespread resistance in **India**, the **Middle Eastern mandates** and **French Indochina** failed to dislodge European rule before 1939.

# I The Post-War Mirage: Paris and Mandates

*The rhetoric of self-determination coexisted with new imperial administration.*

### THE PROMISE OF 1919

The language of **Woodrow Wilson's national self-determination** and the **Bolshevik repudiation of colonialism** drew nationalist delegations to the Paris Peace Conference. Yet Britain and France used German and Ottoman defeat to enlarge their authority. Under the **League of Nations Mandate System**, "advanced" states were meant to prepare supposedly less developed societies for self-government; in practice the arrangement often resembled **colonialism under a new label**.

THREE TERMS BEHIND THE POST-WAR IMPERIAL SETTLEMENT

| Term | Meaning in the account |
|---|---|
| **Mandate system** | Administration by supposedly "advanced" states, presented as preparation for independence but often preserving colonial rule. |
| **Self-determination** | A powerful but imprecise Wilsonian promise lacking mechanisms to enforce it against British or French interests. |

KEY TERM

**Mandate system**

A **League-backed trusteeship** presented as preparation for self-rule but, in this analysis, frequently an instrument of imperial extension.

INTERPRETIVE CAUTION

**Self-determination ≠ immediate independence**

The **Paris settlement** generated political expectations, yet Britain and France often retained control over the territories in question.

THREE TERMS BEHIND THE POST-WAR IMPERIAL SETTLEMENT (CONTINUED)

| Term | Meaning in the account |
|---|---|
| **Mission civilisatrice** | The European “civilizing mission,” depicting empire as a necessary developmental stage for subject peoples. |

# II The “Rise of Nationalism” Reconsidered

*Subaltern history emphasizes the independence of popular resistance from elite narratives.*

## THE CONVENTIONAL STORY

A nationalist narrative associated with scholars such as **Hans Kohn** describes a Western idea of nationalism spreading “downwards” until it mobilized the masses. The linear progression from elite nationalism to mass mobilization was not universal. **Elite nationalists** often had economic and social connections with imperial administrators, and many preferred political argument to risky popular action.

## THE SUBALTERN PERSPECTIVE

The **Subaltern Studies** approach focuses on the “contested, untidy nature of events.” Instead of reading every revolt as an expression of elite national planning, it asks how peasants, laborers and local communities responded to **taxation, coercion and exploitation** on their own terms. Later nationalist accounts could reshape failed or spontaneous uprisings into heroic stories of unified national destiny.

> *“To admit that colonial rule was oppressive, exploitive, and frequently brutal... required far too much honesty; it was preferable to believe that non-European peoples were simply progressing through a necessary stage of “development.””*

HISTORICAL METHOD

**Two ways to explain rebellion**

**Elite-nationalist lens**
Nation-building spreads from leaders to the masses

**Subaltern lens**
People resist immediate grievances; elites later construct narratives

EXAM INSIGHT

**Separate motivation from later memory**

Ask whether a revolt was **organized by nationalist leadership**, sparked by local material grievances, or claimed retrospectively as a nationalist milestone.

# III India: Non-Cooperation and Its Limits

*Gandhi transformed political methods without immediately dismantling the Raj.*

## THE CRISIS OF IMPERIAL LEGITIMACY

The **Amritsar Massacre (1919)**, in which British troops killed **379 demonstrators** according to the account, severely damaged the moral authority of British rule. **Mohandas Gandhi** responded through methods that attacked legitimacy rather than seeking a conventional battlefield victory.

## GANDHI'S LANGUAGE OF RESISTANCE

**Satyagraha** meant peaceful resistance or non-cooperation against the Raj's moral and legal claims. **Swaraj** referred to "self-rule," deliberately broad enough to unite different political groups. **Hartals** were organized stoppages and public protests. Gandhi's appeal was powerful, but the coalition did not eliminate tensions among the **Indian National Congress**, popular Hindu identity and the **Muslim League**.

## INSTITUTIONAL LIMITS

The **Government of India Act (1935)** left important functions in British hands, including powers linked in the account to revenue, law and the Viceroy. The author stresses the persistence of imperial structures and argues that British parliamentary priorities continued to shape reform more than nationalist pressure alone.

THREE GANDHIAN TERMS

**Methods and political goal**

1. **Satyagraha — peaceful non-cooperation**
2. **Swaraj — self-rule**
3. **Hartal — collective strike or protest**

BRITISH RAJ

**Amritsar, 1919**

**379**

Reported deaths at Amritsar; a watershed for Raj legitimacy.

# IV Turkey, Egypt and the Arab Mandates

*Different political outcomes concealed common colonial tensions.*

## TURKEY: AN EXCEPTIONAL OUTCOME

**Turkey** stood apart from the British and French mandate regions, winning independence through the **Turkish War of Independence (1919–22)** and overturning the **Treaty of Sèvres**. Within this account's postwar comparison, Turkey is presented as the only genuinely independent Middle Eastern case.

## EGYPT: THE 1919 UPRISING

The **Wafd**, headed by **Sa'd Zaghlul**, pursued independence in a Wilsonian idiom. Following his exile, protests expanded spontaneously across urban lawyers and students as well as rural peasants. Their tactics included **strikes, boycotts and attacks on railway and telegraph lines**. Britain's **1922 declaration of independence** retained control over foreign affairs, communication and minority protection, making sovereignty severely qualified.

## IRAQ AND SYRIA: SUPPRESSED REVOLTS

In both mandate rebellions below, local grievances met European military force. The political outcomes differed: Britain installed **King Faysal** for indirect rule in Iraq, while Syrian nationalist elites turned toward collaboration through the **National Bloc**. The comparison shows how suppression could redirect resistance without ending colonial control.

CASE COMPARISON

### Different routes to autonomy

**Turkey**
War of independence overturned Sèvres

**Egypt**
1922 declaration left vital British powers intact

COMMON MISREADING

### A declared state is not always sovereign

**Egypt in 1922** illustrates how nominal "independence" could coexist with extensive external control.

REGIONAL CHRONOLOGY

### The interwar Middle East

- **1919** Egyptian uprising
- **1920** Iraqi revolt
- **1922** Turkish victory; Egyptian declaration
- **1925–27** Syrian Great Revolt

TWO MAJOR MANDATE REBELLIONS

| Region | Immediate grievances | Military and political outcome |
|---|---|---|
| **Iraq, 1920** | Taxes; forced labour or conscription for public works; calls for Islamic government. | British aerial suppression; Faysal installed to govern indirectly. |
| **Syria, 1925–27** | Arbitrary French rule, conscription of tribal leaders, punitive administration. | French bombardment of Damascus (the account cites 1,500 deaths); National Bloc develops cooperation strategy. |

# (V) French Indochina: Resistance and Communism

*Failed formal nationalism and rural unrest opened space for communist organization.*

## THE COLONIAL ECONOMY

French rule over **Vietnam, Cambodia and Laos** subordinated the region to export production, especially **rubber and rice**. Resistance grew against economic exploitation, oppressive taxes and the government's use of force.

## FROM THE VNQDD TO THE ICP AND THE PEASANT SOVIETS

The **Vietnamese Nationalist Party (VNQDD)** backed the **Yen Bay Mutiny (1930)**, but its suppression shattered conventional nationalist leadership. That year, **Ho Chi Minh (Nguyen Ai Quoc)** founded the **Indochinese Communist Party (ICP)**. Meanwhile the **Nghe An/Ha Tinh Soviet uprisings (1930–31)** grew from peasant hunger, taxes and oppression. Although communists later claimed credit, the account stresses the **spontaneous** origins of much of the resistance; French air attacks and starvation tactics crushed it.

INDOCHINA IN THREE STEPS

**Changing forms of resistance**

- **1930** VNQDD's Yen Bay mutiny fails
- **1930** Ho Chi Minh establishes ICP
- **1930–31** Nghe An/Ha Tinh peasant revolts

EXAM INTERPRETATION

**Who owned the rebellion?**

Distinguish a **party's subsequent claim to leadership** from the causes and organization of the original peasant movements.

The period from **1918 to 1939** was marked by **resistance without inevitable liberation**. Nationalist elites frequently combined imported language with ties to imperial power; people resisted through concrete economic and social grievances; and European rulers relied on **divide-and-rule methods, armored vehicles and aerial bombing** to suppress revolts. Later histories could recast the failures and fractures of interwar movements as stages in a united nationalist story.

# § Revision: Why Empire Survived

*Interwar protest was real and often powerful, but not a linear march to independence.*

**Revision essentials:** the **mandate system** renewed empire under international language; **Turkey** offers the contrast of successful independence; **Gandhi's satyagraha** contested Raj legitimacy while political control remained constrained; and **subaltern resistance** helps explain how mass grievances differed from elite-nationalist programmes.

> *"Nation-building... was as much about failure as it was about success... commitment to the nation competed with other more deeply rooted loyalties."*

REVISION THESIS

**The paradox of anticolonial politics**

**Elite nationalism** did not automatically direct popular resistance; the imperial system remained militarily and politically resilient despite recurrent unrest.

END-OF-CHAPTER RECALL

**Two contrasts to remember**

**Elite and mass**
Constitutional ideas versus immediate grievances

**Symbol and power**
Self-rule rhetoric versus coercive imperial control

CHAPTER 17

# Mussolini's War in Ethiopia

*Study notes: The Crucible of Barbarism — Ethiopia and the Fracture of the International Order*

CENTRAL THESIS

The **Italo-Ethiopian War (1935–36)** exposed the hollowness of collective security: Italy's conquest brought domestic triumph to **Fascism** while eroding the **League of Nations**, driving Mussolini toward Hitler and normalizing terror against civilians. Its significance reaches beyond an African colonial campaign into the crisis of the European order.

TIMELINE

**1896**

**1923**

**1934**

**1935**

**1936**

The invasion of Ethiopia in **1935** was not simply a late episode of the Scramble for Africa. It was a defining crisis of the 1930s "**Dark Valley**," linking older imperial ambitions to the mass violence and diplomatic realignment that preceded the Second World War. **Sir Robert Vansittart** dismissed the affair as a "trivial" pretext, but its consequences for the **League**, **British and French diplomacy**, and the emerging **Rome–Berlin alignment** were substantial.

# Ⓘ The Ethiopian Anomaly: A Sovereign African State

*Military capacity, internal organization and international recognition supported independence.*

## ADOWA: THE MEMORY OF RESISTANCE

At the **Battle of Adowa (1896)**, **Emperor Menelik II** defeated an invading Italian army. The account contrasts approximately **100,000 Ethiopian troops** with **20,000 Italians**; Italy was forced to acknowledge Ethiopian sovereignty. This made independent Ethiopia an important symbol for the wider **African diaspora**, **Pan-Africanism** and **Rastafarianism**.

## THE MILITARY–FEUDAL ORDER

Ethiopian power rested on a **military-feudal hierarchy** whose aristocratic **Rases** mobilized the peasantry. Shared **Christian traditions** and **Amharic language** are presented as elements of cohesion. Under **Haile Selassie (Ras Tafari)**, centralizing reforms sought to build an officer corps and a more unified state.

## DIPLOMACY AS A DEFENSIVE SHIELD

In **1923**, Ethiopia entered the **League of Nations** under Haile Selassie's leadership, hoping international membership and the Covenant would deter territorial aggression. What had worked through military strength against Italy in 1896 was increasingly entrusted to **international law** by 1935.

A DEFINING DEFEAT

**Adowa, 1896**

**100,000 : 20,000**

Approximate Ethiopian-to-Italian troop strength given in the account.

HISTORICAL PARADOX

**Two kinds of security**

| 1896 | 1935 |
|---|---|
| Military victory forces recognition | Legal protection fails to deter invasion |

KEY TERM

**Rases**

The Ethiopian **aristocratic leaders** whose military and political roles helped mobilize forces within the traditional feudal structure.

ETHIOPIA BEFORE TWO ITALIAN INVASIONS

| Aspect | Menelik II, 1896 | Haile Selassie, 1935 |
|---|---|---|
| **State structure** | Military-feudal hierarchy | Centralizing reforms and nascent absolutism |
| **Armed forces** | Large feudal militia | Transition toward a modern officer corps |
| **Primary strength** | Numbers and united Rases | League membership and diplomatic legitimacy |
| **Outcome** | Victory at Adowa | Conquest and occupation |

# II The Dynamics of Fascist Colonialism

*National prestige, ideology, industry and public ritual reinforce one another.*

## REVERSING THE HUMILIATION OF ADOWA

The **Wal Wal Incident (1934)**, a frontier confrontation, provided a pretext for invasion. To **Benito Mussolini**, Ethiopia's independence recalled the Italian humiliation of 1896. The Fascist regime presented expansion as a test of national vitality, the triumph of the **"New Man"** and proof that Italy was no longer an international lightweight.

## THE "PROLETARIAN NATION" CLAIM

Mussolini depicted Italy as a **"proletarian nation"** with abundant labor but inadequate land and capital. Colonies were supposed to offer territory for emigrants, strengthen authoritarian unity and showcase industries such as **Fiat and Ansaldo**. A supposedly "virile" imperial project would become a national **"gymnasium of boldness."**

IDEOLOGICAL MECHANISM

**Mussolini's imperial promise**

Adowa remembered as humiliation

↓

"Proletarian nation" seeks land and prestige

↓

Conquest presented as Fascist renewal

DOMESTIC MOBILIZATION

**The Wedding Ring Ceremony**

The surrender of personal gold rings made **imperial warfare a public ritual of solidarity**, helping the regime convert sanctions into nationalist enthusiasm.

### THE PEAK OF FASCIST CONSENSUS

The war was widely portrayed as the **zenith of domestic support** for Fascism. At the **1935 "Wedding Ring Ceremony,"** thousands of Italian women surrendered gold rings to help offset international sanctions. The ritual tied private sacrifice, public enthusiasm and loyalty to the **Duce** together.

## III Collective Security Fails

*Britain and France could neither defend the League nor retain Mussolini as an ally.*

### STRESA AND BRITISH PUBLIC OPINION

In **April 1935**, the **Stresa Front** joined Britain, France and Italy in opposition to German rearmament. Mussolini treated this diplomacy as toleration of his Ethiopian plans. Britain, however, faced the **Peace Ballot**, in which the account cites **11 million** participants supporting League action and sanctions against aggressors. Policymakers tried to satisfy this demand while preserving Italy as a potential counterweight to Hitler.

### PARTIAL SANCTIONS AND THE OPEN SUEZ CANAL

The League imposed **limited economic sanctions**, but Britain did not close the **Suez Canal** to Italian shipping. Troops and supplies continued to pass. Italy could therefore continue its campaign despite sanctions: Britain and France condemned aggression but withheld measures that might stop it.

COMMON MISCONCEPTION

**Sanctions guaranteed collective security?**

Sanctions were imposed, but **enforcement was partial**: the Suez Canal remained open to Italian troop and supply traffic.

DIPLOMATIC BREAKDOWN

**From coalition to mistrust**

| | |
|---|---|
| Apr 1935 | Stresa Front |
| 1935 | Peace Ballot and partial sanctions |
| Dec 1935 | Hoare–Laval proposals leak |
| 1936 | League credibility collapses |

EXAM DISTINCTION

**Two incompatible priorities**

| Collective security | Balance against Hitler |
|---|---|
| Defend a League member from conquest | Keep Mussolini diplomatically aligned |

### HOARE–LAVAL AND THE COLLAPSE OF CREDIBILITY

The secret **Hoare–Laval proposals (December 1935)** offered a division of Ethiopia designed to appease Italy. When the plan leaked, indignation undermined the diplomats and destroyed confidence in the League's impartiality. Rather than securing both peace and Italian friendship, the episode helped alienate Italy and weakened British and French efforts to restrain Hitler.

## IV The New Barbarism: War Against Civilians

*Colonial conquest became a testing ground for extreme violence.*

### CHEMICAL WEAPONS AND AERIAL BOMBARDMENT

The invading Italian forces used **chemical weapons, including mustard gas**, and carried out devastating **aerial bombardment**. The discussion also mentions "nerve gas." The attacks reached **civilian populations** rather than distinguishing reliably between combatants and noncombatants.

### RACIAL IDEOLOGY AND TOTAL WAR

Fascist justifications drew upon assertions of **African racial inferiority**, converting colonial power into an ideological license for terror and "extermination." This brutality foreshadowed the destruction of civilian life during the European and global wars of the 1940s.

> *"It is not only upon warriors that the Italian Government has made war. It has above all attacked populations far removed from hostilities... It is collective security: it is the very existence of the League of Nations... it is international morality that is at stake."*
> *— Haile Selassie, Geneva, 1936*

MORAL AND LEGAL CHALLENGE

**A member's appeal went unanswered**

**Haile Selassie** insisted that the aggression was not merely a dispute over Ethiopia but a test of the **League Covenant and international morality**.

ANALYTICAL LINK

**Colonial war and European war**

Explain how **chemical weapons, bombing of civilians and racialized domination** in Ethiopia anticipate techniques and justifications used in later total warfare.

By **1936**, Ethiopia had been conquered, **collective security** was discredited and Mussolini’s earlier partnership with **Britain and France** had given way to closer cooperation with **Nazi Germany**. Hitler’s support for Italy, alongside Mussolini’s growing acceptance of German plans concerning Austria, encouraged the axis alignment. Ethiopia became a hinge between older colonial conquest and the harsher state violence of the later decade.

# § Revision: Power Realigned

*The conquest strengthened Fascism while dissolving confidence in the interwar order.*

**Revision essentials:** remember **Adowa (1896)** as Ethiopia's earlier independence victory; **League membership (1923)** as its legal hope; **Stresa, partial sanctions and Hoare–Laval (1935)** as the collapse of diplomatic consistency; and **chemical and aerial attacks** as the war's devastating innovation. The terms **Wal Wal Incident** (1934 border clash), **Dark Valley**, **sanctions** and **Anschluss** place the war in its broader European context.

TERMS ANCHORING THE ETHIOPIAN CRISIS

| Term | Meaning or significance |
|---|---|
| **Dark Valley** | The troubled 1930s: depression, drift and the bitter consequences of the First World War. |
| **Adowa (1896)** | Italian defeat central to Mussolini's rhetoric of national humiliation. |
| **Wal Wal Incident** | 1934 frontier confrontation used as a pretext for invasion. |
| **League sanctions** | Incomplete restrictions that failed to prevent conquest and fueled Fascist national unity. |
| **Anschluss** | German annexation of Austria, made more feasible as Italy moved closer to Berlin. |

REVISION THESIS

**An alliance-destroying colonial war**

Ethiopia demonstrated that the **League could not defend a member**, strengthened Mussolini at home and altered the diplomatic balance toward **Hitler**.

KEY EVENTS

**Four milestones**

- **1896** Adowa defeats Italy
- **1923** Ethiopia enters League
- **1935** Invasion and failed sanctions
- **1936** Conquest; international appeal

CHAPTER 18

# The Challenge in Europe, 1935–1941

*Study notes: The Architects of Ruin — The Collapse of the European Order, 1935–1941*

CENTRAL THESIS

The European order established in **1919–20** collapsed under a dynamic, ideologically driven challenge led by **Nazi Germany**. Revisionist powers exploited the structural fragility, demographic anxieties and diplomatic disunity of the states charged with defending Versailles. The outcome was not treaty adjustment but the **destruction of the European status quo**.

TIMELINE

**1919**

**1935**

**1936**

**1938**

**1939**

**1940**

**1941**

Between **1935 and 1941**, Europe's international system underwent a transformation tantamount to the "utter destruction" of the old continental balance. The principal division lay between the **challengers**—powers seeking to revise the settlement through ideology and force—and the **challenged**—states whose security rested on the post-1918 order but whose capacity and will to defend it increasingly diverged.

## I The Anatomy of the Challenge

*Revisionism ranged from unlimited German ambition to localized frontier claims.*

The **Versailles settlement** depended on the victory of the Allied powers in 1918. By the mid-1930s, the states dissatisfied with that order posed different degrees of challenge. **Britain and France** were its principal guardians; **Poland, Czechoslovakia and Yugoslavia** owed much of their international position—and in this interpretation even their very existence—to its territorial settlements. For such states, border revision was often an **existential threat**, not a minor concession.

A HIERARCHY OF EUROPEAN CHALLENGES

| Power | Nature of challenge | Central aims |
|---|---|---|
| **Germany** | Foremost aggressor | Overturn Versailles; pursue *Lebensraum*; dominate Europe and potentially the wider world. |
| **Italy** | Secondary aggressor | Break the "Mediterranean prison"; seek a new Roman imperial order. |
| **Soviet Union** | Shifting position | Initially concerned with stability, then revision of frontiers in 1939. |
| **Eastern European states** | Localized revisionism | Hungary contested Trianon; Poland and Lithuania disputed frontiers. |

POWER MATRIX

**Challengers and challenged**

**Revisionists**
Germany, Italy, and shifting Soviet policy

**Guardians**
Britain, France and the successor states

EXAM FRAMING

**Not every revision was equivalent**

Separate **limited border grievances** from programmes for **conquest and domination**; the challenge varied radically by state.

# II Germany: Treaty Revision and Radical Ideology

*A widely shared anti-Versailles grievance intersected with Hitler's far broader programme.*

## THE OVERTHROW OF VERSAILLES

Many Germans rejected the 1918 defeat through the **"stab-in-the-back"** narrative. Opposition centered on **territorial losses to Poland**, the treaty's **100,000-man army ceiling** and prohibition of a military air force, and the **war-guilt and reparations provisions**. These grievances reached beyond committed Nazis: they resonated within German public and elite opinion.

## BEYOND TREATY REVISION: HITLER'S WORLD PICTURE

Hitler's goals extended far beyond revising an unpopular peace. The account emphasizes **antisemitism**, race as the supposed motor of history, perpetual **Social Darwinist struggle** and ***Lebensraum*** in Eastern Europe at the expense of the Soviet Union. Its **intentionalist interpretation** treats Hitler's power and expansionist aims as real, deliberate and long-standing—not a mere product of diplomatic accidents.

## THE ECONOMIC IMPULSE

German rearmament created compounding strains on supplies of **steel, aluminium and oil**. The **Four-Year Plan (1936)** sought to ready industry and the armed forces for war. In this interpretation, rearmament increased demand for resources; conquest promised those resources and enabled further expansion.

KEY TERM

**Lebensraum**

"**Living space**": Hitler's racial-imperial demand for territorial expansion into the East, above all at the Soviet Union's expense.

THREE GRIEVANCES

**Versailles as Hitler's starting point**

1. Territorial losses and borders
2. Military restrictions
3. War guilt and reparations

WAR ECONOMY

**The resource spiral**

Rearmament strains steel, oil and aluminium

↓

Four-Year Plan seeks readiness

↓

Expansion promises resources for further war

## III The Italian and Soviet Dimensions

*Other revisionist powers reshaped the strategic environment but followed distinct paths.*

### MUSSOLINI AND THE “MEDITERRANEAN PRISON”

**Benito Mussolini** believed Italy’s ambitions were constrained by British and French control of **Gibraltar, Malta, Cyprus and Suez**. He celebrated war as a forge of national destiny and pursued dominance in **the Adriatic, Albania, Yugoslavia and Ethiopia**. Unable to confront Britain and France unaided, he joined Hitler in the **Rome–Berlin Axis (1936)** and later the **Pact of Steel (1939)**.

### STALIN’S REVISIONIST PIVOT

The **Soviet Union** initially approached the 1930s as a relatively status-quo power, preoccupied with internal upheaval and the purges. In **1939**, the **Nazi–Soviet Pact** enabled Stalin to pursue territorial recovery in **Poland, the Baltic region and Romania**. A state that had previously sought stability now helped dismantle the territorial settlement.

## IV The Crisis of the Status Quo

*The powers committed to Versailles were divided by their own political and strategic weaknesses.*

### FRANCE: THE “HOLLOW YEARS”

French security was shaped by the human cost of the First World War. During the **“hollow years” (1936–39)**, the number of young men reaching military age was sharply reduced by the wartime birth deficit. France had relied on a **demilitarized Rhineland** as an open approach to Germany. Its remilitarization undermined that strategy. The account argues that after the **Ruhr occupation of 1923**, France increasingly lacked the political will to enforce Versailles through force.

TWO OTHER POWERS

**Different revisionist pathways**

**Italy**
Mediterranean ambition and Axis alignment

**USSR**
From security concerns to 1939 territorial revision

ALLIANCE SIGNALS

**The shifting axis**

- **1936** Rome–Berlin Axis
- **1939** Pact of Steel
- **1939** Nazi–Soviet Pact

FRENCH VULNERABILITY

**The “hollow years”**

**1936–39**

A sharp wartime birth deficit reduced the number of French men reaching military age.

### BRITAIN: IMPERIAL RESPONSIBILITIES AND REVISIONIST SYMPATHY

Britain saw itself as a **global imperial power** and often treated continental disputes as only one among several theatres of concern. Many Britons viewed **Versailles as excessively severe** and German demands for change as partly legitimate. A strong commitment to the security of Europe emerged slowly, after several components of the postwar arrangement had already collapsed.

## Ⓥ The Chain of Success, 1935–1941

*German boldness and the hesitant response of the defenders progressively destroyed the old order.*

FROM TREATY DEFIANCE TO GENERAL WAR

| Date | Turning point | Consequences |
|---|---|---|
| **March 1935** | Conscription and the Luftwaffe | Open rejection of Versailles disarmament clauses. |
| **March 1936** | Remilitarization of the Rhineland | France loses its forward strategic “open door.” |
| **March 1938** | *Anschluss* | Austria annexed into an enlarged Germany. |
| **September 1938** | Munich Agreement | Sudetenland ceded; Czechoslovakia severely weakened. |
| **March 1939** | Occupation of Prague | Czechoslovak state broken apart. |
| **September 1939** | Invasion of Poland | Destruction of a state, not merely a limited frontier revision. |
| **May–June 1940** | Fall of the West | Germany defeats the Netherlands, Belgium and France. |
| **June 1941** | Operation Barbarossa | Hitler launches war in the East for *Lebensraum*. |

COMMON MISREADING

**Weakness was not only military**

The account emphasizes **demography, political will and rival imperial responsibilities**, not an automatic German advantage in every weapons category.

ESCALATION STRIP

**Five turning points**

- **1935** Open German rearmament
- **1936** Rhineland remilitarized
- **1938** Anschluss and Munich
- **1939** Prague and Poland
- **1941** Barbarossa

EXAM COMPARISON

**Why the response failed**

**Challengers**
Boldness, surprise, coercion

**Defenders**
Protest, negotiation, delayed readiness

By **June 1940**, Germany dominated much of Europe, achieving in weeks what it had failed to achieve in years during the First World War. The explanation does not attribute this solely to superiority in troop or tank numbers. It emphasizes **speed, ruthlessness, operational dynamism and ideological conviction**, which repeatedly left Germany's opponents unable to respond effectively. The **striking asymmetry** was political as well as military: challengers used surprise, audacity and unorthodox diplomacy; defenders relied on diplomatic protest, negotiation and delayed mobilization. Success invited ever bolder demands until the status quo was destroyed.

# § Revision: The Triumph of Dynamism

*The old balance collapsed because its defenders could not match a determined ideological challenge.*

WHY THE STATUS QUO COLLAPSED

| Dimension | The challengers | The defenders |
|---|---|---|
| **Motivation** | Revision, racial ideology, imperial ambition | Avoid war; preserve empire and hard-won security. |
| **Method** | Surprise, force and unorthodox diplomacy | Protest, bargaining, hesitant rearmament. |
| **Outcome** | Domination of western/central Europe by 1940 | Partition, occupation and disarray. |

**Revision essentials:** distinguish **legitimate treaty grievances** from Hitler's far more expansive ideological programme; connect Italian and Soviet revisionism to German success; explain how **French demography and strategy** and **British global commitments** weakened resistance; and trace the escalation from **1935 rearmament** to **Barbarossa in 1941**. The lesson is that a settlement cannot survive if its founders lose the collective will to defend it.

REVISION THESIS

**The order was destroyed, not adjusted**

**Ideological expansion** met divided, reluctant defenders. By 1940–41, the crisis of Versailles had become a general European war.

RECALL THE ARGUMENT

**From grievance to catastrophe**

Versailles contested
↓
Revisionists exploit divisions
↓
The status quo is dismantled by force

CHAPTER 19

# Appeasement

*Study notes: The Strategy of Settlement — Re-evaluating British Appeasement in the 1930s*

CENTRAL THESIS

For British policymakers, **appeasement** meant seeking a negotiated “general settlement,” not simply surrendering to a dictator. This deliberate strategy combined treaty revision, economic recovery, security guarantees and even colonial bargaining. Its premise was **reciprocity**; it ceased to be viable when Hitler repeatedly demonstrated that he would not honor the agreements on which it depended.

TIMELINE

- **1919**
- **1931**
- **1933**
- **1935**
- **1936**
- **1937**
- **1938**
- **1939**

In later memory, **appeasement** is often shorthand for cowardice or futile concessions. In 1930s British diplomacy it could mean **pacification, reduced tension and the active pursuit of peace**. The account argues that policy under **Neville Chamberlain** followed a coherent—though ultimately unsuccessful—search for a comprehensive European **"general settlement"**. Its rationale and limits must be understood in the context of Versailles, imperial commitments and Britain's economic capacity.

## Ⓘ The Intellectual Origins: From Versailles to Settlement

*Economic recovery, security and treaty revision were imagined as mutually dependent.*

Appeasement predated Chamberlain's premiership. Britain's officials increasingly doubted the legitimacy of **Versailles** or the stability of the **Weimar Republic** within the German political world. In **November 1931**, Foreign Office figures **Orme Sargent** and **Frank Ashton-Gwatkin** drafted an influential memorandum: French severity, they argued, magnified the German problem, while European recovery required German economic rehabilitation and credible French security.

> *"World recovery... depends on European recovery; European recovery on German recovery; German recovery on France's consent; France's consent on security... against attack." — Sargent and Ashton-Gwatkin, 1931*

THE PROPOSED "ALL-IN" SETTLEMENT

| Component | Purpose |
|---|---|
| **Reparations reduction** | Rebuild economic confidence and limit political extremism. |
| **Disarmament** | Reduce tension and insecurity. |

KEY TERM

**Appeasement in its contemporary sense**

For these British policymakers, a process of **pacification and negotiated settlement**—not a promise to concede any demand at any price.

SETTLEMENT LOGIC

**The Sargent–Ashton-Gwatkin chain**

Global recovery requires European recovery
↓
German recovery needs French acceptance
↓
French acceptance needs security

HISTORICAL MISREADING

**It did not begin at Munich**

The intellectual foundations of settlement policy lay in **the interwar peace debate and a 1931 Foreign Office memorandum**.

THE PROPOSED “ALL-IN” SETTLEMENT (CONTINUED)

| Component | Purpose |
|---|---|
| **Security guarantees** | Reassure France against renewed German aggression. |
| **Frontier rectification** | Answer German grievances about postwar borders. |

# II Hitler and the Policy of Cautious Involvement

*Britain sought limited negotiated reforms even as German policy became more threatening.*

## THE DISARMAMENT DILEMMA

When **Hitler became Chancellor in 1933**, Foreign Secretary **Sir John Simon** continued pragmatic engagement. The government explored permission for some German rearmament to prevent the **Disarmament Conference** from collapsing. Following Germany’s withdrawal from the **League of Nations**, Simon even entertained legalizing rearmament in exchange for a German return to the international system. He argued that Germany might prefer to be “**made an honest woman**” rather than continue illegitimate practices.

## THE ECONOMIC “FOURTH ARM” OF DEFENCE

As **Chancellor of the Exchequer**, Neville Chamberlain warned that indiscriminate rearmament could undermine British economic survival. He treated economic strength as a **“fourth arm”** beside the Army, Navy and Air Force. British planning gave growing emphasis to the **Royal Air Force**, reflecting the contemporary belief that **“the bomber will always get through.”** By **1935**, the **Defence Requirements Sub-Committee** identified Germany, rather than Japan, as the principal long-term threat.

STRATEGIC TRADE-OFF

**The “fourth arm” of defence**

**Military readiness**
Army, Navy and RAF need funding

**Economic strength**
Rearmament must not bankrupt the national economy

THREAT ASSESSMENT

**1935**

**Germany**

Identified by the Defence Requirements Sub-Committee as the ultimate potential enemy.

## III Colonies and a Diplomatic Modus Vivendi

*Colonial concessions were considered tools for inducing a more stable German relationship.*

Officials including **Anthony Eden**, who succeeded Simon as Foreign Secretary, considered a replacement for the **Locarno framework**. The proposed **1936–37 settlement** included an **air pact** of reciprocal guarantees, possible acceptance of German changes in the **Rhineland**, economic support for German exports, and even **retrocession of former German colonies** held under mandates.

### THE LOST RHINELAND BARGAINING COUNTER

Hitler’s **unilateral remilitarization of the Rhineland in March 1936** eliminated one of Britain’s principal bargaining levers. British officials nevertheless continued exploring colonial transfers as a means of making Germany a trustworthy **“good European”**. Britain still offered concessions in return for German cooperation, but Hitler’s unilateral action had removed a concession it had hoped to trade.

## IV Chamberlain: Personal Diplomacy amid a Triple Threat

*Europe, the Mediterranean and East Asia placed conflicting demands on British strategy.*

### THE SEARCH FOR A GENERAL SETTLEMENT

After becoming **Prime Minister in May 1937**, Chamberlain intervened more directly in foreign relations. He faced a **“triple threat”**: **Germany** in Europe, **Italy** in the Mediterranean and **Japan** in East Asia. To reduce the danger of simultaneous conflict, he sought to **detach Italy from Germany** through personal communication with **Mussolini**, despite Eden’s reservations.

DIPLOMATIC LEVERS

**Four proposed bargains**

1. **Air pact and mutual assurances**
2. **Rhineland revision**
3. **Trade and economic support**
4. **Possible colonial retrocession**

COMMON MISREADING

**Colonial talk was not a settlement**

Considering a transfer of former German colonies was **diplomatic leverage**, not evidence that a comprehensive agreement had already been achieved.

THREE-THEATRE RISK

**Chamberlain’s strategic nightmare**

**Germany**
Continental Europe

**Italy**
Mediterranean security

**Japan**
Far Eastern empire

### THE EDEN DISAGREEMENT AND THE MARCH 1938 APPROACH

The disagreements over **Anglo-Italian and Anglo-American relations** contributed to **Eden's resignation in 1938**. The account stresses that this was not simply an absolute moral rejection of all dealings with Germany. In **March 1938**, Ambassador **Sir Nevile Henderson** offered colonial satisfaction in return for a broader German contribution to peace. Hitler's scornful response demonstrated the shrinking prospect of an "all-in" arrangement.

## Ⓥ Munich: A Prelude to the Larger Settlement

*Chamberlain saw the Sudetenland agreement as the possible start of a broader peace.*

The **Anschluss (March 1938)** was followed by German pressure on **Czechoslovakia**. Britain judged direct military defence of the Czechs logistically "**insuperable**." In **September 1938**, after three journeys to Germany, Chamberlain joined the **Munich Agreement**, transferring the **Sudetenland** to Hitler. Chamberlain attached special significance to the subsequent **Anglo-German Declaration**: in his view, resolving the Czech question could become a "prelude" to a general European settlement.

MUNICH, SEPTEMBER 1938: PARTICIPANTS AND CONSEQUENCES

| Power | Position at the conference | Immediate outcome |
|---|---|---|
| **Britain** | Mediator and leading negotiator | Avoided immediate war; sought broader settlement. |
| **France** | Czechoslovakia's ally | Followed British negotiations; avoided military confrontation. |
| **Germany** | Demands Sudetenland | Gained territory; signed separate declaration with Britain. |
| **Italy** | Presented as mediator | Offered an agenda reflecting German demands. |

EXAM INSIGHT

**Eden and Chamberlain**

Explain the **Anglo-Italian and personal-policy disagreements** rather than reducing Eden's departure to a simple pro- versus anti-appeasement divide.

MUNICH CONTRAST

**Different meanings of success**

**Chamberlain**
Avoid war and open a wider settlement

**Czechoslovakia**
Excluded from negotiations; territory conceded

DECISIVE MOMENTS

**From Anschluss to Munich**

- **Mar 1938** — Anschluss
- **Sep 1938** — Munich and Sudetenland
- **Sep 1938** — Anglo-German Declaration

MUNICH, SEPTEMBER 1938: PARTICIPANTS AND CONSEQUENCES (CONTINUED)

| Power | Position at the conference | Immediate outcome |
|---|---|---|
| **Czechoslovakia** | Excluded from the talks | Surrendered territory without direct participation. |

> *"The settlement of the Czechoslovakian problem... is, in my view, only the prelude to a larger settlement in which all Europe may find peace." — Neville Chamberlain, 1938*

# VI 1939: The Pivot to Resistance

*The seizure of Prague showed that Hitler would not honor negotiated limits.*

When Germany occupied the remaining **Czech provinces, Bohemia and Moravia, in March 1939**, the breach of the Munich understanding fundamentally altered Chamberlain's assessment. He concluded that "**settlement is impossible with the present regime in Germany**" because Hitler could not be relied upon to carry out assurances. Chamberlain still sought a stable Europe, but now believed it required **Hitler's removal or a fundamental change in German conduct**.

## FROM BARGAINING TO DETERRENCE

Britain extended a **guarantee to Poland**, which became a formal alliance in **August 1939**; introduced **peacetime conscription in April**; committed to a larger continental army; and explored an unsuccessful **triple alliance with France and the Soviet Union**. Chamberlain's refusal to negotiate with Hitler after the invasion of Poland remained, in the source's phrase, **"adamantine"** until his death.

POLICY REVERSAL

**1939: trigger and policy responses**

- **Mar** — Occupation of Prague
- **Apr** — Peacetime conscription
- **Aug** — Formal Polish alliance
- **1939** — Failed Soviet alliance talks

CAUSAL INTERPRETATION

**Why reciprocity collapsed**

The **occupation of Prague** showed that accepting prior agreements did not restrain Hitler. That credibility crisis—not simply regret about Munich—explains the change in policy.

The British National Government sought substantial modifications of Versailles to bring Germany into a stable framework of treaty-based cooperation. **Appeasement**, in this interpretation, was not an improvised refusal to defend Britain but a strategy of **reciprocity** constrained by economic vulnerability and the threat of conflict in three theatres. Hitler’s repeated unilateral actions, culminating in the **occupation of Prague in March 1939**, destroyed the premise that agreements would be observed.

# § Revision: A Reciprocal Strategy That Failed

*Understanding the logic of appeasement does not erase its consequences.*

**Revision essentials:** begin with the **1931 Sargent–Ashton-Gwatkin memorandum**, then trace **Simon's cautious involvement**, Chamberlain's **economic "fourth arm"** and **colonial lever**, the ambitions of **Munich (1938)**, and the **1939 pivot to deterrence**. Distinguish contemporary appeasement as "pacification" from its later negative reputation; evaluate a **proactive but flawed** search for peace without implying its success.

> *"It was not the squalid maneuvering of the craven desperate to avoid war at all costs." — Andrew Crozier*

REVISION THESIS

**A strategic policy with a broken premise**

**Appeasement** aimed to revise and stabilize European relations. Once **reciprocity failed**, Britain moved toward resistance and military preparation.

RECALL THE ARGUMENT

**Settlement → Munich → resistance**

Reciprocal treaty revision proposed

↓

Munich seen as a first settlement

↓

Prague disproves Hitler's reliability

↓

Britain turns to deterrence

CHAPTER 20

# Stalin and the West

*Study notes: Ideology, Realism, and the Path to Total War*

CENTRAL THESIS

Soviet diplomacy under **Stalin** married the pursuit of **security, time and Western technology** to the conviction that capitalism and communism were fundamentally opposed. Its tactical turns—from trade to collective security, the Nazi–Soviet Pact and the 1941 British alliance—did not remove this underlying contradiction.

TIMELINE

- **1917**
- **1922**
- **1927**
- **1933**
- **1934**
- **1935**
- **1938**
- **1939**
- **1941**

Under **Joseph Stalin**, Soviet relations with the West combined a need for Western **technology, trade and strategic breathing space** with a revolutionary worldview in which capitalism and socialism were ultimately antagonistic. The Soviet leadership remembered Western intervention in the Russian Civil War, feared "capitalist encirclement," and nevertheless used capitalist expertise to construct an industrial and military state. In the 1930s, the rise of Hitler pushed Moscow between **collective security** and bargaining with Germany.

# Ⅰ The Legacy of Hostility, 1917–1927

*Intervention, economic retreat and the fear of a capitalist attack shaped Soviet assumptions.*

## A STATE BORN AMID ENCIRCLEMENT

The Bolsheviks did not forget **British and French assistance to the anti-Bolshevik "White" armies (1918–21)**. Through the **Treaty of Brest-Litovsk (1918)**, they accepted a severe territorial price to leave the First World War and preserve their government. Under Lenin, the **New Economic Policy (NEP)** permitted limited market activity to revive a shattered economy, while immediate international revolution was subordinated to survival.

## THE 1927 WAR SCARE

The **Arcos Crisis** began with a British police raid on Soviet trade offices in London over suspicions of subversion. Soviet leaders treated the resulting tensions as evidence of hostile capitalist encirclement, despite the absence of clear Western invasion plans. The scare became a powerful justification for abandoning the NEP and accelerating forced industrialization.

THREE STRATEGIC SCENARIOS IN SOVIET PLANNING (N. SNITKO, 1930)

| Scenario | Strategic objective | Underlying assumption |
|---|---|---|
| **I. Imperialist aggression** | Defend Soviet territory | A capitalist coalition attacks the USSR. |

KEY TERM

**Capitalist encirclement**

The Soviet belief that hostile capitalist powers surrounded the revolutionary state and might combine against it.

ORIGINS OF SUSPICION

**Three early milestones**

- **1918** — Brest-Litovsk; revolution survives
- **1918–21** — Foreign support for White armies
- **1927** — Arcos raid and war scare

PLANNING SCENARIOS

**Three possible conflicts**

**Defensive response**
A hostile capitalist coalition attacks.

**Exploit division**
Capitalist states fight each other; USSR stays out.

**Revolutionary offensive**
A stronger USSR supports revolutions abroad by force.

THREE STRATEGIC SCENARIOS IN SOVIET PLANNING (N. SNITKO, 1930) (CONTINUED)

| Scenario | Strategic objective | Underlying assumption |
|---|---|---|
| **II. Inter-imperialist war** | Stay aloof or exploit the division | Capitalist powers fight each other while the USSR gains time. |
| **III. Revolutionary offensive** | Aid revolutions abroad | A stronger USSR uses force to support socialist upheaval. |

# II Revolution from Above: Trade and Subversion

*Stalin sought capitalist technology to build a state that expected conflict with capitalism.*

## INDUSTRIALIZATION AS NATIONAL DEFENCE

Stalin's **First Five-Year Plan** and **forced collectivization** were presented as responses to an external capitalist danger. Rapid industrial growth promised a military-industrial base able to defend Soviet power and, in revolutionary theory, to support future struggles abroad. Stalin thus justified coercion at home as preparation for a possible external war.

## THE METRO-VICKERS AND RAPALLO PARADOXES

The **Comintern** advocated revolution against capitalist governments, but Soviet factories depended on Western engineers and equipment. In the **Metro-Vickers affair (1933)**, six British engineers were tried on espionage and sabotage allegations, yet Soviet contracts with the firm continued. Soviet cooperation with **Weimar Germany under Rapallo (1922)** included secret military and economic ties; the USSR later sought naval design help from **Fascist Italy**, associated in the account with the destroyer *Tashkent*.

CAUSAL ARGUMENT

**Industrialization and external danger**

Perceived capitalist encirclement

↓

Forced industrialization and collectivization

↓

Industrial power for military survival

COMMON MISREADING

**Ideology did not prevent trade**

The Comintern promoted revolution while Moscow continued buying **capitalist expertise**. Soviet rhetoric and purchasing policy were not identical.

# III Nazi Germany and Collective Security, 1933–1938

*A concrete German threat led Moscow to seek diplomatic partners against fascism.*

### THE POPULAR FRONT TURN

**Hitler's accession in 1933** transformed the threat from an abstract capitalist danger into the prospect of German attack. The Soviet Union entered the **League of Nations in 1934**. Foreign communist parties were instructed to temper hostility toward moderate socialists and build **Popular Front** anti-fascist coalitions.

### THE WEAK FOUNDATIONS OF MUTUAL ASSISTANCE

In **1935**, Moscow signed mutual-assistance agreements with **France and Czechoslovakia**. They had little operational substance: French anti-communism obstructed trust and detailed military arrangements were absent. Historians disagree about Soviet aims. The **"realist" interpretation** treats collective security as an effort to delay war; the competing **"German" interpretation** stresses Moscow's willingness to bargain with Germany to divide the capitalist powers. The interpretations describe a dispute, not settled proof of a single motive.

# IV Munich: The Breaking Point in 1938

*Exclusion from negotiations reinforced suspicion that the West would deflect Hitler eastward.*

The **Munich Conference (1938)** ceded the Sudetenland to Germany without Soviet participation. Stalin could suspect that Britain and France were encouraging Hitler to turn toward the USSR. Yet direct Soviet intervention faced severe practical limits: forces would need passage through **Poland or Romania**, neither of which trusted Soviet intentions. The **Great Purges of 1936–38** had damaged the Red Army's leadership and further weakened foreign confidence in Soviet military effectiveness.

DIPLOMATIC PIVOT

**1933–35: toward cooperation**

- **1933** Hitler becomes Chancellor
- **1934** USSR joins League of Nations
- **1935** Pacts with France and Czechoslovakia

HISTORIOGRAPHY

**How sincere was collective security?**

**Realist reading**
Pragmatic attempt to delay war.

**German-school reading**
Preference for bargains that divide capitalist rivals.

WHY MUNICH MATTERED

**Two barriers to Soviet help**

**Geography**
Poland and Romania resisted Soviet troop passage.

**Military capability**
The purges weakened the Red Army and confidence in it.

> *“The Soviet Union could, with good reason, suspect that Hitler’s attentions were being directed eastwards and toward its borders.”*

# Ⓥ The Nazi–Soviet Pact and Territorial Expansion

*A deal with Germany promised time, a buffer and a European war among rival capitalist states.*

## LITVINOV, MOLOTOV AND THE PACT

In **May 1939**, Stalin replaced **Maxim Litvinov**, associated with collective security, with **Vyacheslav Molotov**. Anglo-French negotiations with Moscow advanced slowly while Berlin moved quickly. The **Molotov–Ribbentrop Pact (August 1939)** enabled the partition of Poland and assigned Soviet spheres of influence in Eastern Europe. Stalin hoped to **gain time for rearmament** and, according to the account, to encourage a war in which Germany and the Western powers would exhaust one another.

## THE BUFFER-ZONE ARGUMENT

Moscow characterized occupation of the **Baltic states** and the **Winter War against Finland** as measures to create strategic depth. Soviet leaders feared that Finland might be used as a base for a future German assault on **Leningrad**. Moscow presented expansion as defence; that justification does not make the occupations cease to be territorial expansion.

STRATEGIC LOGIC

**The pact as a calculation**

Western talks stall; Molotov replaces Litvinov

↓

August 1939: deal with Berlin

↓

Time for rearmament and room for expansion

# VI The Icebreaker Controversy and June 1941

*Plans for a future offensive must be distinguished from readiness to attack in 1941.*

## TWO COMPETING HISTORICAL READINGS

Defector **Viktor Suvorov's "Icebreaker" thesis** argues that Stalin prepared a July 1941 strike and that **Operation Barbarossa** was therefore pre-emptive. Historians such as **David Glantz** challenge this: the Red Army was poorly organized and logistically unready for such an offensive. The source's qualified interpretation is that Soviet planning imagined **eventual offensive warfare**, but Stalin's immediate objective in June 1941 was to avoid provoking Hitler and buy more time—even while receiving warnings of invasion.

## A NEW ALLIANCE OF NECESSITY

Germany invaded the Soviet Union on **22 June 1941**. Moscow then entered an **Anglo-Soviet alliance** not because ideological differences had disappeared, but because Britain and the USSR now faced the same enemy. The Soviet state entered this struggle with a large, rapidly built industrial base but an armed force not yet prepared for the assault.

Stalin's western policy was **dual-track**: trade and technical cooperation could serve industrialization even while the leadership described capitalist conflict as ultimately unavoidable. The USSR shifted from **economic stabilization** to **rapid rearmament**, from **collective security** to the **1939 pact**, then to an uneasy alliance with Britain after the German invasion. These were tactical responses to changing dangers within a persistent ideological framework.

DEBATE, NOT CONSENSUS

**The Icebreaker thesis**

**Suvorov**
Stalin was about to attack in July 1941.

**Glantz and critics**
Soviet forces were too unready for that claim.

DATE TO REMEMBER

**Barbarossa**

**22 JUN 1941**

German attack turns Soviet–British hostility into a wartime partnership.

# § Revision: Ideology, Realism and Survival

*Soviet diplomacy changed tactics without abandoning its underlying world picture.*

SOVIET STRATEGIC EVOLUTION, 1921–1941

| Era | Primary objective | Principal development |
|---|---|---|
| **1921–27** | Stability and trade | NEP; 1927 Arcos crisis and war scare. |
| **1928–33** | Forced industrialization | Five-Year Plans; Western technical imports. |
| **1934–38** | Collective security | League entry; anti-fascist pacts and Popular Front. |
| **1939–40** | Gain time and strategic depth | Nazi–Soviet Pact; Winter War and Baltic expansion. |
| **1941** | Survival | Barbarossa; alliance with Britain. |

**Revision distinction:** The “Icebreaker” claim of an imminent Stalinist invasion is **contested**. The account distinguishes the Soviet expectation of an eventual offensive from a demonstrated capacity or decision to attack Germany in summer 1941.

REVISION SYNTHESIS

**Four shifts in Soviet policy**

1. **NEP and cautious trade**
2. **Industrialization under threat**
3. **Anti-fascist collective security**
4. **1939 pact, then 1941 alliance**

CHAPTER 21

# The United States and the End of Isolation

*Study notes: The United States and the End of Isolation, 1939–1941*

CENTRAL THESIS

The United States entered the Second World War through an **incremental, strategically calculated retreat from neutrality**. Roosevelt connected British survival and resistance to Japan with American security, using changes in law, aid programmes, naval deployments and executive bargains before the attacks of December 1941 made formal participation unavoidable.

TIMELINE

**1938**

**1939**

**1940**

**1941**

Between **1939 and 1941**, the United States moved from legislated neutrality toward material support for Britain, naval confrontation with Germany and ultimately world war. **Franklin D. Roosevelt** regarded an Axis victory as a threat not only to Europe but to American military security, prosperity and political values. The account stresses that the shift was **deliberate and incremental**—and controversial because executive commitments frequently ran ahead of public assurances.

## Ⅰ Roosevelt's Interventionist Rationale

*Military, economic and ideological fears connected the European war to American security.*

ROOSEVELT'S THREE ARGUMENTS AGAINST AXIS DOMINANCE

| Threat | Rationale |
|---|---|
| **Military** | Axis control of Europe and Africa might create "jumping-off places" for attacks on the Western Hemisphere; Roosevelt contrasted Africa–Brazil and Washington–Denver distances. |
| **Economic** | Nazi slave labor could undersell US goods and press American wages and labor standards downward. |
| **Ideological** | Roosevelt portrayed Nazism as hostile to law, liberty, morality and religion; its dominance would threaten democratic life. |

These claims transformed aid to Britain from an act of altruism into an argument for **American self-preservation**. Nevertheless, a vocal isolationist movement continued to insist that oceans, the US Navy and neutrality legislation were sufficient to keep the country out of war.

THREE-FOLD THREAT

**Why Roosevelt feared Axis victory**

**Military** Western Hemisphere security

**Economic** Trade and labor standards

**Ideological** Democracy and liberty

EXAM ANGLE

**Aid could be self-defence**

Explain why Roosevelt framed support for Britain as a matter of **US security** rather than purely European sympathy.

## II The Breakdown of Neutrality, 1938–1940

*Washington replaced an arms embargo with carefully limited sales to belligerents.*

### FROM THE NEUTRALITY ACTS TO CASH-AND-CARRY

In the **1930s**, Roosevelt accepted laws restricting US loans and arms sales to combatants. Following **Kristallnacht (November 1938)**, he recalled the US ambassador from Berlin. Hitler's **invasion of Poland (September 1939)** prompted a push to repeal the arms embargo. In **November 1939**, **cash-and-carry** allowed belligerents to buy US munitions if they paid immediately and transported them on their own ships—conditions better suited to sea-power Britain.

### FRANCE'S DEFEAT CHANGED THE CALCULATION

Roosevelt had hoped Britain's navy could blockade or "**quarantine**" Germany without a large trans-Channel war. The rapid **fall of France in June 1940** destroyed that assumption and intensified the sense of US vulnerability. Congress approved military appropriations totaling around **$3.2 billion** by mid-1940, exceeding Roosevelt's initial requests in the historical account.

## III A Peacetime Draft and Destroyers for Britain

*Emergency preparation brought conscription and far-reaching executive commitments.*

### THE BURKE–WADSWORTH ACT (1940)

The first American peacetime draft aimed to expand the Army toward **500,000**. Supporters argued volunteers could not meet the emergency, especially if Axis powers threatened European possessions in the Americas. Opponents warned of **militarism and lost civil liberties**, asserting that the country was safe behind its large navy.

NEUTRALITY TIMELINE

**The legislative turn**

- **1938** — Kristallnacht prompts diplomatic protest
- **Sep 1939** — Invasion of Poland
- **Nov 1939** — Cash-and-carry enacted
- **Jun 1940** — France falls

KEY TERM

**Cash-and-carry**

Belligerents could buy US arms only by **paying cash** and **shipping them on their own vessels**.

DESTROYERS-FOR-BASES

**A bargain under pressure**

**50 / 99**

Fifty older destroyers transferred for British base leases lasting 99 years.

### DESTROYERS-FOR-BASES (SEPTEMBER 1940)

On **2 September 1940**, the United States transferred **50 older destroyers** to Britain for **99-year leases** on naval and air facilities in the Western Hemisphere, including the Bahamas, Jamaica and Trinidad. Historians **Bailey and Ryan** emphasize the ships' strategic value for Atlantic survival; **Robert Shogan** stresses the dangerous precedent set by a largely secret executive bargain.

## IV Lend-Lease: The Crucial Decision

*American aid shifted from immediate payment to a direct material stake in British survival.*

### A FINANCIAL EMERGENCY

By late **1940**, Britain's dollar reserves were dwindling. **Winston Churchill** warned that Britain could not continue without American assistance. Under **Lend-Lease**, the president could "lease or lend" defence articles to any country whose security was deemed vital to the United States, breaking the cash requirement that had limited earlier aid.

THREE READINGS OF LEND-LEASE

| Perspective | Argument |
|---|---|
| **Roosevelt administration** | Aid created a material American interest in Germany's defeat and a closer Anglo-American partnership. |
| **America First Committee** | Condemned it as a virtual act of war and a danger to national solvency. |
| **David Reynolds** | Argues immediate 1941 munitions amounted to only about 1% of British supply in the historical account; the longer impact included US pressure against imperial trade preferences. |

HISTORIOGRAPHICAL CONTRAST

**Destroyers: rescue or risky precedent?**

**Bailey & Ryan**
Strategic margin in the Atlantic.

**Robert Shogan**
Secret diplomacy expanded executive power.

LEND-LEASE LOGIC

**From exhausted reserves to aid**

British dollar reserves run low
↓
Cash-and-carry becomes unsustainable
↓
US lends or leases defence material

EXAM DISTINCTION

**The immediate and long-term effects**

**1941 munitions**
Limited immediate share in the historical account.

**Longer horizon**
Greater American influence over trade and Britain's empire.

# V The Atlantic: An Undeclared Naval War

*Roosevelt extended US protection to the sea routes connecting America and Britain.*

### FROM PATROL TO CONFRONTATION

US forces occupied or secured positions in **Greenland and Iceland**, essential for Atlantic routes and refuelling. Under a broad **Western Hemisphere neutrality patrol**, American ships shared information on German submarines with British warships. The patrol boundary reached the **26th meridian**.

### THE GREER INCIDENT AND SHOOT-ON-SIGHT

After the destroyer **Greer** exchanged fire with a German U-boat in **September 1941**, Roosevelt described submarines as the **“rattlesnakes of the Atlantic”** and announced stronger protections for merchant shipping in vital waters. The **shoot-on-sight** policy moved US naval protection toward armed support for Britain, even though the United States had not formally entered the war.

# VI The Pacific Deadlock and Entry into War

*Economic sanctions narrowed Japan’s choices until the diplomatic process failed.*

### THE SANCTIONS ESCALATOR

In **July 1940**, Washington restricted exports of high-octane aviation fuel and scrap iron to Japan. After Japan moved into **southern Indochina in July 1941**, Roosevelt froze Japanese assets; this effectively halted trade and threatened a navy dependent on imported oil. The account gives Japan roughly **18 months of naval oil reserves**.

ATLANTIC ESCALATION

**Four steps short of war**

1. **Greenland and Iceland positions**
2. **Neutrality patrol and intelligence**
3. **Greer clashes with U-boat**
4. **Shoot-on-sight protection**

OIL CLOCK

**Japan’s strategic dilemma**

**18 MONTHS**

Approximate Japanese naval oil supply in the account after the 1941 sanctions.

PACIFIC DECISION CHAIN

**How diplomacy collapsed**

**US asset freeze and trade embargo**

↓

**Plan A / Plan B versus Hull’s demands**

↓

**Pearl Harbor, 7 December 1941**

## FROM PLAN A AND B TO PEARL HARBOR

Japanese proposals **Plan A** and **Plan B** sought a negotiated restoration of trade and an end to American support for China. Secretary of State **Cordell Hull's ten-point proposal** demanded Japanese withdrawal from China and Indochina, which the Japanese military regarded as unacceptable. An unrealized **modus vivendi** offered the idea of a short-term accommodation with Japan. Japan's **Tripartite Pact (1940)** with Germany and Italy meanwhile encouraged Roosevelt to view Europe and the Pacific as one global confrontation.

## WAR ARRIVES

Japan attacked **Pearl Harbor on 7 December 1941**. **Four days later**, Hitler declared war on the United States. Roosevelt could now pursue the defeat of Germany—his stated overriding strategic priority—within a formally global war.

Roosevelt presented assistance to Britain as the best way to **avoid fighting later** and defend American security. Yet legislation, naval deployments and executive agreements drew the US closer to belligerency. The historical assessment remains contested: advocates praise Roosevelt's reading of the Nazi danger, while critics stress the **secrecy, evasions and expansion of presidential authority** involved in his gradual approach.

COMMON MISREADING

**Two theatres, one strategic war**

The **Tripartite Pact** did not deter Roosevelt; it encouraged him to treat the European and Pacific crises as parts of one struggle.

# § Revision: The End of American Isolation

*The road to war involved calculated aid, contested executive power and an escalating Pacific impasse.*

BALANCE SHEET OF AMERICAN INTERVENTION, 1939–1941

| Instrument | What changed |
|---|---|
| **Cash-and-carry** | Arms sold for immediate payment and buyer-provided transport. |
| **Destroyers-for-bases** | US warships exchanged for long-term British base leases. |
| **Lend-Lease** | Presidential provision of defence material to strategically vital states. |
| **Modus vivendi** | Unrealized proposal for a short-term accommodation with Japan. |

**Revision essentials:** distinguish **cash-and-carry** from **Lend-Lease**; explain how the **fall of France** and the **Battle of the Atlantic** drove Washington toward Britain; connect the **oil embargo** and failed negotiations to the **Pearl Harbor** decision; and assess the debate over Roosevelt's democratic mandate and executive powers.

REVISION CHRONOLOGY

**The path from neutrality**

- **1939** — Cash-and-carry
- **1940** — Draft; destroyers-for-bases
- **1941** — Lend-Lease; Atlantic clashes
- **Dec 1941** — Pearl Harbor; German war declaration

> *"I have said this before, but I shall say it again and again: Your boys are not going to be sent into any foreign wars."*
> *— Franklin D. Roosevelt, 1940*

CHAPTER 22

# The Grand Alliance, 1941–1945

*Study notes: Personal Diplomacy and the Architecture of Victory (1941–1945)*

CENTRAL THESIS

The **Grand Alliance** united Britain, the Soviet Union and the United States not by a common ideology but by the necessity of defeating the Axis. **Germany First**, unconditional surrender and personal diplomacy kept it together. Yet disagreements over strategy, self-determination, Poland and spheres of influence made the wartime victory a prelude to **Cold War tension**.

TIMELINE

- **1941**
- **1942**
- **1943**
- **1944**
- **1945**

The wartime coalition that Churchill called the **Grand Alliance** was an uneasy partnership between **Winston Churchill**, **Franklin D. Roosevelt** and **Josef Stalin**. Some forty-five governments ultimately participated in the Allied cause, but the principal decisions lay with the **Big Three**. Their political systems and postwar expectations diverged even as their common enemy made cooperation indispensable.

# Ⅰ Foundations of a Fragile Unity

*Shared survival required commitments without a comprehensive formal alliance treaty.*

## PRINCIPLES OF WARTIME COOPERATION

In **August 1941**, Roosevelt and Churchill drafted the **Atlantic Charter**, setting out aspirations for self-determination, free trade and a different international order. Churchill called it **“not a law, but a star”**; Britain’s imperial priorities and Soviet security concerns made its ideals contested from the outset. The **Declaration by United Nations (January 1942)** committed the signatories to use their resources against the Axis and **not to conclude a separate peace**.

## THE GERMANY-FIRST COMMITMENT

The **ABC-1 talks (early 1941)** established the priority of defeating Germany before Japan, a policy that became the *sine qua non* of cooperation. It reassured Moscow that the United States and Britain would devote the main weight of their power to the European war. An agreement on military priority did not erase the different visions of the peace that would follow.

KEY DEFINITION

**The Grand Alliance**

An informal but decisive **British–American–Soviet wartime partnership** directed by the Big Three, not a comprehensive peacetime union.

THREE ALLIED AIMS

**Cooperation without unanimity**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **Britain** Empire and balance | **United States** Free trade and security | **USSR** A secure political buffer |

FOUNDING COMMITMENTS

**From principles to mobilization**

- **Early 1941** — ABC-1: Germany First
- **Aug 1941** — Atlantic Charter
- **Jan 1942** — Declaration by United Nations

THREE PARTNERS, THREE SETS OF INTERESTS

| Issue | Britain | United States | Soviet Union |
|---|---|---|---|
| **Primary goal** | Preserve empire and European balance. | Liberal trade and lasting international security. | Security through politically friendly neighbours. |
| **Atlantic Charter** | Cautious about colonial self-determination. | Internationalist and anti-colonial possibilities. | Territorial security took precedence. |
| **Military preference** | Mediterranean and peripheral attrition. | Large cross-Channel invasion. | Immediate western front to relieve Soviet forces. |

# II The Strategic Friction over a Second Front

*Military plans were inseparable from the politics of reassuring Stalin.*

## THE POLITICAL QUESTION

Soviet Foreign Minister **V. M. Molotov** argued that the western **Second Front** was a matter for **“statesmen, not generals.”** For Stalin, a delay in opening a direct front in France threatened Soviet survival and suggested possible Western bad faith. Roosevelt wanted to sustain Stalin’s confidence, while operational planners debated whether the Allies were ready for a cross-Channel landing.

## THE MEDITERRANEAN DIVERSION

Churchill persuaded Roosevelt to undertake **Operation TORCH (North Africa, 1942)** rather than a premature invasion of France. With a **“crocodile”** analogy, he favoured attacking the Mediterranean “soft underbelly” while preparing for an assault on northern Europe. His preference for peripheral **attrition**, coloured by First World War memories, was followed by Allied landings in **Sicily and Italy (1943)**. Stalin accepted these campaigns but insisted that they were no substitute for **50–60 divisions fighting in France**.

EXAM DISTINCTION

### Why the Second Front mattered

**Military**
Divert German forces from the Soviet front.

**Political**
Demonstrate that Britain and the US would not abandon Stalin.

STRATEGIC SEQUENCE

### A slower path to France

Cross-Channel invasion postponed
↓
TORCH in North Africa, 1942
↓
Sicily and Italy, 1943
↓
OVERLORD committed at Teheran

# III Teheran: The Apogee of Cooperation

*In November 1943 the Big Three made their most consequential shared military commitments.*

## OVERLORD AND THE SHAPE OF EUROPE

At the **Teheran Conference (November 1943)**, the leaders committed to **Operation OVERLORD**, the major cross-Channel landing planned for **May 1944**. It closed off Churchill's hopes of making the Mediterranean the principal path to victory. Political bargains were equally significant: Churchill demonstrated a **westward shift of Poland's borders** with matchsticks, envisioning compensation in former German territory for Soviet gains in the east.

## ROOSEVELT'S FOUR POLICEMEN

Roosevelt proposed that the **United States, Britain, the Soviet Union and China** act as **"Four Policemen"** to preserve peace. This imagined a postwar security system in which smaller states would put trust in Great Power leadership. The scheme reveals how the promise of collective internationalism could coexist with explicit recognition of unequal international power.

> *"Whoever occupies a territory imposes on it his own social system." — Axiom attributed to Stalin in the account*

TEHERAN DECISIONS

**Military and political maps**

| | |
|---|---|
| Nov 1943 | Big Three meet in Teheran |
| 1944 plan | OVERLORD across the Channel |
| Poland | Westward frontier adjustment |
| World order | Roosevelt's Four Policemen |

A POWER PARADOX

**The Four Policemen**

**Collective peace**
An international body would deter aggression.

**Great Power control**
Four dominant states would act as sheriffs.

# IV Poland and the Balkan Percentages

*The meaning of liberation exposed incompatible interpretations of sovereignty.*

## THE POLISH LITMUS TEST

As Allied armies advanced into Europe, **Poland** became a measure of whether the alliance could survive peace. For London and Washington, self-determination implied genuine national independence and representative government. Stalin required a **"friendly" government** on the Soviet frontier and interpreted security through political control of neighbouring states. The physical fact of **military occupation** increasingly shaped the settlement more than wartime declarations.

## THE PERCENTAGES AGREEMENT (OCTOBER 1944)

Churchill and Stalin discussed the Balkan spheres shown below to contain rival interventions. Dividing influence this way ignored the popular sovereignty proclaimed in the **Atlantic Charter**. **Poland was not included**, although its proposed border shift was already being discussed.

THE 1944 PERCENTAGES UNDERSTANDING IN THE BALKANS

| Country or area | Proposed distribution of influence |
|---|---|
| **Greece** | 90% British; 10% Soviet |
| **Romania and Bulgaria** | 90% Soviet; 10% British |
| **Yugoslavia and Hungary** | 50% British; 50% Soviet |

COMMON MISREADING

**An agreed liberation?**

The Allies **did not share one meaning** of self-determination. Soviet military security could mean Moscow-friendly regimes, while Western proposals emphasized independent political choice.

PERCENTAGES RECALL

**The sovereignty test**

Recall the three Balkan distributions from the table. Why did dividing influence conflict with the Atlantic Charter, and why did it leave **Poland** unresolved?

# Ⓥ Yalta and the Breakdown of Wartime Trust

*A declaration of political freedom sat uneasily beside Soviet military power.*

## THE DECLARATION ON LIBERATED EUROPE

At **Yalta (February 1945)**, the last meeting of the original Big Three, the leaders endorsed a **Declaration on Liberated Europe**. Its promises of political choice raised expectations that could not easily be reconciled with Soviet control in Eastern Europe. In **Poland**, Stalin supported the **Lublin-based government**, resisting demands for a genuinely inclusive administration.

## LEADERSHIP AND NATIONALISM AFTER VICTORY

The death of **Roosevelt in April 1945** and succession of **Harry Truman** were followed by a more confrontational American style. The wartime *modus vivendi* became increasingly difficult to sustain. Stalin anticipated that liberated countries would remain intensely **nationalistic**, potentially challenging both the European empires and Soviet spheres of influence. The Grand Alliance had not resolved the relationship between Great Power direction and national choice.

**Unconditional surrender**, announced at **Casablanca (1943)**, was intended to prevent a separate peace and make the political remaking of defeated Germany possible. The **European Advisory Commission (EAC)** drew up occupation arrangements that would endure far beyond their supposedly temporary wartime purpose. Anglo-American cooperation rested on shared institutions, intelligence and language but was strained by disputes over **British imperial preference** and Washington's free-trade agenda; the Soviet–Western bond endured only so long as the defeat of Hitler was overriding.

EXAM ANGLE

**The Polish litmus test**

Use **Poland** to explain why the wartime military coalition could not easily become a postwar diplomatic settlement.

YALTA CONTRADICTION

**Promises versus occupation**

Declaration on Liberated Europe
↓
Expectation of political choice
↓
Soviet-backed Lublin government in Poland
↓
Deteriorating Western–Soviet trust

The Grand Alliance was a **marriage of necessity**, not a permanent peace settlement. Its decisive achievements were **Germany First**, commitment to **unconditional surrender** and coordinated operations culminating in **OVERLORD**. Yet the Atlantic Charter's principles collided with **imperial preferences, Soviet security zones and rival concepts of liberation**. Its legacy included Great Power cooperation in the **United Nations Security Council** and the beginnings of the **Cold War**.

# § Revision: Victory and the Seeds of Bipolarity

*The alliance achieved military victory but never became a lasting union.*

**Revision prompts:** explain why the Second Front was a diplomatic as well as a military question; contrast the aims of all three powers; connect **Teheran → the Balkan percentages → Yalta**; and distinguish a wartime coalition from the postwar order its members hoped to build.

REVISION ANCHOR

### Four turning points

1. **Atlantic Charter and Germany First**
2. **TORCH versus the Second Front**
3. **Teheran and postwar plans**
4. **Yalta and Poland**

KEY INSTITUTION

### European Advisory Commission

The **EAC** planned Germany's occupation zones; arrangements described as temporary became long-lived divisions.

REVISION COMPARISON

### Different ties within the Alliance

**Anglo-American**

Shared warfare and intelligence; tension over imperial trade.

**Soviet–Western**

Common enemy; conflict over fronts, ideology and Eastern Europe.

CHAPTER 23

# A Bipolar World

*Study notes: The Architecture of Global Tension (1944–1991)*

CENTRAL THESIS

The Cold War's **bipolarity** joined ideological antagonism and a massive nuclear threat to an often **stable, predictable relationship** among the Great Powers. Neither bloc was fully unified or economically equal. The system moved through repeated cycles of confrontation and cooperation until **economic weakness, political change and Gorbachev's reforms** ended Soviet bipolar power in 1991.

TIMELINE

- **1944**
- **1946**
- **1947**
- **1949**
- **1950**
- **1957**
- **1962**
- **1963**
- **1968**
- **1975**
- **1979**
- **1983**
- **1985**
- **1989**
- **1991**

The Cold War was commonly portrayed as a world split into two camps, the United States and the Soviet Union. This **bipolar** image obscured their unequal economic resources, the internal disagreements of their allies and the alternating patterns of mistrust and accommodation. Despite an arsenal described in the account as approaching **50,000 nuclear weapons**, the rivalry was often remarkably predictable. As **Ronald Reagan told Mikhail Gorbachev in 1985**, the weapons reflected political mistrust as much as they created it.

# Ⅰ Two Blocs, Two Unequal Orders

*Alliance discipline concealed internal diversity and very different sources of power.*

THE CONTRASTING POLITICAL LOGIC OF THE COLD WAR BLOCS

| Characteristic | Western bloc | Eastern bloc |
|---|---|---|
| **Organizing idea** | Liberal democracy, capitalism and containment. | Authoritarian socialism and Marxist-Leninist expectations. |
| **Key alliance** | NATO. | Warsaw Pact. |
| **Internal ties** | Atlanticism; shared capitalist interests. | Military discipline and Soviet-led coercive cohesion. |
| **Internal disagreements** | French “Third Force”; British Atlanticism. | Yugoslav, Albanian and Chinese departures or disagreements. |

## THE WESTERN SEARCH FOR LEADERSHIP AND AUTONOMY

The **United States**, once guarded against foreign entanglements, came to interpret security broadly and sometimes assumed that states must be **“with us or against us.”** Washington initially imagined its European presence as a **stopgap** until Europeans could assume their own defence. Yet **Britain and France** also sought autonomy from American direction. French fears of German recovery and ambitions for a **“Third Force”** show why alliance membership did not erase national interests. The table distinguishes these Western tensions from departures and disagreements in the Eastern camp.

CORE CONCEPT

**Bipolarity**

An international order organized around **two rival Great Power centres**, without requiring equivalent economic strength or uniform obedience within their blocs.

COMMON MISREADING

**Two equal, seamless blocs?**

**Appearances**
Two cohesive rival camps.

**Political reality**
US–Soviet asymmetry and disagreements among allies.

BLOC FRICTIONS

**Neither alliance was monolithic**

**West** French Third Force

**East** Yugoslav dissent

**Both** Security versus autonomy

### THE SOVIET VIEW OF IDEOLOGICAL DESTINY

Moscow regarded Marxist-Leninist socialism as being on the **“right side of history”**, with capitalism expected eventually to fail. The **Brezhnev Doctrine** made Soviet intervention in allied socialist states a means of preserving bloc cohesion, dramatically illustrated in **Czechoslovakia in 1968**. Later Soviet conceptions of continuing socialist development were more cautious than earlier promises of rapid prosperity.

## II The Emergence of Bipolarity, 1944–1950

*The breakdown of wartime cooperation hardened into rival security and economic systems.*

The wartime **percentages discussions (1944)** between Churchill and Stalin anticipated separate spheres: Soviet predominance in Romania and British predominance in Greece. In **1946**, **George Kennan’s Long Telegram** and Churchill’s **Iron Curtain speech** captured the collapse of confidence. The **Truman Doctrine** and **Marshall Plan (1947)** linked American economic recovery measures to strategic **containment**. Stalin saw the Marshall programme as a bid for US control and rejected Soviet participation. The **1949 division of Germany** into the Federal Republic (FRG) and German Democratic Republic (GDR) symbolized the European partition.

## III The Global Confrontation and Nuclear Brinkmanship

*Cold War rivalry spread beyond Europe and made strategic danger worldwide.*

BIPOLARITY EMERGES

**Four dated stages**

- **1944** Spheres of influence
- **1946** Long Telegram; Iron Curtain
- **1947** Truman Doctrine; Marshall Plan
- **1949** FRG and GDR formed

EXAM ANGLE

**Economic recovery as security**

The **Marshall Plan** was both a programme of reconstruction and a step in **containment**; explain why Moscow interpreted it as strategic pressure.

### KOREA AND ALLIANCE EXPANSION

The **Korean War (1950)** moved bipolar rivalry decisively into Asia and encouraged Washington to see a coordinated communist challenge on a global scale. It contributed to the strengthening of **NATO**, including the admission of **Greece and Turkey**, and to West German remilitarization. The superpowers' rival commitments increasingly affected conflicts far from the original European fault line.

### SPUTNIK, BERLIN AND CUBA

The Soviet launch of **Sputnik (1957)** heightened Western anxiety about missiles and space technology. NATO emphasized **extended nuclear deterrence**—the promise of nuclear protection for allies. The **Berlin crises** and above all the **Cuban Missile Crisis (1962)** demonstrated the extreme risk of testing an opponent within its perceived security sphere. Cuba brought the confrontation close to nuclear war and encouraged efforts to regulate it.

## Ⓘⓥ Détente: Negotiating a Regulated Rivalry

*Treaties and European rapprochement softened tension without ending opposing systems.*

### MANAGING NUCLEAR DANGER

After Cuba, Washington and Moscow pursued limited rules of competition. The **Partial Test Ban Treaty (1963)** and **Non-Proliferation Treaty (1968)** were intended to reduce the danger of an uncontrolled nuclear confrontation. Such agreements did not mean ideological reconciliation; they showed the practical benefits of recognizing mutual vulnerability.

GLOBAL EXPANSION

**From Europe to nuclear danger**

Korean War, 1950

↓

Western alliance expansion

↓

Sputnik and missile fears, 1957

↓

Cuban Missile Crisis, 1962

NUCLEAR SCALE

**The danger behind stability**

**~50,000**

The approximate nuclear-weapons figure in the account.

KEY TERM

**Extended nuclear deterrence**

A superpower's nuclear threat is used to **protect allied states** rather than only its own national territory.

### OSTPOLITIK AND HELSINKI

West German Chancellor **Willy Brandt's Ostpolitik** sought **"change through rapprochement"**, normalizing relations with Eastern Europe while accepting the immediate political reality. The **Helsinki Final Act (1975)** marked the high point of European détente. The Soviet bloc accepted its **Basket III human-rights provisions**, assuming that they would carry little practical force. The account argues that these commitments eventually strengthened pressures for liberalization within socialist societies.

## Ⓥ The Final Stress: Afghanistan, Reagan and Gorbachev

*A renewed confrontation encountered the weakening foundations of Soviet power.*

### THE RETURN OF HIGH TENSION, 1979–1983

The **Soviet invasion of Afghanistan (1979)** disrupted détente. **Ronald Reagan** adopted a more confrontational stance, calling the USSR an **"evil empire."** His **Strategic Defense Initiative (SDI)**, or "Star Wars," raised the possibility that US defensive technology might undermine Soviet nuclear deterrence. In **1983**, anxiety intensified following the downing of **KAL 007** and NATO deployment of US missiles in Europe.

### GORBACHEV'S REORIENTATION

When **Mikhail Gorbachev came to power in 1985**, he sought Soviet security through **reduced confrontation**, arms reductions and reform rather than permanent international class conflict. Erosion of ideological commitment weakened the rationale for the **Warsaw Pact**. The account emphasizes growing economic backwardness relative to capitalist economies and the information revolution, alongside internal political disintegration. The USSR eventually **collapsed at the end of 1991**.

DÉTENTE CHRONOLOGY

**Three stages**

- **1963** Partial Test Ban Treaty
- **1968** Non-Proliferation Treaty
- **1975** Helsinki Final Act

EXAM DISTINCTION

**Two mechanisms of détente**

**Arms agreements**
Manage the immediate danger of nuclear escalation.

**Helsinki rights**
Create a basis for longer-term political change.

FINAL STRAINS

**From Afghanistan to reform**

1. Afghanistan, 1979
2. Reagan and SDI
3. 1983 war scare
4. Gorbachev after 1985

FORCES UNDERMINING THE BIPOLAR ORDER

| Pressure | Consequence |
|---|---|
| **Economic decay** | The Soviet system fell behind globalized capitalist economies and information technology. |
| **Ideological retreat** | Abandoning international class struggle removed a central justification for bloc coercion. |
| **Internal disintegration** | Political fragmentation ended the Soviet Union in 1991. |

# VI A Stable Confrontation, an Asymmetric Ending

*The international system changed faster than many observers anticipated.*

The Cold War combined the dangers of **nuclear confrontation** with unexpectedly stable Great Power expectations: each side understood the risk of invading the other's core sphere. The system vanished with startling speed, but **NATO** and the **European Community** survived and gained renewed importance. The end was **asymmetric**: rather than both blocs making equal ideological concessions, Soviet leaders moved towards some Western political and economic assumptions as their own system weakened.

The Cold War illustrates that **mistrust produced armaments**, while those armaments also enforced restraint. Its long duration rested on strategic predictability despite recurrent crises and profound disagreements within both alliances. **Helsinki, economic globalization, Soviet weaknesses and Gorbachev's choices** help explain why the Soviet-led bloc dissolved, leaving a temporary **unipolar transition** and a surviving Atlantic alliance.

ENDING BIPOLARITY

**An interconnected collapse**

Economic and technological lag

↓

Ideological retreat and reforms

↓

Reduced coercion within the bloc

↓

Soviet internal disintegration

INTERPRETIVE CHECK

**What survived, what disappeared?**

**Survived**

NATO and European Community structures.

**Collapsed**

Warsaw Pact rationale and Soviet state power.

# § Revision: The Paradox of Bipolar Stability

*Fear sustained order until the Soviet system could no longer reproduce it.*

**Revision prompts:** explain bipolarity without assuming equal power; trace **1946/47 → Korea → Cuba → détente → Afghanistan → Gorbachev**; distinguish nuclear **deterrence** from cooperation; and contrast the endurance of **NATO** with the collapse of the Warsaw Pact and USSR.

COLD WAR PHASES: QUICK CHRONOLOGY

| Period | Principal development | Historical significance |
|---|---|---|
| **1944–49** | Spheres, containment, Marshall Plan, German partition. | Bipolar order emerges. |
| **1950s–1962** | Korea, missiles, Berlin and Cuba. | Rivalry globalizes; nuclear peril peaks. |
| **1963–75** | Arms-management treaties, Ostpolitik, Helsinki. | Rivalry is regulated through negotiation. |
| **1979–83** | Afghanistan, SDI and war scares. | A renewed period of confrontation. |
| **1985–91** | Gorbachev’s reforms and Soviet dissolution. | The bipolar structure ends. |

REVISION ROADMAP

**Five eras of a long rivalry**

- **1940s** Division and containment
- **1950s–62** Global crises
- **1963–75** Détente
- **1979–83** Renewed confrontation
- **1985–91** Reform and collapse

> *“We don’t mistrust each other because we are armed; we are armed because we mistrust each other.” — Ronald Reagan to Mikhail Gorbachev, 1985, as quoted in the account*

CHAPTER 24

# A Third World?

*Study notes: The Trajectory of a Global Third Force — Origins, Evolution, and Decline*

CENTRAL THESIS

The **“Third World”** began as a diplomatic project of decolonized and newly independent states seeking an **autonomous third force** outside the Cold War blocs. Through **Bandung, non-alignment, the UN and the NIEO**, it acquired symbolic power and collective bargaining weight; yet political diversity, economic vulnerability and the disappearance of bipolarity fragmented the enterprise.

TIMELINE

- **1945**
- **1952**
- **1955**
- **1960**
- **1961**
- **1964**
- **1970**
- **1973**
- **1974**
- **1979**
- **1980**
- **1991**

The phrase **“Third World”** was more than a geographical or developmental label. It expressed the aspiration of post-1945 states to escape a world supposedly divided between a capitalist **First World** and a communist **Second World**. As decolonization accelerated, governments sought influence without being absorbed into either security bloc. Their achievements were substantial in representation and political symbolism, but less durable in economic leverage and collective discipline.

# Ⅰ Origins: The Third Estate and the UN Majority

*A growing Afro-Asian presence transformed a metaphor into diplomatic leverage.*

## ALFRED SAUVY AND THE MEANING OF “THIRD WORLD”

French economist **Alfred Sauvy** coined *tiers monde* in **1952**, drawing an analogy with the **Third Estate** of pre-revolutionary France. Just as commoners challenged the privileged clergy and nobility, newly independent states wished to obtain standing in a global system dominated by a small number of Great Powers. During the **1950s and 1960s**, the term chiefly described a politically active **third force**; in the **1970s**, its economic meaning—inequality, exploitation and underdevelopment—became more pronounced.

AFRO-ASIAN REPRESENTATION AT THE UNITED NATIONS, AS STATED IN THE ACCOUNT

| Year | Total UN members | Afro-Asian members | Share |
|---|---|---|---|
| **1945** | 51 | 14 (three African, eleven Asian) | 27% |
| **1960** | 100 | 52 | 52% |
| **1980** | 150 | 91 | 61% |

REPRESENTATION SHIFT

**Afro-Asian UN membership**

**27% → 61%**

The 1945 and 1980 figures show the rise in Afro-Asian voting presence.

ORIGIN OF THE TERM

**Tiers monde**

**Alfred Sauvy (1952)** likened neglected states to the French Third Estate: numerous, subordinated and demanding representation.

KEY DISTINCTION

**One term, two emphases**

**1950s–60s**
Diplomatic third force outside the blocs

**1970s**
Economic weakness and North–South claims

These figures illustrate a central political development: the **numerical weight of Afro-Asian states in the UN** rose sharply, giving them a potential forum for common positions on colonialism, rights and global economic organization. The numbers did not, however, automatically translate into a single foreign policy or enforceable authority over the wealthier powers.

## II Bandung, 1955: The Symbolic Birth

*Political confidence preceded any tightly organized international movement.*

### TWENTY-NINE GOVERNMENTS, MANY ALLEGIANCES

At **Bandung, Indonesia (1955)**, **29 states** representing more than half of the world's population met to assert an Afro-Asian voice. The participants ranged from **Communist China** to American-aligned states such as **Thailand and the Philippines**, making a detailed common programme elusive. Bandung mattered above all for its **psychological and diplomatic effect**: it challenged Western assumptions that former colonies would remain automatically loyal to the West.

### FROM AFRO-ASIAN TO TRICONTINENTAL

The early meetings did not include **Latin America**, whose relations with the United States had long been framed by the **Monroe Doctrine (1823)**. Over time a **tricontinental** identity joined Asian, African and Latin American anti-imperialist politics; **Fidel Castro** became one of its prominent advocates. The evolving coalition remained internally contradictory, combining capitalist, socialist, pro-Western and non-aligned governments.

BANDUNG, 1955

**The scale of the meeting**

**29**

States at Bandung; their ideologies and alignments were strikingly diverse.

EXAM CONTRAST

**Symbolism versus agreement**

**Shared impact**
Assert an Afro-Asian voice

**Shared programme**
Difficult because participants disagreed

# III Five Architects of Non-Alignment

*Different national interests gave the same project several distinct meanings.*

FIVE INFLUENTIAL LEADERS AND THEIR INTERPRETATIONS OF A THIRD FORCE

| Leader | Country | Distinctive contribution |
|---|---|---|
| **Jawaharlal Nehru** | India | **Neutralism:** active mediation and conflict resolution, not passive neutrality. |
| **Gamal Abdel Nasser** | Egypt | Anti-colonial reparation and the use of superpower competition to advance national interests. |
| **Sukarno** | Indonesia | An alternative power structure: *Nefo* (New Emerging Forces) versus *Nekolim* (neocolonialism, capitalism, imperialism). |
| **Kwame Nkrumah** | Ghana | Pan-Africanism, regional unity and international recognition for the "New Africa." |
| **Josip Broz Tito** | Yugoslavia | Non-alignment beyond an Afro-Asian identity, giving Yugoslavia space outside Moscow's orbit. |

These leaders shared a wish to avoid being **"squeezed" between the superpowers**. The table shows why that shared refusal did not amount to one programme: peace-making, bargaining leverage, emerging-force solidarity, African unity and autonomy from Moscow served different national priorities.

LEADERSHIP CLUSTERS

**Remember the five architects**

**Nehru**Active neutralism
**Nasser**Bargaining leverage
**Tito**Beyond Afro-Asia
**Sukarno**New Emerging Forces
**Nkrumah**Pan-African unity

SUKARNO'S LANGUAGE

**Nefo versus Nekolim**

**Nefo**: New Emerging Forces. **Nekolim**: neocolonialism, capitalism and imperialism—Sukarno's opposing categories.

# IV The Non-Aligned Movement: From Politics to Economics

*Minimal organization preserved independence but limited cohesion.*

## BELGRADE AND THE “MINIMALIST” MOVEMENT

The first formal **Non-Aligned Movement (NAM) summit** was hosted by **Tito in Belgrade in 1961**. Rather than establish a tightly integrated international bureaucracy, the movement sought to protect members’ sovereign freedom of action: **no permanent headquarters, no full-time secretariat and no written constitution** in the structure described in the account. The initial membership principle emphasized avoiding binding alignment with either Cold War military bloc.

SELECTED NAM SUMMITS: THE MOVEMENT'S CHANGING AGENDA

| Summit | Year and place | Emphasis |
|---|---|---|
| **I** | 1961 — Belgrade | Mediation between East and West; anti-colonial cooperation. |
| **II** | 1964 — Cairo | Imperialism, racism and the arrival of new African governments. |
| **III** | 1970 — Lusaka | Economic self-reliance, African socialism and development. |
| **IV** | 1973 — Algiers | Economic bargaining and a “pressure group of the poor” in the oil-shock era. |
| **VI** | 1979 — Havana | Ideological divisions and a crisis of collective identity. |

As decolonization continued, the movement’s agenda moved increasingly from the politics of independence to questions of **development, economic equality and negotiating power**. Yet its flexibility was also a source of weakness: member states could adopt markedly different relationships with Washington, Moscow and their regional neighbours.

MOVEMENT PATH

**From Bandung to Havana**

- **1955** Bandung meeting
- **1961** Belgrade: first NAM summit
- **1973** Algiers: economic agenda
- **1979** Havana: major divisions

ORGANIZATION CHECK

**No NATO-style machinery**

The NAM described here deliberately lacked **permanent central institutions**. Non-alignment did not create unified military command.

# Ⓥ Economic Diplomacy: UNCTAD, G77 and the NIEO

*A voting majority could articulate demands without necessarily compelling implementation.*

## THE UNITED NATIONS AS A THIRD WORLD FORUM

Newly independent governments employed the UN to challenge colonial norms. The **1960 Declaration on Granting Independence to Colonial Countries and Peoples** was a major political statement against colonial rule. The **United Nations Conference on Trade and Development (UNCTAD, 1964)** provided an economic negotiating forum; the **Group of 77 (G77)** sought shared developing-country positions on trade and aid.

## A NEW INTERNATIONAL ECONOMIC ORDER

The **New International Economic Order (NIEO, 1974)** proposed the North–South reforms listed below. Its central problem was enforcement: a UN General Assembly majority could demand redistribution but could not compel wealthier states to accept it, while the **IMF and World Bank** remained central to global finance. **Dependency theory** offered a neo-Marxist explanation of that inequality: the wealthy Northern core sustained underdevelopment in the Southern periphery.

THE NIEO PROGRAMME AND THE LIMITS OF LEVERAGE

| Policy field | Proposed change | Obstacle described in the account |
|---|---|---|
| **Trade** | Lower barriers on Southern exports; stabilize commodity prices. | Northern governments did not accept binding obligations. |
| **Industry** | Transfer manufacturing and technology. | Structural economic inequalities endured. |
| **Development aid** | Target of 0.7% of developed-country GNP. | Voluntary commitments could not be compelled. |
| **Food security** | International action against famine. | Programme depended on cooperation and resources. |

INSTITUTIONAL ROUTE

**Turning numbers into demands**

Decolonization expands UN membership

↓

UNCTAD and G77 coordinate economic demands

↓

NIEO seeks new North–South rules

↓

Wealthier powers resist binding reform

DEVELOPMENT AID

**A prominent NIEO benchmark**

**0.7%**

Target share of developed-country GNP devoted to development aid in the account.

# VI Fragmentation and the Post-Cold War World

*Political and economic differences eventually outweighed a shared third-force identity.*

## THE HAVANA DIVIDE AND THE LEADERSHIP VACUUM

By the **1979 Havana summit**, differences between pro-Soviet radicals, including **Cuba and Vietnam**, and more Western-oriented members such as the **Philippines and Chile** were difficult to reconcile. Renewed superpower tension and the **Soviet invasion of Afghanistan (1979)** sharpened disagreements. The original leaders had also given way to successors dealing with pressing domestic economic and political challenges.

## WHEN BIPOLARITY DISAPPEARED

The **end of the Cold War** deprived a third diplomatic bloc of much of the strategic contrast against which it had defined itself. Economic globalization also brought very different development trajectories: some countries industrialized quickly while others remained deeply impoverished. More focused regional bodies, including **ASEAN** and the **African Union**, appeared more useful for certain practical tasks. The term **“Fourth World”** was used in the account for the most impoverished countries, particularly in sub-Saharan Africa.

The Third World achieved a **new diplomatic identity**, gained unprecedented representation in the United Nations and supplied enduring language for **anti-colonialism and North–South justice**. But no common ideology, military organization or economic programme could sustain its unity across different regimes and levels of development. Once the Cold War ended, the “Third World” became **too broad a category to remain analytically precise**.

EXAM INSIGHT

**Votes do not equal enforcement**

| UN General Assembly | Global finance |
|---|---|
| Numerical and symbolic political strength | IMF, World Bank and richer-state leverage |

THREE CAUSES OF DECLINE

**Why third-force unity broke**

1. **Havana exposes ideological division**
2. **Founding leadership recedes**
3. **Cold War bipolarity disappears**

HISTORICAL DISTINCTION

**One “Third World”?**

| Shared label | Diverse reality |
|---|---|
| An anti-colonial diplomatic identity | Different regimes and development paths |

# § Revision: The Power and Limits of a Third Force

*Diplomatic voice did not become permanent economic unity.*

**Revision prompts:** trace **Bandung → Belgrade → UNCTAD/G77 → NIEO → Havana**; distinguish **neutrality** from Nehru's active **neutralism**; explain the gap between a numerical UN majority and economic leverage; and show why the disappearance of bipolarity weakened the identity of a "third force."

REVISION THREAD

**Three transformations**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **1950s** Political identity | **1970s** Economic claims | **After 1991** Fragmentation |

CHAPTER 25

# Making the New Europe: European Integration since 1950

*Study notes: The Political Economy and Institutions of European Integration*

CENTRAL THESIS

Postwar European integration did not simply replace national interest with idealistic unity. It enabled governments to **exercise parts of their sovereignty collectively** to restore security, prosperity and democratic legitimacy. From the **Schuman Plan and Treaties of Rome** to enlargement and monetary integration, the European project persisted because states repeatedly found new national purposes for shared institutions.

TIMELINE

- **1947**
- **1949**
- **1950**
- **1951**
- **1954**
- **1955**
- **1957**
- **1966**
- **1973**
- **1975**
- **1981**
- **1986**
- **1992**
- **1995**
- **2002**
- **2004**

After the Second World War, Europe faced **physical devastation, economic stagnation, the Cold War** and the rapid contraction of European empires. Britain withdrew from India and Palestine, the Dutch lost their Southeast Asian empire, and France fought colonial wars in Indochina and North Africa. The difficult **winter of 1946–47** highlighted economic distress, while strong communist parties in France and Italy deepened Western anxieties. The architects of European integration sought a way for diminished states to **recover influence by acting together** rather than pursuing ineffective national solutions alone.

# I The Search for a Foundation, 1947–1950

*Early cooperation created forums but could not compel coordinated decisions.*

## THE MARSHALL PLAN, CEEC AND OEEC

The **Marshall Plan (1947)**, or European Recovery Program, was intended to revive European economies and weaken the appeal of communism. The United States also hoped American aid would encourage a more unified Europe. Governments first assembled in the **Conference on European Economic Cooperation (CEEC)**; the **Organization for European Economic Cooperation (OEEC)** followed as a permanent coordinating body. Yet the OEEC proved **ineffective as an engine of integration**: states, especially a reluctant **United Kingdom**, could obstruct its initiatives and avoid binding commitments.

## THE COUNCIL OF EUROPE, 1949

A French-sponsored **Council of Europe** offered another forum for European consultation, but it too lacked the binding authority needed to direct national policies. For subsequent integration pioneers, the obstacle was not an absence of discussion but the inability of intergovernmental organizations to **make decisions that held governments to shared obligations**.

INSTITUTIONAL DISTINCTION

**Coordination ≠ integration**

| OEEC / Council | ECSC model |
|---|---|
| Voluntary consultation; easy to obstruct | Agreed rules and binding authority |

BEFORE THE SCHUMAN PLAN

**Early cooperative experiments**

- **1947** Marshall Plan; CEEC/OEEC
- **1949** Council of Europe
- **1950** Schuman Declaration

KEY TERM

**Intergovernmentalism**

Governments cooperate while **retaining control** over whether and how collective decisions bind them.

TWO DIFFERENT MODELS OF POSTWAR EUROPEAN COOPERATION

| Feature | OEEC / Council of Europe | Schuman Plan / ECSC |
|---|---|---|
| **Authority** | Voluntary intergovernmental cooperation. | Binding supranational powers. |
| **Decision-making** | Can be impeded by dissenting governments. | Institutions exercise powers accepted in advance. |
| **Purpose** | Aid coordination and political discussion. | Joint management of strategically important sectors. |

# II The Schuman Plan: Supranationalism Breaks Through

*Pooling coal and steel offered security through shared authority.*

## THE DECLARATION OF 9 MAY 1950

French Foreign Minister **Robert Schuman** proposed placing French and German **coal and steel production** under a common authority. **Jean Monnet** was the scheme's principal planner; Schuman was its public political sponsor. Two innovations mattered: **supranationalism**, in which accepted joint rules could bind participating states, and the deliberate decision to build around **Franco-German reconciliation**, even without Britain.

## THE SIX AND THE ECSC

The **European Coal and Steel Community (ECSC)** united **France, West Germany, Italy, Belgium, the Netherlands and Luxembourg**. This core group of **Six** endured until the first enlargement in 1973. Coal and steel were strategically chosen: they were vital to industrial recovery and to the production of weapons. Common institutions offered a way to make German economic rehabilitation compatible with French security.

THE FOUNDING CORE

**The original Community**

**6**

France, West Germany, Italy, Belgium, the Netherlands and Luxembourg.

SECURITY THROUGH ECONOMICS

**The Schuman logic**

Franco-German rivalry and industrial needs
↓
Pool coal and steel production
↓
Binding common authority
↓
Greater security and economic recovery

DO NOT CONFUSE

**ECSC success ≠ EDC success**

**Coal and steel pooling** proceeded; the **European Defence Community** failed in the French Assembly in 1954.

### THE FAILURE OF THE EUROPEAN DEFENCE COMMUNITY

The proposed **European Defence Community (EDC)** attempted to combine the armed forces of the Six so that West German rearmament would not require a fully independent German army. The **French National Assembly rejected ratification in 1954**. This failure checked supranational ambitions in defence, while the more conventional **Western European Union** offered an alternative route for Western security cooperation.

## III Rome: Economic Integration and the Institutional Quartet

*The Six rebuilt momentum around common markets and shared rule-making.*

### MESSINA AND THE TREATIES OF ROME

At **Messina (1955)**, the Six resumed negotiations, leading to the **Treaties of Rome (1957)**. These established **Euratom** for atomic-energy cooperation and the **European Economic Community (EEC)**. The EEC aimed to remove **internal customs tariffs**, establish a **common external tariff** and develop common policies, notably the **Common Agricultural Policy (CAP)**.

THE ORIGINAL COMMUNITY INSTITUTIONAL FRAMEWORK

| Institution | Principal function |
|---|---|
| **European Commission** | Initiates and drafts proposals for common policy. |
| **Council of Ministers** | Member-state representatives take major legislative decisions. |
| **European Parliamentary Assembly** | Provides parliamentary scrutiny and oversight. |
| **Court of Justice** | Adjudicates legal disputes and safeguards the common legal order. |

THE TREATIES OF ROME

**EEC essentials**

**Market** Remove internal tariffs

**External** Common customs tariff

**Policy** Common agriculture

INSTITUTIONAL ROLES

**Commission proposes; ministers decide**

**Commission**
Drafts and proposes policy

**Council**
Member-state ministers adopt major decisions

This quartet combined shared authority with national control: the Commission could initiate common policy, but member governments retained a decisive role through the Council. Section V traces how that balance shifted in practice.

# IV Why Integrate? Three Interpretive Traditions

*Peace ideals, state interests and economic necessities overlapped.*

### THE TRADITIONAL NARRATIVE OF PEACE

Early proponents such as **Monnet** and **Paul-Henri Spaak** emphasized the desire to make another European war impossible through durable cooperation. The experience of **1914 and 1939** gave the peace argument emotional force. But a purely heroic narrative can obscure the specific national calculations behind the institutions.

### THE REVISIONIST AND REALIST ARGUMENT

Modern interpretations place greater emphasis on **national political interest**. **France** used integration to take the initiative in European diplomacy and manage the **German problem**; **West Germany** sought acceptance after the war, reconciliation with France and secure attachment to the Western camp; **Italy** could regain standing without appearing threatening. Collective institutions allowed states to regain an international role that isolated action could not provide.

### ALAN MILWARD: RESCUE OF THE NATION-STATE

Economic historian **Alan Milward** described integration as the **“European rescue of the nation-state.”** Democratic governments required growth, employment and credible economic policy to retain electoral legitimacy. French access to **German coke**, anxieties about German steel competition and Dutch fears of a return to **1930s-style protectionism** all shaped the settlement. The Dutch advocate **Jan-Willem Beyen** pressed for a customs union that suited a small economy dependent on open markets.

THREE INTERPRETATIONS

**Why did Europe integrate?**

| Idealist | Realist | Milward |
|---|---|---|
| Prevent war | National interests | Rescue state |

EXAM INSIGHT

**Do not choose just one motive**

Show how **reconciliation, national security and domestic prosperity** reinforced one another rather than treating them as mutually exclusive explanations.

THREE LENSES FOR EXPLAINING EUROPEAN INTEGRATION

| Interpretive approach | Question it asks | Central claim |
|---|---|---|
| **Peace / idealist** | How could further European war be prevented? | Shared institutions help overcome historical rivalry. |
| **Realist / revisionist** | What did each government gain? | States pooled authority to recover security and influence. |
| **Economic / Milward** | How did governments preserve domestic legitimacy? | Prosperity and welfare enabled the nation-state to survive. |

> *"We are in politics, not business." — Walter Hallstein, as quoted in the account*

# Ⓥ Commission versus Council: Who Exercised Power?

*The central executive's original promise gave way to increasingly assertive national governments.*

## FROM CENTRAL INITIATIVE TO NATIONAL CONTROL

The **ECSC High Authority** had embodied an ambitious central executive. The issue after Rome was how much freedom national governments would allow it in practice. Even **Monnet** and **Walter Hallstein**, sometimes called "Mr Europe," faced limits imposed by ministers. The crises and summits below show how governments asserted that control.

## THE EMPTY CHAIR AND LUXEMBOURG, 1966

French President **Charles de Gaulle** challenged moves toward majority voting. The resulting **empty-chair crisis** and **Luxembourg Compromise (1966)** strengthened the practice of seeking unanimity when a government claimed a question involved its **"vital interest."** The accord narrowed the scope for overruling states and underscored the continuing power of the national executive.

POWER-SHIFT RECALL

**How did governments regain leverage?**

**Luxembourg:** vital-interest claims constrained majority decisions. **European Council:** national leaders set strategic direction.

GOVERNANCE MILESTONES

**The member-state counterweight**

- **1957** Rome sets Commission/Council roles
- **1966** Luxembourg Compromise
- **1975** Regular European Council summits

### THE EUROPEAN COUNCIL, FROM 1975

The regular meetings of European **heads of state and government** from **1975** further elevated national political leadership. Prime ministers and presidents could give strategic direction to integration while ministers worked through the detailed legislation. The resulting system was not a simple transfer of sovereignty from capitals to Brussels; it was a constantly negotiated **collective exercise of state power**.

# VI Deepening and Widening: The Agenda Expands

*New members and new policy problems supplied fresh reasons to cooperate.*

### FROM ECONOMIC COMMUNITY TO MONETARY UNION

Cooperation spread beyond tariffs and industrial sectors. **Cross-border pollution** created an argument for environmental policy; the weakening of the **Bretton Woods** monetary system encouraged exchange-rate coordination and the **European Monetary System**. Integration ultimately advanced toward **Economic and Monetary Union (EMU)** and the **euro**, launched in physical currency form in **2002** in the account's chronology.

### SUCCESSIVE ROUNDS OF ENLARGEMENT

Enlargement made the European project broader in geography and policy. The **United Kingdom, Ireland and Denmark** joined in **1973**. **Greece (1981)**, then **Spain and Portugal (1986)**, connected membership to democratic consolidation after authoritarian rule. **Austria, Finland and Sweden** joined in **1995**; the large **2004** expansion brought ten additional states, many from Central and Eastern Europe.

ENLARGEMENT MEMORY

**Four major waves**

| | |
|---|---|
| 1973 | UK, Ireland, Denmark |
| 1981/86 | Greece, Spain, Portugal |
| 1995 | Austria, Finland, Sweden |
| 2004 | Ten new members |

CORE PARADOX

**Widening versus deepening**

**Widening**
More member states and interests

**Deepening**
New policies, funds and monetary ties

KEY PHRASE

**Mailbox democracy**

A state outside the Union that nonetheless must **follow European rules without a voice** in shaping them, as described in the account.

SELECTED MILESTONES IN EUROPEAN INTEGRATION

| Year | Event | Significance |
|---|---|---|
| **1947** | Marshall Plan and OEEC process | Economic recovery, but limited binding integration. |
| **1950** | Schuman Declaration | Franco-German coal/steel pooling and supranational breakthrough. |
| **1954** | EDC fails | Military integration stalls. |
| **1957** | Treaties of Rome | EEC customs union and Euratom founded. |
| **1966** | Luxembourg Compromise | Member-state vital-interest claims acquire political weight. |
| **1973** | First enlargement | UK, Ireland and Denmark join the Six. |
| **1992 / 2002** | Internal Market / Euro | Broader economic integration and common currency. |
| **2004** | Eastern enlargement | Ten new members reshape the Community’s geography. |

## DOES WIDENING UNDERMINE DEEPENING?

Observers feared that bringing more states into the Community would impede closer union. The relationship was not so simple: poorer entrants such as **Ireland, Greece and Spain** reinforced demands for **structural and cohesion funds**, while wealthy northern states such as **Sweden and Finland** preferred participation to becoming a **“mailbox democracy”** obliged to follow Brussels rules without helping make them. More members could therefore create new rationales for deeper common policies.

European integration emerged from the **insecurity and economic weakness** of postwar Europe and persisted because each generation discovered new tasks—industrial recovery, trade, agricultural policy, economic stability, regional redistribution, democracy and the environment—that were difficult to solve alone. Its enduring paradox is that **collective institutions could strengthen the nation-state** rather than simply abolish or supersede it.

# § Revision: The Resilience of a Shared Sovereignty

*The Union survived because cooperation remained useful to its member governments.*

**Revision prompts:** distinguish **intergovernmental** coordination from **supranational** authority; explain the **Schuman–Rome–Luxembourg** institutional sequence; compare **idealist, realist and Milward** interpretations; and show why **widening** has not always prevented **deepening**.

REVISION CLAIM

**Sovereignty: loss or resource?**

**Simple surrender story**

Integration replaces independent states

**Chapter's argument**

Governments exercise powers together to strengthen their capacity to govern

CHAPTER 26

# The Making of Modern Southeast Asia in the Age of Decolonization and the Cold War

*Study notes: The Crucible of Modernity — Southeast Asia, Decolonization and the Cold War*

CENTRAL THESIS

**The Second World War broke the myth of European invincibility** and empowered mass nationalist movements. Decolonization then intersected with Cold War rivalry, but Southeast Asian leaders were not passive proxies: they pursued national aims while negotiating, exploiting or resisting outside powers. From the Vietnam conflicts to **ASEAN**, the region gradually emerged as a recognisable political and economic community.

TIMELINE

- **1939**
- **1941**
- **1945**
- **1946**
- **1947**
- **1948**
- **1949**
- **1950**
- **1954**
- **1955**
- **1956**
- **1961**
- **1967**
- **1975**
- **1979**

Between **1939 and 1975**, Southeast Asia's political map changed profoundly; the final section follows the consequences through the 1979 conflict and later economic reforms. European and American colonial control gave way to diverse independent states, but the route to decolonization differed sharply by colony. **Japanese conquest, popular nationalism and superpower competition** interacted rather than producing one uniform regional revolution.

# Ⅰ The Prewar Imperial Order and Japanese Expansion

*An overwhelmingly colonial region faced a newly assertive Asian military power.*

IMPERIAL POSSESSIONS AROUND 1939, AS GROUPED IN THE ACCOUNT

| Power | Territories described |
|---|---|
| **Britain** | India, Burma, Sri Lanka, Malaya, Singapore and Hong Kong |
| **France** | Indochina: Vietnam, Laos and Cambodia |
| **Netherlands** | Netherlands East Indies (Indonesia) |
| **United States** | Philippines |
| **Independent in the regional comparison** | Thailand (Siam) and Japan |

## A REGION VULNERABLE TO A NEW EMPIRE

The account describes an **"expanse of imperial red"** beside French, Dutch and American territories. Japan, encouraged by victories against China and Russia but short of domestic raw materials, sought a new regional empire. Its attack on **Pearl Harbor in December 1941** accompanied the wider offensive to seize Southeast Asian resources and displace European authority.

PREWAR POWER MAP

### Who governed the region?

**European empires**
Britain, France and the Netherlands controlled much of the map.

**Asian challenger**
Japan sought resources and regional hegemony.

EXAM LENS

### Do not begin with the Cold War

First establish the **pre-1941 colonial order** and the impact of Japanese conquest; superpower rivalry came to shape a conflict already rooted in empire and nationalism.

CONQUEST AS CATALYST

### The turning point

- **1939** — Extensive European colonial rule
- **1941–42** — Japanese victories discredit European invincibility
- **1945** — Japanese surrender leaves contested political authority

China was divided between the **Guomindang** and the **Chinese Communist Party**, while Tokyo became the leading regional challenger. The next section explains how Japanese victories changed the possibilities for local nationalist movements.

## II War, Occupation and the Rise of Mass Nationalism

*Indigenous political leadership responded differently to Japanese rule.*

### THE DESTRUCTION OF THE OLD PRESTIGE

The “spectacular Japanese victories” of **1941–42** undermined the claim that European colonizers were naturally superior. Occupation caused suffering, but it also destabilized established administration, mobilized new political constituencies and gave nationalist leaders opportunities that prewar systems had denied them.

### TWO NATIONALIST STRATEGIES

**Ho Chi Minh** in Vietnam was a communist resisting Japanese occupation and demanding independence. **Sukarno** in Indonesia was a non-communist who cooperated with Japan in ways that helped prepare for future independence. The same occupation thus produced different nationalist strategies: resistance in Ho’s case, cooperation intended to prepare independence in Sukarno’s.

In several colonies, **communists became leaders of militant nationalism**. US Secretary of State **Dean Acheson** argued in 1949 that colonial Stalinists were also nationalists; the account emphasizes that Ho Chi Minh’s nationalism was grounded in conviction rather than opportunistic adoption. Communist ideology and anticolonial national identity could therefore reinforce each other.

LEADERSHIP CONTRAST

**Ho and Sukarno**

| Ho Chi Minh | Sukarno |
| --- | --- |
| Communist; resisted Japan; demanded immediate independence. | Non-communist; worked with occupiers to prepare independence. |

INTERPRETIVE WARNING

**Communism ≠ absence of nationalism**

Communist-led movements could also be **authentically nationalist**. Explaining Vietnam solely as an instrument of Moscow or Beijing erases indigenous political objectives.

## III Several Paths to Independence, 1945–1950

*British negotiation contrasted with the Dutch effort to return to colonial rule.*

### BRITAIN: SUBSTITUTING INFLUENCE FOR CONTROL

Economic exhaustion and domestic mobilization pushed Britain toward **"transformation" rather than "liquidation." India and Pakistan gained independence in 1947**, followed by **Burma and Sri Lanka in 1948**. Britain hoped to preserve trade and strategic influence through the **Commonwealth**, while making remaining possessions such as Malaya and Singapore more viable.

### THE DUTCH WAR IN INDONESIA

After **Sukarno declared independence in 1945**, the Netherlands attempted to reassert authority, including the **"police actions" of 1947–48**. US policy shifted when Sukarno suppressed a communist revolt in 1948: Washington increasingly feared that a long colonial war would weaken the Netherlands and European recovery. US pressure contributed to the transfer of sovereignty in **December 1949**.

The two cases show why independence cannot be reduced to a standard British-or-European retreat. Different colonial governments chose different combinations of negotiation, repression and economic calculation; indigenous leaders likewise made distinct choices.

## IV Indochina: From Anticolonial War to Cold War Proxy

*The international setting transformed a French colonial conflict into a broader confrontation.*

DECOLONIZATION MILESTONES

**The immediate postwar years**

- **1945** Sukarno declares Indonesian independence
- **1947** India and Pakistan become independent
- **1948** Burma and Sri Lanka follow
- **1949** Dutch recognition / transfer in Indonesia

COLONIAL EXIT

**Two imperial responses**

**Britain**
Retreat while preserving Commonwealth links and influence.

**Netherlands**
Attempted renewed control; conceded after fighting and pressure.

## THE FIRST VIETNAM WAR

Following Japan's surrender, **Ho Chi Minh proclaimed the Democratic Republic of Vietnam**. French forces returned, initially aided by **British-led Indian troops**; war broke out in **late 1946**. The initial struggle was a contest over colonial independence, not simply a derivative of Washington–Moscow rivalry.

## THE 1949–50 TURN

The **communist victory in China** gave the Vietminh a powerful neighbouring ally. The **United States** increasingly financed French forces, seeking to contain communism and protect the economic environment of Japan. By **spring 1950**, the war had become a **Sino-American proxy struggle**, even as Vietnamese actors pursued their own political goals.

## DIEN BIEN PHU AND GENEVA, 1954

France's defeat at **Dien Bien Phu** led to the **Geneva Accords**: Vietnam was provisionally divided at the **17th parallel**, with nationwide elections envisaged for **1956** but never held. The account stresses that **China and the USSR pressed the Vietminh to accept compromise** to meet their own security priorities.

> *"Diplomacy is rarely able to gain at the conference table what cannot be gained or held on the battlefield." — Walter Bedell Smith, as quoted in the account*

THE CONFLICT CHANGES

**Colonial war → Cold War front**

French return after 1945

↓

Vietnamese anticolonial resistance

↓

PRC victory and US funding, 1949–50

↓

Internationalized proxy confrontation

GEOGRAPHICAL REFERENCE

**The 17th parallel**

The **temporary dividing line** used in the 1954 settlement, linked in the account to elections planned for 1956 that did not take place.

EXAM CAUSATION

**Do not turn Vietnam into a puppet war**

Show how **local anticolonial agency** and **foreign support** interacted. China and the USSR sometimes pressed Hanoi toward outcomes it did not fully want.

# V Containment: South Vietnam, SEATO and Dominoes

*Washington tried to institutionalize a non-communist Southeast Asian order.*

### BUILDING AN ANTICOMMUNIST SOUTH

After Geneva, the United States supported **Ngo Dinh Diem** and the creation of the **Republic of Vietnam** in the south as an anticommunist state. Eisenhower's **domino theory** asserted that one communist victory could set off a regional chain reaction, making the defence of South Vietnam a lasting American priority.

### SEATO AND THE SECURITY PERIMETER

The **Southeast Asia Treaty Organization (1954)** involved **the United States, Britain, Australia, New Zealand, France, Thailand, Pakistan and the Philippines**. It was intended to help protect **Laos, Cambodia and South Vietnam** against communist expansion, even though these three were not among the treaty signatories listed in the account.

# VI Regional Cooperation: From Development to ASEAN

*Countries also created institutions outside the logic of military alliances.*

### THE COLOMBO PLAN AND BANDUNG

The **Colombo Plan (1950)** promoted economic development as a means of weakening communist appeal and mobilized Commonwealth and later US support. The **Bandung Conference (1955)** brought together **29 states** under principles associated with *Panchsheel*: sovereignty, non-aggression, non-interference, equality and peaceful coexistence. Bandung helped establish the political climate for the **Non-Aligned Movement (1961)**.

THE DOMINO THEORY

**Containment in three steps**

**Fear** One state falls

**Prediction** Neighbours become vulnerable

**Policy** Support South Vietnam

KEY INSTITUTION

**SEATO (1954)**

An eight-member security arrangement formed to coordinate resistance to a feared spread of communism in Southeast Asia.

INSTITUTIONS IN CONTEXT

**Development, non-alignment, integration**

- **1950** Colombo Plan
- **1955** Bandung Conference
- **1961** Non-Aligned Movement
- **1967** ASEAN founded

### ASEAN AND THE REGIONAL INTEREST

In **1967**, **Thailand, Indonesia, Singapore, Malaysia and the Philippines** founded the **Association of Southeast Asian Nations (ASEAN)** to coordinate development and promote regional security during the Vietnam War. Cooperation developed despite differences among national regimes and their relationships with the great powers.

The account contrasts the early vision of **"tentative regionalism"** with an eventual ASEAN-centred economic framework, including freer regional trade and inward investment. For Southeast Asia, institution-building became a way to make the region something more than a convenient label on the map.

## VII Vietnam's Long Wars and the Postwar Regional Order

*National mistrust survived ideological alignments.*

### THE SECOND VIETNAM WAR AND HANOI'S AGENCY

The second, American, war in Vietnam culminated in the **fall of Saigon in 1975** and communist unification. The account emphasizes **Hanoi's ability to draw on both Soviet and Chinese support** despite the Sino-Soviet split, rather than assuming Vietnamese policy was directed by either external patron.

### THE THIRD VIETNAM WAR AND ECONOMIC ADAPTATION

Conflict between China and Vietnam in **1979**, following the overthrow of the **Khmer Rouge** in Cambodia, demonstrated that nationalist competition could outweigh communist ideological solidarity. Although China provided major aid during earlier struggles, the emergence of a unified Vietnam aligned with Moscow created a new strategic anxiety on China's southern border.

COMMON CONFUSION

**SEATO is not ASEAN**

**SEATO** was a Cold War security arrangement; **ASEAN** began as a Southeast Asian regional association for cooperation and development.

HISTORICAL INTERPRETATION

**Ideology versus sovereignty**

**Cold War lens**

Communist states should act as a single camp.

**Regional reality**

Vietnam–China rivalry persisted despite shared ideology.

THE REGION'S TRANSFORMATION

**Independent Southeast Asia**

**10**

Diverse sovereign states in the later regional configuration described by the account.

Later, Vietnam's **doi moi** reforms helped turn it from a perceived regional threat toward an economic partner. The wider region gradually moved from colonial extraction toward growing economic interdependence and cooperation through ASEAN and associated trade arrangements.

REGIONAL TRANSFORMATION SUMMARIZED IN THE ACCOUNT

| Dimension | Long-term change |
|---|---|
| **Political identity** | From colonial domains to ten diverse sovereign states. |
| **Economic organization** | From extraction-oriented empires toward ASEAN trade cooperation. |
| **Regional diplomacy** | From tentative coordination toward more integrated regionalism. |
| **Vietnam** | From wars and regional confrontation toward doi moi and economic participation. |

The Second World War demolished the credibility of European colonial supremacy, while **nationalist mobilization** created several distinct paths to independence. The Cold War then reshaped Vietnam and the security architecture of the region, but **Sukarno, Ho Chi Minh and later governments acted for national purposes**, not merely to satisfy superpowers. **ASEAN, economic adaptation and regional interdependence** eventually helped turn Southeast Asia into a functioning international region.

# § Revision: From Colonial Outposts to a Regional Community

*Global geopolitics mattered, but regional actors had independent objectives.*

**Revision prompts:** Explain **1941–45 as a catalyst**; contrast **British and Dutch decolonization**; describe the **1949–50 internationalization of Indochina**; distinguish **SEATO, Bandung and ASEAN**; and use **China–Vietnam conflict** to challenge a purely ideological account.

CHAPTER SYNTHESIS

**Three forces make the region**

**War** Shattered colonial prestige

**Nation** Local agency and independence

**Cold War** Outside rivalry reshaped choices

CHAPTER 27

# The Middle East, 1945–1991: The Making of a Mare's Nest

*Study notes: The Middle East, 1945–1991 — The Making of a Mare’s Nest*

CENTRAL THESIS

The Middle East’s postwar turmoil cannot be explained by a simple **US–Soviet “superpower straightjacket.”** Britain’s imperial retreat, US strategies of intervention and delegation, and regional states’ own ambitions interacted to produce a **“mare’s nest”**: local rulers often recruited great powers to advance competing objectives, while outside governments repeatedly misread the political environment.

TIMELINE

- **1945**
- **1946**
- **1947**
- **1956**
- **1957**
- **1958**
- **1961**
- **1967**
- **1969**
- **1973**
- **1979**
- **1980**
- **1984**
- **1986**
- **1988**
- **1990**
- **1991**

From **British paramountcy after 1945** to the **Kuwait War of 1990–91**, Middle Eastern history followed overlapping struggles for sovereignty, oil, security and regional influence. The region did not simply follow superpower instructions: **local governments were also active users of US and Soviet power**.

# Ⅰ The Erosion of British Paramountcy, 1945–1956

*Britain's apparent postwar dominance masked economic and strategic weakness.*

## THE LIMITS OF THE POSTWAR POSITION

At the end of the war, Britain retained a substantial Middle Eastern military presence and appeared to have displaced rival imperial forces. Yet **Jewish and Arab nationalist claims in Palestine**, anti-British pressure in **Egypt and Iraq**, and the costs of occupying a vast regional system undermined its position. Britain retained military positions but lacked the money and reliable local support needed to turn them into effective control.

EXPLANATIONS OF BRITAIN'S POSTWAR DECLINE

| Pressure | Mechanism |
|---|---|
| **Nationalism** | Rival claims in Palestine and anticolonial protest challenged Britain's ability to govern or broker settlements. |
| **Loss of India (1947)** | Weakened arguments for holding the Middle East primarily to guard imperial routes to India. |
| **Economic weakness** | Postwar financial distress and welfare-state ambitions constrained costly overseas obligations. |
| **Strategic errors** | Ernest Bevin's effort to work with Arab populations misread local rivalries and political divisions. |

DECLINE OF PARAMOUNTCY

**Why British power weakened**

Postwar fiscal exhaustion

↓

Loss of imperial rationale and nationalist pressures

↓

Failed treaty and political strategy

↓

Suez, 1956: visible end of dominance

EXAM CAUTION

**Imperial reach ≠ effective control**

Britain still held military positions after **1945**, but money, political consent and reliable local partnerships were increasingly absent.

### REVISED TREATIES, EVACUATION AND SUEZ

The account treats Britain’s willingness to revisit its treaties, including evacuation negotiations in **Egypt in 1946**, as a loss of control. In the **Suez Crisis (1956)**, Britain, France and Israel took coordinated action against Egypt, but pressure from the United States and Soviet Union helped end the intervention. Suez symbolized the collapse of **British paramountcy**.

> *“Illusion, incompetence, and loss of will were largely responsible for the erosion of British paramountcy in the Middle East between 1945 and 1956.” — Interpretation in the account*

## II American Intervention and British Withdrawal, 1957–1968

*Washington sought to contain Soviet influence in a politically fragmented region.*

### THE EISENHOWER DOCTRINE, 1957

After Suez, the **Eisenhower Doctrine** offered US military and economic assistance to states facing aggression by forces supposedly linked to international communism. The measure was hurried and insufficiently attentive to the region’s competing national and dynastic agendas.

### IRAQ, LEBANON AND JORDAN IN 1958

The **Iraqi Revolution of 1958** overthrew the monarchy and killed **King Faisal II**, wrecking Britain’s **Baghdad Pact** strategy. The United States landed troops in **Lebanon**; Britain deployed paratroops to **Jordan**. These simultaneous responses demonstrated both Western anxiety and the absence of a stable regional order.

THE FIRST TURNING POINTS

**Britain’s retreat**

- **1945** — Nominal British regional predominance
- **1947** — India gains independence
- **1956** — Suez intervention fails

POLICY TERM

**Eisenhower Doctrine**

The 1957 US promise of aid to Middle Eastern states resisting **armed aggression attributed to international communism**; its interpretation was complicated by local conflicts.

REGIONAL CRISES

**Four intervention moments**

- **1956** — Suez weakens Britain
- **1958** — Iraq revolution; US Lebanon / UK Jordan deployments
- **1961** — British forces sent to Kuwait
- **1967** — British withdrawal from Aden

### KUWAIT AND THE WITHDRAWAL FROM ADEN

In **Operation Vantage (1961)**, Britain sent troops to **Kuwait** to deter Iraqi territorial claims. Its withdrawal from **Aden in 1967** is portrayed in the account as a betrayal of past commitments to the **Federation of South Arabia**. The account associates the withdrawal with major depopulation and violence.

These cases suggest that **British retreat and US intervention were not a clean transfer of control**. Both powers became entangled in local disputes whose origins and dynamics were not reducible to the East–West conflict.

## III The Nixon Doctrine and the Twin Pillars, 1969–1979

*US policy relied increasingly on powerful regional partners rather than direct deployments.*

### DELEGATING REGIONAL SECURITY

The **Nixon Doctrine (1969)** followed the strains of the Vietnam War. Washington would supply arms and money to selected states that could act as **regional policemen**. In the Gulf the chief partners were **Iran under the Shah and Saudi Arabia**; Israel also became an important strategic asset against Soviet-supported regional rivals after the **1967 Six-Day War**.

### IRAN, ISRAEL AND SAUDI ARABIA

Large US arms sales enabled the **Shah** to pursue an increasingly ambitious regional role. Heavy military spending encouraged the Shah's regional ambitions while diverting resources from domestic reform. **Saudi Arabia** played a complementary Gulf role, while **Israel** was seen as a strong military counterweight to Egypt, Syria and Iraq.

CAUSE VERSUS LABEL

**Beware the Cold War shortcut**

For each intervention, identify the **local dispute first** and then explain how London or Washington defined it through anti-communism and imperial security.

REGIONAL PARTNERS

**A policy with distinct roles**

**Iran / Saudi Arabia**
Gulf security partners under the "twin pillars" approach.

**Israel**
Military counterweight to Soviet-aligned Arab states.

### THE OIL SHOCK AND THE IRANIAN REVOLUTION

The **1973 Yom Kippur War** was followed by an **OPEC-related oil embargo** and a roughly fourfold increase in prices, redistributing enormous financial resources toward oil producers. In **1979**, the Iranian Revolution removed the Shah, depriving the United States of a central pillar of its Gulf strategy and a major customer for American weaponry.

# Ⓘⓥ The Carter Doctrine and the Iran–Iraq War, 1980–1988

*The United States shifted toward direct protection of Gulf interests.*

### THE CARTER DOCTRINE, 1980

Following the **Iranian Revolution** and the **Soviet invasion of Afghanistan**, the **Carter Doctrine** declared that attempts by outside powers to dominate the Persian Gulf would be resisted, including militarily. The account describes this as a transition from **delegated policing** toward the prospect of **direct US intervention** to protect strategic and oil interests.

### A LONG AND DESTABILIZING WAR

The **Iran–Iraq War (1980–88)** generated high casualties and heightened tensions among neighbouring governments. Fearing an Iranian victory and the spread of revolutionary Islam, the United States gradually **tilted toward Iraq**, while also providing naval protection to Kuwaiti tankers. The account places the expansion of US–Iraqi ties in the mid-1980s.

### IRAN–CONTRA AND THE CONTRADICTION OF POLICY

The **Iran–Contra (Irangate) affair** exposed secret US arms dealings with Iran while official policy generally favoured Iraq. The war did not produce a durable regional settlement; Iraq emerged as an uneasy American counterweight to Iran, despite its own destabilizing ambitions.

THE STRATEGY UNRAVELS

**From delegation to crisis**

US arms and funding to allies

↓

Regional partners become stronger and more autonomous

↓

1973 oil shock transforms leverage

↓

1979 revolution removes the Shah

ECONOMIC SHOCK

**1973 oil prices**

**≈4×**

Price increase following the Yom Kippur War and the oil embargo, in the historical account.

# V The Kuwait War, 1990–1991

*A former counterweight to Iran became the principal aggressor.*

### SADDAM’S INVASION AND THE COALITION RESPONSE

**Iraq invaded Kuwait in August 1990**, exposing the failure of the assumption that Saddam Hussein would be a predictable stabilizing force. The United States deployed troops in **Saudi Arabia** under **Operation Desert Shield**, while **President George H. W. Bush** assembled a multinational coalition of approximately **30 states**.

### DESERT STORM AND THE INCOMPLETE SETTLEMENT

**Operation Desert Storm (1991)** expelled Iraqi forces from Kuwait. The coalition nevertheless left Saddam in power, partly because Western policymakers feared that disintegration of Iraq could strengthen Iran. The subsequent suppression of **Shiite and Kurdish uprisings** exposed a contradiction in the coalition’s policy despite the earlier victory over Iraqi occupation of Kuwait.

The Kuwait War illustrated the recurring contradiction of great-power engagement: the United States could assemble overwhelming military force but could not resolve the **regional political conflicts** that made its involvement necessary.

# VI The “Mare’s Nest”: Local Agency and External Miscalculation

*The region repeatedly defeated straightforward Great Power narratives.*

US SECURITY LOGIC

**Nixon versus Carter**

**Nixon, 1969**
Arm and fund regional partners to police the Gulf.

**Carter, 1980**
Commit US force to oppose outside domination of the Gulf.

POLICY CONTRADICTION

**The US was not consistently neutral**

The account describes both an **American tilt toward Baghdad** and **secret arms sales to Iran**. This complicates any simple account of a single, coherent US Gulf policy.

KEY SCANDAL

**Irangate / Iran–Contra**

Secret arms transactions with **Iran** despite the public US stance and the broader effort to contain Iranian regional power.

FOUR STRATEGIC APPROACHES AND THEIR OUTCOMES

| Concept | Strategic logic | Result |
|---|---|---|
| **Bevin's partnership** | Reach Arab populations through economic and political reform. | British resources were inadequate; regional rivalries persisted. |
| **Nixon Doctrine** | Support Iran and Saudi Arabia as Gulf security pillars. | Overreliance on Shah; Iranian Revolution disrupted the system. |
| **Carter Doctrine** | Reserve direct US force to defend the Persian Gulf. | Widening American military commitment, evident in 1990–91. |
| **"Superpower straightjacket"** | Explain regional politics through US–USSR competition. | Misses local actors' ability to enlist and manipulate external powers. |

The key argument is not that outside intervention did not matter: it shaped politics, military spending, and war. Rather, **the governments of the Middle East had their own interests**. They frequently solicited international support to confront rivals or strengthen domestic legitimacy. As a result, imperial decline, Cold War containment, oil wealth, nationalism and regime security became tangled with each other.

From the retreat of **Britain** to the rise of **American intervention**, the Middle East presented no clean succession of regional managers. The **Eisenhower, Nixon and Carter doctrines** each sought a workable formula for security; each encountered autonomous local states, oil politics, ideological competition and conflicting regional ambitions. The **Iranian Revolution and Kuwait War** exposed the limits of both proxy policing and direct armed response. The region was **not merely a superpower chessboard**: local states actively shaped the rival powers' policies.

THE KUWAIT CAMPAIGN

### Three major phases

- **Aug 1990** — Iraqi invasion of Kuwait
- **1990** — Desert Shield: Saudi-based defense and coalition building
- **Jan–Feb 1991** — Desert Storm: expulsion of Iraqi forces

ASSESS THE RESULT

### Military victory, political limits

**Achieved**
Kuwait liberated from occupation.

**Unresolved**
Saddam remained; regime and communal conflict persisted.

INTERPRETIVE FRAME

### Three levels of causation

**Global** US–Soviet rivalry

**Regional** State and regime competition

**Domestic** Nationalism, legitimacy and resources

# § Revision: A Persistent Mare’s Nest

*The superpowers and the region’s states repeatedly made each other’s problems worse.*

**Revision prompts:** Trace **Suez → Eisenhower → Nixon → Carter → Kuwait**; explain **Britain’s decline**; distinguish **Iran, Saudi Arabia and Israel** in US regional strategy; identify **the Iran–Iraq policy contradictions**; and illustrate why **local actors manipulated great powers**.

EXAM THESIS

**Explain why “client” is misleading**

Use an example such as **Iraq, Iran or Egypt** to show that local rulers could seek great-power sponsorship while advancing goals not fully shared by those patrons.

FINAL INTERPRETATION

**Two inadequate explanations**

**Only superpower control**

Ignores nationalism, rivalries and local initiatives.

**Only local politics**

Ignores military aid, oil interests and Western interventions.

CHAPTER 28

# The Sino-Soviet Alliance

*Study notes: The Fragile Colossus — The Rise and Fall of the Sino-Soviet Alliance*

CENTRAL THESIS

**The alliance of the world's two largest communist states collapsed under the strain of incompatible expectations.** Moscow imagined a Soviet-led hierarchy; Beijing insisted that shared revolution must not limit Chinese sovereignty or equality. Strategic cooperation survived in 1950 and during Korea, but mistrust, ideological divergence and great-power rivalry transformed "brotherly" solidarity into armed confrontation by **1969**.

TIMELINE

- **1945**
- **1948**
- **1949**
- **1950**
- **1953**
- **1954**
- **1956**
- **1958**
- **1959**
- **1963**
- **1966**
- **1969**
- **1970**

The Sino-Soviet relationship was meant to demonstrate the unity of communism but became a **“dialogue of the deaf.”** Ideological conviction, differing perceptions of revolutionary status, and the legacy of foreign intervention made both governments suspicious. The central dispute concerned authority: could Moscow lead the communist world while Beijing retained **equal status and independent decision-making**?

# Ⓘ The Inherited Problem: Stalin, Chiang and Mao, 1945–1950

*The new alliance began with older Soviet commitments and mutual suspicion.*

## STALIN’S EARLIER SETTLEMENT WITH NATIONALIST CHINA

In the **1945 treaty with Chiang Kai-shek’s Guomindang government**, the Soviet Union secured interests in the **Changchun railway**, the use of **Port Arthur**, and arrangements acknowledging **Mongolia’s effective separation from China**. Those privileges made Stalin reluctant to replace an established diplomatic bargain immediately after Mao’s communist victory in **1949**.

## A SECOND TITO?

Stalin had recently lost control over **Yugoslavia’s Josip Broz Tito**, who resisted Soviet discipline after the **1948 split**. Mao’s success as a largely independent peasant revolutionary raised the possibility of another communist leader unwilling to obey Moscow. Mao later recalled that Stalin suspected him of being a **“half-hearted Tito.”**

TREATY LOGIC

**Why Stalin eventually agreed**

1945 Soviet gains under Chiang
↓
1949 Mao victory changes Chinese government
↓
Fear of a Chinese–US rapprochement
↓
February 1950 treaty replaces the old framework

CAUSAL WARNING

**Shared communism did not erase hierarchy**

China demanded **sovereignty and status**; Stalin valued the security and economic privileges acquired in the earlier treaty. An ideological alliance was never automatically an equal one.

### MAO’S MOSCOW VISIT

On his **first trip abroad, in December 1949**, Mao sought security guarantees, capital and technology, and a treaty that would “look good” and “taste good” to China. Stalin hesitated, concerned that abandoning his 1945 privileges might encourage Western challenges. He accepted a new agreement in **January 1950** partly because of the possibility that China might seek a relationship with the United States.

KEY COMMITMENTS AND LIMITS IN THE 1950 SINO-SOVIET AGREEMENT

| Dimension | Arrangement emphasized in the account |
|---|---|
| **Signature** | 14 February 1950 |
| **Security** | Soviet assurances against American intervention |
| **Economic cooperation** | $300 million loan, trade arrangements and Soviet technical specialists |
| **Secret arrangements** | Preferential Soviet interests in Xinjiang and Manchuria |
| **Territorial concessions** | Eventual Soviet withdrawal from Port Arthur and transfer of the Changchun railway |

## II The Korean War: Strength and Resentment, 1950–1953

*A common enemy could not settle how risks, decisions and costs should be shared.*

MATERIAL SUPPORT

**1950 Soviet loan**

**$300m**

The loan promised to China as part of the 1950 alliance package.

TWO RESULTS OF KOREA

**Solidarity versus grievance**

**Strengthened alliance**

China and USSR fought against a common adversary.

**Deepened resentment**

Beijing bore manpower costs and disputed Soviet financial terms.

EXAM INSIGHT

**Korea changed the balance inside the bloc**

Explain the paradox: China’s willingness to fight helped **protect the communist camp** while making its leaders less willing to accept a subordinate role within it.

### WHO WOULD PAY FOR COMMUNIST SECURITY?

According to the account, **Stalin** approved **Kim Il Sung's** offensive against South Korea after concluding that Washington's announced defense perimeter left the Korean mainland outside its core commitments. Moscow expected **China** to provide ground forces if military fortunes changed, keeping much of the risk of direct confrontation away from the USSR.

### CHINA PAYS A HEAVY PRICE

When Chinese troops entered the conflict, Stalin supplied weapons but **charged China for the equipment**. Mao resented this and the lack of consultation over the war's origins. The war nevertheless bound the partners together as **"one horse cart"** in opposition to the United States.

### A NEW CLAIM TO EQUALITY

The fighting also had a psychological effect. Chinese battlefield success against American-led forces challenged the **"father–son"** relationship implied by Moscow's seniority and elevated Mao's standing alongside Stalin. Cooperation thus generated both a stronger alliance and a **more assertive Chinese claim to equal leadership**.

## III Khrushchev: Reconciliation and Ideological Rupture

*After 1953, practical cooperation expanded before political differences sharpened.*

### THE TECHNICAL HONEYMOON, 1954–1956

After **Stalin's death in 1953**, Nikita Khrushchev withdrew Soviet forces from **Port Arthur**, removed Soviet co-ownership of Chinese enterprises and expanded transfers of **factory plans, industrial machinery, missile technology and MiG aircraft**. The initial post-Stalin period appeared to correct what Chinese leaders regarded as earlier quasi-imperial behavior.

HONEYMOON TO BREACH

**The mid-1950s**

- **1953** — Stalin dies; leadership changes
- **1954–56** — Aid and technology transfers expand
- **Feb 1956** — Secret Speech challenges ideological legitimacy

COMPETING REVOLUTIONARY STRATEGIES

**Khrushchev and Mao**

| Khrushchev | Mao |
|---|---|
| Peaceful coexistence and negotiated reduction of tensions. | Intensified class struggle and revolutionary mobilization. |

IDEOLOGICAL TERM

**Peaceful coexistence**

The Soviet argument that competition with capitalist states could proceed **without direct war**, as opposed to Mao's stronger emphasis on continuing revolutionary confrontation.

### THE SECRET SPEECH, FEBRUARY 1956

Khrushchev denounced Stalin's crimes without consulting Beijing. **Mao's anger was not primarily personal loyalty to Stalin**: the speech threatened the legitimacy of Mao's own leadership and the revolutionary narrative on which it depended. Khrushchev increasingly favored **"peaceful coexistence"** with the West; Mao emphasized **class struggle, mobilization and revolutionary tension**.

The dispute became more than a quarrel about personalities. It concerned **who had authority to interpret Marxism-Leninism** and whether the seniority of the USSR gave its leader the right to change doctrine for the entire communist world.

## Ⅳ Sovereignty and the Joint-Fleet Crisis, 1958

*A technical proposal became a symbol of renewed foreign domination.*

### THE JOINT SUBMARINE FLEET AND RADIO STATION

In **1958**, Soviet proposals for a **joint naval force** and a **long-wave radio station on Chinese territory** triggered Mao's furious opposition. He saw them as the first step toward Soviet control of Chinese military infrastructure—a new "Mongolia-type satellite" relationship rather than cooperation between sovereign states.

> *"You never trust the Chinese! ... To you the Russians are the first-class people whereas the Chinese are among the inferior who are dumb and careless." — Mao Zedong, responding to the Soviet ambassador, as quoted in the account*

WHAT THE QUARREL MEANT

**Not simply a naval dispute**

| Soviet expectation | Chinese interpretation |
| --- | --- |
| Shared infrastructure would deepen allied military integration. | Foreign installations implied unequal rights and compromised sovereignty. |

SOVEREIGNTY DILEMMA

**How a technical proposal escalated**

Soviet naval and radio proposals
↓
Chinese memories of outside privileges
↓
Mao interprets joint ownership as subordination
↓
Alliance trust sharply deteriorates

Mao sarcastically proposed sharing **every Chinese institution**—army, navy, industry, agriculture, culture and education—if "joint ownership" truly represented the Soviet ideal. This was the psychological breaking point at which he increasingly described the Soviets as **"red imperialists."**

# Ⓥ The Great Split: Competing Claims to Lead Communism

*By the early 1960s doctrinal disagreement and security rivalry reinforced each other.*

## WHO PLAYS THE FIRST VIOLIN?

Khrushchev argued that the **Soviet Union's economic achievements, first socialist revolution and space successes** entitled it to lead the movement. Mao countered that **China was more revolutionary**, even if poorer. The two parties began publicly disputing which represented authentic Marxist-Leninist internationalism.

## NUCLEAR RETRACTION AND THE US QUESTION

In **1959**, Khrushchev withdrew an earlier promise to provide a **prototype nuclear weapon** to China. Moscow feared a nuclear-armed partner that might act without restraint. At the same time, Mao viewed Khrushchev's **Camp David talks with President Eisenhower** as evidence that the superpowers might reach an accommodation over China's head.

## POLEMICS AND POETRY

The dispute spread beyond diplomatic communiqués into ideological ridicule. Mao's **1963 poetry**, mocking Soviet leaders as "flies" crashing against a wall, expressed the contempt that now replaced earlier professions of fraternity.

SOURCES OF THE SPLIT

**Three interlocking disputes**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **Leadership** Who speaks for world communism? | **Security** Who controls nuclear and military decisions? | **Sovereignty** Could China reject Moscow's instructions? |

ACCELERATING BREAK

**Three turning points**

- **1958** — Joint-fleet controversy
- **1959** — Nuclear assistance withdrawn; Camp David suspicion
- **Early 1960s** — Open ideological polemics

> *“On this tiny globe / A few flies dash themselves against the wall / Humming without cease ... Away with all pests!” — Mao Zedong, poetic polemic (1963), excerpt in the account*

# VI Border War and Rapprochement with Washington, 1966–1970s

*The former ally became a direct strategic danger to Beijing.*

## CULTURAL REVOLUTION AND HISTORIC FRONTIERS

During the **Cultural Revolution**, ideological hostility intensified. Mao revived Chinese objections to nineteenth-century territorial losses to the Russian Empire, challenging the legitimacy of the **Sino-Soviet frontier**. Soviet leaders increasingly treated China as a security threat, and Khrushchev’s earlier denunciations had already compared Mao’s ambitions with those of Hitler.

## THE USSURI AND XINJIANG CLASHES, 1969

Chinese forces clashed with Soviet troops on **Zhenbao Island** in the Ussuri River in **March 1969**; Soviet retaliation was severe. A further clash occurred in **Xinjiang on 13 August**. The account reports Soviet **nuclear threats** during the crisis, raising the risk of conflict on a scale neither communist state had expected in 1950.

CRISIS CHRONOLOGY AND STRATEGIC AFTERMATH

| Date | Event | Consequence |
|---|---|---|
| **March 1969** | Zhenbao Island fighting | Violent frontier confrontation |
| **13 August 1969** | Xinjiang clash | War fears intensify |

FROM ALLY TO THREAT

**The 1969 border crisis**

- **March** — Zhenbao Island combat
- **August** — Xinjiang confrontation and heightened alarms
- **September** — Kosygin–Zhou talks
- **1970s** — US–Chinese strategic opening

EXAM INTERPRETATION

**Do not explain the split by doctrine alone**

Use the **territorial dispute, nuclear disagreement and Soviet–US diplomacy** alongside ideological polemics. The conflict was simultaneously about revolution, security and national dignity.

CRISIS CHRONOLOGY AND STRATEGIC AFTERMATH (CONTINUED)

| Date | Event | Consequence |
|---|---|---|
| **11 September 1969** | Kosygin–Zhou Enlai airport meeting | Attempt to restrain escalation |
| **1970s** | Chinese outreach to the United States | Former communist partners now viewed each other as strategic rivals |

The airport talks in the chronology restrained immediate escalation. The deeper change endured: Beijing increasingly treated its former Soviet ally as a threat, so fear of Moscow pushed China toward **rapprochement with the United States** and changed the wider Cold War balance.

## VII Conclusion: The Limits of Communist Internationalism

*National sovereignty overcame the rhetoric of brotherhood.*

The Soviet leadership interpreted communist unity as a **hierarchical project** organized around Moscow, whereas Chinese leaders—shaped by foreign intervention and national humiliation—demanded a full measure of **independence and equality**. Each side imagined the other through stereotypes and threats; their expectations repeatedly failed to meet.

The transition from the **1950 alliance** to the **1969 border war** illustrates that common ideology does not eliminate strategic competition. What initially seemed a monolithic communist world fractured into two hostile centers, with major consequences for **US–Chinese relations** and the wider Cold War.

FINAL ASSESSMENT

**What united and divided them**

**Shared interest**
Opposition to American power; communist development.

**Irreconcilable priority**
Soviet hierarchy versus Chinese sovereign equality.

# § Revision: From Revolutionary Partnership to Rivalry

*Map the turning points and distinguish ideological language from the underlying balance of power.*

A close reading of the alliance yields a simple but powerful paradox: **1950 security cooperation generated Chinese expectations of equality**, while Soviet leaders continued to demand deference. **Korea** tested unequal burdens; **1956** reopened ideological authority; **1958–59** exposed sovereignty and nuclear disputes; **1969** turned competition into military confrontation. Beijing's subsequent opening to Washington made the split a global Cold War turning point.

**Revision prompts:** Explain the **1945 legacy and 1950 treaty**; contrast **Stalin's suspicion and Mao's autonomy**; show how Korea simultaneously united and divided the allies; link **Secret Speech → joint fleet → nuclear retraction → 1969 border clashes**; and explain **Chinese–US rapprochement**.

CORE ARGUMENT

**From promise to failure**

**Declared ideal**
A showcase of fraternal communist equality.

**Practical reality**
Moscow-centered hierarchy resisted by sovereign China.

CHAPTER 29

# The Collapse of the Soviet Union and the End of the Cold War

*Study notes: The Anatomy of Collapse — The Fall of the Soviet Union and the End of the Cold War*

CENTRAL THESIS

**The Soviet Union did not simply fall because its economy stagnated.** In the account, **Mikhail Gorbachev's reforms** destabilized the informal political bargains sustaining the union and weakened the Communist Party's monopoly before a viable economic and constitutional order could take its place. **Economic dysfunction, national movements, democratization and the ending of Cold War coercion** interacted to produce the unexpected disintegration of **December 1991**.

TIMELINE

**1985**

**1986**

**1987**

**1989**

**1990**

**1991**

The USSR's disappearance in **December 1991** astonished observers. Unlike the military defeat of many empires, the Soviet center disintegrated without a general war of conquest, though serious violence did occur in some republics. The account emphasizes a collision between **systemic weakness** and Gorbachev's **poorly coordinated efforts to modernize communism without surrendering control**.

# I Gorbachev's Ambition and the Reform Problem, 1985

*Energy and political instinct did not guarantee a workable plan for economic change.*

## AN ENERGETIC GENERAL SECRETARY

**Mikhail Gorbachev** became Communist Party General Secretary in **March 1985**. Veteran diplomat **Andrei Gromyko** praised his "unquenchable energy" and Party experience. The account nevertheless emphasizes Gorbachev's belief that **political will and organizational campaigns** could fix entrenched problems more quickly than the Soviet institutional structure allowed.

## ECONOMIC AND POLITICAL LIMITATIONS

Gorbachev had previously supervised **Soviet agriculture**, yet the USSR remained dependent on food imports. In the account he treated the planned economy as highly flexible, underestimated the consequences of partial reform and often hesitated over difficult decisions. These are **the historian's assessments**, not a claim that all historians agree with the portrayal.

TWO SLOGANS CENTRAL TO THE REFORM ERA

| Term | Meaning in the account |
|---|---|
| **Perestroika** | "Restructuring": intended to rejuvenate political and economic institutions, without a consistent operational model. |
| **Glasnost** | "Openness": transparency, public discussion and criticism intended to expose problems in the Soviet system. |

TWO KEY REFORMS

**Perestroika and glasnost**

**Perestroika**
Change how the Soviet system operates.

**Glasnost**
Allow public scrutiny of its failings.

INTERPRETIVE CAUTION

**Reform did not mean an immediate embrace of capitalism**

Gorbachev initially hoped to **repair socialism**. The loss of centralized power came from unexpected institutional consequences as much as from a declared intention to dismantle the USSR.

# II The First Fractures: Fiscal Losses and Broken Bargains

*Administrative campaigns destabilized revenue and relationships with regional elites.*

## THE 1985 ANTI-ALCOHOL CAMPAIGN

The effort to reduce drunkenness closed shops and cut alcohol production; the campaign also involved destruction of vineyards in **Armenia**. Rather than eliminating drinking, restrictions encouraged **illicit distilling**, shortages of sugar and expansion of black-market activity. The state lost important revenues from alcohol sales, worsening its budget problems.

## THE INFORMAL CONTRACT WITH THE REPUBLICS

Moscow had long tolerated corruption and regional patronage in return for loyalty. Campaigns such as the investigation into the **Uzbek Cotton Scam**, involving claims for millions of tonnes of fictitious cotton, attacked that bargain. Regional leaders came to view the center less as a guarantor of position and more as a threat.

## CHERNOBYL AND THE DEMAND FOR OPENNESS, APRIL 1986

After the explosion of **reactor four** at **Chernobyl**, official silence and slow public communication intensified distrust of the government. The catastrophe reinforced the need for **glasnost**, but the exposure of corruption and institutional failure undercut the legitimacy glasnost was meant to restore.

REFORM BACKFIRES

**The anti-alcohol causal chain**

Restrictions and shop closures
↓
Illicit production and shortages grow
↓
Alcohol tax revenues collapse
↓
Fiscal crisis deepens

THE REGIONAL BARGAIN

**Before and after anti-corruption**

| Before reform | After reform |
| --- | --- |
| Moscow overlooks patronage in return for obedience. | Investigations weaken local trust and encourage separatism. |

# III Radicalization, Economic Disruption and Yeltsin, 1986–1989

*Political space expanded faster than the state could stabilize economic institutions.*

## PARTIAL ENTERPRISE REFORM

The account dates the **Law on Socialist Enterprise to 1986**. It envisaged greater enterprise self-financing and selection of managers, yet **regulated prices and centrally determined inputs** remained. Enterprises could make more decisions, but the state still controlled prices and supplies. Reform weakened central coordination without creating a working market to replace it. Production suffered, while workplace leaders had incentives to favour easier targets over greater efficiency.

## THE RISE OF BORIS YELTSIN

Initially appointed as **Moscow Party boss**, **Boris Yeltsin** turned into a forceful critic of the Politburo's slow reform. He underwent a personal crisis and public humiliation in **1987**, followed by dismissal. He subsequently became a popular opposition figure and won a major Moscow electoral victory in **1989**.

As the economy failed to deliver and **open political debate** widened, criticism increasingly challenged not merely individual officials but the credibility of the Party-state itself. Gorbachev's attempt to democratize the system raised expectations that centralized control could not satisfy.

EXAM ARGUMENT

### Why partial economic reform was destabilizing

Discuss the mismatch between **enterprise autonomy** and continuing state controls over prices and supplies. Partial liberalization could weaken command coordination **without producing a working market**.

CHANGING POLITICAL ACTORS

### Gorbachev versus Yeltsin

**Gorbachev**
Restructure socialism while preserving an effective union center.

**Yeltsin**
Mobilize popular dissatisfaction against entrenched Party leadership.

REFORM TO OPPOSITION

### The reform crisis, 1986–89

- **1986** — Chernobyl sharpens demands for openness
- **1987** — Political reform widens; Yeltsin breaks with the leadership
- **1989** — Opposition grows as the Eastern bloc transforms

# IV Foreign-Policy Transformation and the End of the Cold War

*Arms diplomacy and restraint in Eastern Europe dismantled the coercive external framework.*

## A BURDENSOME STRATEGIC COMPETITION

Gorbachev concluded that arms competition was consuming unsustainable resources; the account estimates the defense burden at **about 40% of national wealth**. He pursued improved US relations in order to redirect resources and reduce the danger of conflict.

SUMMIT DIPLOMACY, 1985–1989

| Year | Meeting | Core significance |
|---|---|---|
| **1985** | Geneva: Reagan–Gorbachev | Established a personal dialogue |
| **1986** | Reykjavik | Opened far-reaching discussion of nuclear reduction |
| **1987** | Washington | Intermediate-Range Nuclear Forces agreement |
| **1989** | Malta: Bush–Gorbachev | Symbolic acknowledgment that the Cold War was ending |

## THE SINATRA DOCTRINE

Gorbachev abandoned enforcement of the **Brezhnev Doctrine**, under which Soviet power had intervened to preserve socialist regimes. Soviet spokesman **Gennady Gerasimov** dubbed the new approach the **“Sinatra Doctrine”**: satellite states could increasingly **“do it their way.”**

SUMMIT DIPLOMACY

**Four stations on the route**

- **1985** Geneva
- **1986** Reykjavik
- **1987** Washington / INF Treaty
- **1989** Malta

POLICY TERM

**Sinatra Doctrine**

The informal name for allowing Eastern European states greater freedom from Soviet military enforcement—**the opposite of the Brezhnev Doctrine**.

CAUSE AND CONSEQUENCE

**Do not reduce the end of the Cold War to a single summit**

Arms agreements mattered, but so did **Soviet non-intervention**, Eastern European opposition, ideological exhaustion and the erosion of the USSR’s capacity to sustain its empire.

### 1989 AND THE END OF THE EASTERN BLOC

**Solidarity** made major electoral gains in **Poland**; **Hungary** dismantled controls along its Austrian frontier; the **Berlin Wall opened on 9 November** as East German authority crumbled; and the dictatorship of **Nicolae Ceaușescu** fell violently in **Romania**. These changes occurred while Moscow refused the old pattern of military rescue.

# Ⓥ Nationalism and the Breakup of the Union, 1988–1991

*The Soviet nationalities question became a direct challenge to central sovereignty.*

### NAGORNO-KARABAKH AND LOCAL VIOLENCE

The contested **Nagorno-Karabakh** region triggered bitter Armenian–Azerbaijani conflict. Gorbachev's inability to reconcile rival demands or restore confidence revealed the limits of a policy that tried to liberalize politics while retaining a multi-ethnic union.

### THE BALTIC CHALLENGE

**Estonia, Latvia and Lithuania** pushed from autonomy toward independence. The Soviet deployment in **Vilnius in January 1991**, when security forces killed **14 people** according to the source, demonstrated that the union's disintegration was not wholly peaceful even though the USSR did not collapse through a conventional war of external conquest.

### RUSSIAN SOVEREIGNTY, JUNE 1990

On **12 June 1990**, the **Russian republic** asserted the priority of Russian law over Soviet law. Because Russia was the union's largest constituent republic, this challenged the legal and political foundation of authority in Moscow more seriously than nationalist movements in distant territories alone.

THE NATIONALITY CRISIS

**Three fronts**

| | | |
|---|---|---|
| **Caucasus** Nagorno-Karabakh dispute | **Baltics** Independence movements and Vilnius | **Russia** Republican sovereignty against the Soviet center |

CORE CAUSAL CLAIM

**The "informal contract" meets nationalism**

Connect early anti-corruption campaigns to **elite alienation**, then explain why **glasnost and republican sovereignty** made previously contained national and regional conflicts politically explosive.

LEGAL BREAK

**12 Jun 1990**

**Russia**

The Russian republic declared sovereignty and asserted the precedence of its laws over union-level laws.

# VI The August Coup and December Dissolution, 1991

*The attempted restoration of centralized authority ended by accelerating its collapse.*

## THE EMERGENCY COMMITTEE AND FAILED COUP

Hardliners in the **KGB, military and Party** opposed Gorbachev's proposed **new Union Treaty**, which would devolve power. On **18–21 August 1991** they placed Gorbachev under house arrest in Crimea. The coup failed when important military units refused to storm the **Russian White House** and fire on protesters.

## YELTSIN'S ASCENDANCY

**Boris Yeltsin**, standing on a tank outside the Russian parliament, became the visible figure of resistance. With the coup discredited, he moved against the Communist Party and strengthened Russian institutions at the expense of the union leadership.

## BELAVEZHA AND THE END OF THE USSR

On **8 December 1991**, the leaders of **Russia, Ukraine and Belarus** agreed to dissolve the Soviet Union and establish the **Commonwealth of Independent States**. On **25 December**, Gorbachev resigned as Soviet president. The union leadership could no longer command the institutions or secure the republics' consent needed to keep the USSR together.

THE FINAL FOUR MONTHS

**From coup to dissolution**

| | |
|---|---|
| 18–21 Aug | Hardline coup fails |
| 8 Dec | Russia, Ukraine and Belarus agree to CIS |
| 25 Dec | Gorbachev resigns; Soviet presidency ends |

AUTHORITY UNRAVELS

**The mechanism of collapse**

New Union Treaty alarms hardliners
↓
Failed coup discredits central institutions
↓
Yeltsin gains power in Russia
↓
Republics dissolve the Union

# VII Why the Soviet System Failed

*Leadership mistakes interacted with deep structural and national weaknesses.*

INTERLOCKING EXPLANATIONS EMPHASIZED BY MARTIN MCCAULEY IN THE ACCOUNT

| Factor | How it contributed to disintegration |
|---|---|
| **Leadership failure** | Gorbachev pursued ambitious reforms without coherent institutional or technical execution. |
| **Unintended consequences** | Perestroika weakened old controls before stable substitutes were created. |
| **Systemic rigidity** | The command economy struggled to innovate in an information-driven age. |
| **Nationality question** | Regional elites and republics rejected the center as bargains and authority dissolved. |
| **Military burden** | Arms costs and their reduction undermined the traditional justification for sacrifice. |

The collapse was contingent on interacting political and economic developments. **Stagnation by itself did not guarantee the disappearance of the Soviet state**, but reform upset fiscal balances, exposed failure, weakened Party authority, empowered rivals and opened the way for secession. The peaceful termination of the union center coexisted with severe local conflicts.

SYNTHESIS

**Three overlapping failures**

**Economic** Partial reform and falling confidence

**Political** Party authority and leadership rivalry

**National** Republican sovereignty and secession

ESSAY THESIS

**Neither “Gorbachev alone” nor “the economy alone”**

A strong answer joins **long-term structural dysfunction** to **the timing and unintended effects of reform**. Explain why 1985 began a reform process that ended in union dissolution by December 1991.

# § Revision: Reform, Nationalism and Collapse

*Trace how an attempt to modernize the union undermined the institutions needed to sustain it.*

The central lesson is the gap between **reform intention and institutional result**. Anti-alcohol measures damaged revenue; the attack on regional patronage weakened loyalty; **Chernobyl** increased demands for openness; partial enterprise reform eroded economic coordination; **glasnost** empowered criticism and opposition. Abroad, abandoning the **Brezhnev Doctrine** released Eastern Europe; at home, republican sovereignty and the **failed August coup** finished the union's authority. **Gorbachev resigned on 25 December 1991.**

**Revision prompts:** Define **perestroika and glasnost**; explain **anti-alcohol, the cotton scandal and Chernobyl**; assess **Yeltsin's rise**; trace **Geneva → Reykjavik → Washington → Malta**; explain the **Sinatra Doctrine**; and link **Russian sovereignty → August coup → December dissolution**.

FINAL INTERPRETATION

**Intentions versus outcomes**

| Gorbachev intended | Systemic result |
| --- | --- |
| Revive socialism and reduce foreign dangers. | Economic and political authority fractured; the union dissolved. |

CHAPTER 30

# War and Peace in the Global Community, 1989–2001

*Study notes: Wilsonianism, Globalization and the Fragile Global Community*

CENTRAL THESIS

**1989–2001 appeared to offer a third chance to construct a Wilsonian order** around self-determination, open markets and collective security. Yet selective intervention, ethnic conflict and unequal globalization revealed the limits of American leadership and the tension between integration and fragmentation.

TIMELINE

- **1918**
- **1945**
- **1989**
- **1990**
- **1991**
- **1993**
- **1994**
- **1995**
- **1999**
- **2001**

The collapse of Soviet power encouraged a renewed belief that democracy, capitalism and collective security could define a **global community**. After failed or frustrated opportunities in **1919** and **1945**, the post-**1989** decade seemed to offer a **"third chance"** for liberal internationalism. The contrast between this optimism and the conflicts of the 1990s is the chapter's organizing problem.

# I Wilsonianism Reborn: The New Order's Ideals

*The triad offered an attractive vocabulary for a post-Cold War settlement.*

The **Wilsonian triad** joined the three principles below in a single promise: democratic national government, open commerce and collective resistance to aggression would replace Great Power rivalry. The disappearance of the Soviet alternative made that promise newly persuasive; the chapter tests how far it held in practice.

THE WILSONIAN TRIAD IN THE POST-1989 MOMENT

| Principle | Claim | 1990s application |
|---|---|---|
| **Self-determination** | Nations should govern themselves democratically. | Recognition of former Soviet satellites and new national states. |
| **Open Door** | Trade and foreign investment should cross borders. | American-style market capitalism presented as a universal model. |
| **Collective security** | Aggression should meet a common international response. | United Nations action and multinational interventions. |

## AN "END OF HISTORY"?

**Francis Fukuyama** interpreted the victory of liberal democracy as leaving no viable rival system, while **Michael Mandelbaum** called the triad **"the ideas that conquered the world."** These were claims about the era's prevailing worldview, not evidence that political conflict itself had ended.

THE CENTRAL FRAME

**The Wilsonian triad**

**Democracy** National self-government

**Markets** Open exchange and investment

**Security** Multilateral resistance to aggression

EXAM CAUTION

**An ideal is not an outcome**

Do not confuse the **1990s conviction** that liberal democracy had triumphed with a proven absence of future conflict. The chapter measures the gap between principles and practice.

THIRD CHANCE

**Repeated Wilsonian moments**

- **1919** Post–First World War peace
- **1945** Post–Second World War institutions
- **1989–91** Cold War ends: new possibility

# II Bush and the “New World Order”, 1989–1991

*Collective security achieved a conspicuous success, but American power retained limits.*

## KUWAIT AS THE TEST CASE

After **Iraq invaded Kuwait in 1990**, President **George H. W. Bush** assembled a multinational response authorized through the **UN Security Council**. **Operations Desert Shield and Desert Storm** were framed as defending international law: a world governed by the **“rule of law, not the rule of the jungle.”** With the Cold War veto rivalry diminished, the UN could act more collectively.

## RESTRAINT AFTER VICTORY

Bush’s interpretation of the **New World Order** remained pragmatic. The coalition liberated Kuwait but did **not** make regime change in Baghdad or democratizing the Middle East its objective. The outcome demonstrated that collective security could defend a border without transforming the politics of the aggressor state.

## THE LIMITS REVEALED BY CHINA

Following the **1989 Tiananmen Square crackdown**, the Bush administration had little means or willingness to impose political change within China. Strategic stability and diplomatic relations competed with democratic ideals; this revealed the uneven reach of universalist rhetoric.

CASE STUDY

**Universal principle, limited mission**

**Kuwait**

Restore sovereignty through a UN-backed coalition; leave Iraq’s regime in place.

**China**

The repression of 1989 exposed the difficulty of transforming a major power’s domestic order.

EXAM INSIGHT

**Bush was more restrained than his rhetoric**

The contrast between a **New World Order** and a **limited war** is central: collective action was possible without a commitment to remaking every state.

# III Globalization: The Economic New World

*Deepening interdependence was celebrated as the triumph of an American commercial model.*

US ECONOMIC INTEGRATION IN THE 1990S

| Indicator | 1990 | 2000 |
|---|---|---|
| **Exports** | $393,592 million | $782,429 million |
| **Direct investment abroad** | $424,086 million | $1,293,431 million |
| **Trade as share of GNP** | 20.4% | 26.0% |

## THE FRIEDMAN FRAMEWORK

**Thomas L. Friedman** described an interaction among three actors: **states**, global capital markets or **“supermarkets”**, and **“super-empowered individuals.”** Investors formed an **“Electronic Herd”** that could rapidly shift funds across borders. Governments seeking international capital were pressured to don a **“Golden Straitjacket”** of market-friendly rules.

## THE NEW VULNERABILITY

For proponents, competition and investment spread prosperity and the **“fantasy of America.”** For critics, a system exposed to capital flight made elected governments vulnerable to external market discipline, and the gains of integration were not evenly shared.

MEASURED CHANGE

### American reach expanded

**US exports**
Roughly doubled from 1990 to 2000.

**Investment abroad**
Rose to more than three times the 1990 level.

**Trade intensity**
Increased from 20.4% to 26.0% of GNP.

KEY METAPHORS

### Golden Straitjacket and Electronic Herd

The **Golden Straitjacket** means policy constraints favoring market confidence; the **Electronic Herd** refers to mobile international investors able to reward or punish those policies.

# IV Clinton: Integration and the Politics of Identity

*A more connected world could simultaneously become a more divided one.*

## NEW RULES FOR TRADE

President **Bill Clinton** treated globalization as an **“inexorable logic.”** The United States backed **NAFTA (1994)** and the **World Trade Organization (1995)** as institutions of an expanding open-market order.

## “JIHAD VS. MCWORLD”

**Benjamin Barber** described opposing pressures: **McWorld**, a consumer-centered global market culture that privileged profit over citizenship; and **“Jihad,”** used in his argument as shorthand for exclusionary identity politics, communal antagonism and demands for belonging. These are analytical metaphors, not interchangeable descriptions of religious communities.

SELECT 1990S INTERVENTIONS AND THEIR LIMITS

| Episode | American response | Underlying tension |
|---|---|---|
| **Somalia, 1993** | Nation-building effort followed by withdrawal after US casualties. | Humanitarian ambition versus domestic tolerance for losses. |
| **Rwanda, 1994** | No decisive US-led intervention during genocide. | Fear of costly engagement versus moral responsibility. |
| **Haiti, 1994** | Military pressure helped restore **Jean-Bertrand Aristide**. | Regional security framed as supporting democracy. |

COMPETING FORCES

**Barber’s conceptual pair**

**McWorld**
Integration through consumption, business, technologies.

**“Jihad”**
Exclusionary identity politics and demands for local belonging, in Barber’s usage.

INTERVENTION CONTRAST

**Intervention was selective**

Somalia and Rwanda illustrate the stark differences in international responses to humanitarian emergencies during the 1990s.

# Ⓥ The Balkans and NATO after the Cold War

*Self-determination and collective security collided in Europe itself.*

## YUGOSLAVIA’S DISSOLUTION

The breakup of **Yugoslavia** exposed how nationalism could produce state fragmentation and **ethnic cleansing**, rather than orderly independence. **Slobodan Milošević’s** ambitions and conflicts over territory challenged the Wilsonian belief that national self-government necessarily produced peace.

## BOSNIA AND KOSOVO

US-led pressure and NATO air operations helped lead to the **Dayton Peace Accords (1995)**, which preserved **Bosnia-Herzegovina** within a complex settlement. NATO later intervened militarily over **Kosovo (1999)**, invoking protection of Kosovar Albanians; its legal and political implications remained contested.

## NATO’S CHANGE OF PURPOSE

The alliance moved beyond its original anti-Soviet role, admitted **Poland, Hungary and the Czech Republic in 1999**, and developed cooperation with Russia through the **Partnership for Peace**. As a result, its mission became broader and more controversial than Cold War territorial defense.

BALKAN CHRONOLOGY

**NATO’s changing mission**

- **1995** — Dayton settlement after the Bosnian war
- **1999** — Kosovo intervention
- **1999** — Poland, Hungary and Czech Republic join NATO

EXAM INSIGHT

**Self-determination versus peace**

The dissolution of multinational states forced uncomfortable questions: **who** constituted a nation, which borders counted, and **when** outside powers were entitled to intervene.

# VI A Fragile Community by 2001

*Global integration spread prosperity and vulnerability together.*

**Bill Clinton's 1999** warning described a new global community divided between those benefiting from market expansion and societies **"mired in poverty and increasingly resentful."** Economic interdependence made national prosperity more sensitive to distant events, while **"Balkanization"** displayed the capacity of national and ethnic claims to fragment states.

## THE SEPTEMBER 11 BREAK

The attacks of **11 September 2001** dramatically exposed the power of **transnational networks** and what Friedman called **"super-empowered individuals."** Their capacity to exploit communications and transport technologies challenged the assumption that expanding connections would automatically produce peace.

THE WILSONIAN TRIAD: AN ASSESSMENT AT THE END OF THE DECADE

| Ideal | Achievement | Constraint |
|---|---|---|
| **Democracy** | Widely presented as the leading political model. | Resurgent exclusivist identity politics. |
| **Open markets** | Expanding trade, investment and institutions. | Unequal gains and exposure to financial shocks. |
| **Collective peace** | Kuwait and Bosnia offered visible successes. | Selectivity, civil conflict and transnational violence. |

SYNTHESIS

### Three simultaneous outcomes

**Integration** NAFTA, WTO and mobile capital

**Fragmentation** Balkans and identity conflict

**Insecurity** Networks beyond traditional state control

EXAM QUESTION

### Why was the "third chance" incomplete?

Answer through the contradiction between **universal rules** and **uneven capacity or willingness to enforce them**, with Kuwait, Rwanda and Kosovo as contrasting cases.

The post-Cold War decade was not simply a short-lived American triumph. It tested whether **Wilsonian self-determination, market openness and collective security** could coexist. The United States could facilitate agreements and interventions, yet neither commercial interdependence nor unmatched military power guaranteed equal development, national cohesion or protection from non-state violence.

# § Revision

*The 1990s in three tensions*

**Revision prompts:** Define the Wilsonian triad; contrast Kuwait and Rwanda; explain the Golden Straitjacket and the Electronic Herd; discuss *Jihad vs. McWorld*; assess NATO's transformed role.

EXAM RECAP

### Ideals versus contradictions

**Self-determination**
Independent states could also become fragmented or exclusionary.

**Open Door**
Capital movement increased wealth and vulnerability.

**Collective security**
Action depended on selective political commitments.

CLOSING PERSPECTIVE

### *A "tale of two cities"*

***Bill Clinton (1999)*** *warned of a world divided between modern integrated prosperity and populations excluded from its benefits. The quotation captures the chapter's unfinished global-community project.*

CHAPTER 31

# Globalization

*Study notes: The Synergistic Integration of the Modern World*

CENTRAL THESIS

**Globalization is a historically contingent interaction of technology, markets, policy ideas and state decisions—not an autonomous or irreversible force.** Integration has accelerated exchange and communications, but produced insecurities involving sovereignty, inequality, culture and financial volatility.

TIMELINE

- **1776**
- **1850**
- **1870**
- **1913**
- **1914**
- **1945**
- **1960**
- **1970**
- **1971**
- **1980**
- **1990**
- **1997**
- **2000**
- **2002**

Globalization ties businesses, governments, individuals and nongovernmental organizations into increasingly extensive networks. Although the term became fashionable in the **1980s** through writers such as **John Naisbitt** and **Theodore Levitt**, its deeper history includes nineteenth-century transport revolutions, interruption by war, and postwar institutions. The principal tension is between the efficient **"borderless world"** and unequal local consequences.

# Ⓘ Four Interlocking Engines

*Technology alone does not explain why borders become more porous.*

ENGINES OF MODERN GLOBALIZATION

| Engine | Function | Illustrations |
|---|---|---|
| **Technology** | Reduces time, distance and information barriers. | Aircraft, fiber optics, Internet, mobile phones. |
| **Markets** | Seeks profits and wider consumer access. | Transnational production, logistics, marketing. |
| **Policy ideas** | Legitimizes openness and free exchange. | Adam Smith, free-trade doctrine, competitive markets. |
| **Governments** | Creates or removes legal barriers to exchange. | Deregulation, standards, WTO and regional agreements. |

## HOW THE FOUR ENGINES REINFORCE EACH OTHER

These forces **reinforce** rather than merely accompany one another: information and transport technology make global trade possible, businesses demand new rules, governments adjust standards, and policy ideas provide arguments for liberalization. The result is an expanding network of relationships—not just increased exports.

SYSTEMS VIEW

**A reinforcing cycle**

**Transport and information become cheaper**

↓

**Companies coordinate across borders**

↓

**States reform regulations and standards**

↓

**Markets grow; investment in technology accelerates**

THREE DIMENSIONS

**More than commerce**

**Economic** Trade, capital, supply chains

**Political** Rules, sovereignty, institutions

**Social** Culture, people, NGOs

KEY CONCEPT

**Synergistic integration**

**Synergistic** means technologies, economic incentives and institutions combine to create an effect larger than any one could produce separately.

### A NEW CORPORATE OUTLOOK

Global companies increasingly identify markets by consumer demand instead of national affiliation. **Cisco's John Chambers**, discussing business in Beijing, remarked that **"If I wasn't American, I would be Chinese."** The remark expresses the appeal of **consumer sovereignty** and a company's worldwide commercial identity.

## II The First Modern Globalization, 1850–1914

*A British-led open economy appeared permanent—until it was not.*

### STEAMSHIPS, CABLES AND THE CITY OF LONDON

Coal-powered ships and railways greatly reduced journey and freight times; **submarine telegraph cables** allowed New York and London business information to cross the Atlantic in minutes by the **1890s**. Transport costs fell markedly between **1870 and 1913**. British naval power, trade and gold-standard finance sustained the system.

### KEYNES'S LOST WORLD

**John Maynard Keynes** recalled the prewar Londoner who could order goods from distant countries while **"sipping his morning tea in bed,"** and invest abroad with little difficulty. More important than the conveniences was the false belief that this integration was **"normal, certain, and permanent."**

FIRST WAVE

**The pre-1914 sequence**

| | |
|---|---|
| 1850s | Coal-based steam and modern transportation |
| 1870–1913 | Rapid reduction in international shipping costs |
| 1890s | Financial information crosses Atlantic in minutes |
| 1914 | War reveals the system's fragility |

INTERPRETATION

**Integration can be reversible**

The first wave supplies the chapter's essential warning: even when markets are deeply linked, **political decisions and war can reverse openness**.

THEN AND NOW

**Communications as infrastructure**

**First wave**

Steamship, telegraph, cables and gold-standard finance.

**Late twentieth century**

Containers, satellites, computers and deregulated capital.

# III 1914–1970s: Rupture and Continuity

*Wars and barriers did not stop every form of cross-border exchange.*

## THE POLITICAL RETREAT

**World War I**, the **Great Depression**, new passport and visa systems, revolutionary politics, trade restrictions and rivalry over resources checked international flows. The retreat was linked to security fears and imperial competition.

## TECHNOLOGICAL AND CULTURAL CONTINUITIES

Historians **Alfred Eckes** and **Thomas Zeiler** caution against an absolute account of **"deglobalization."** Civil aviation expanded through firms such as **Pan Am** and **Delta**, while **Hollywood** and mass-produced **Ford cars** spread cultural and consumer influences internationally, despite restrictions on capital and trade.

THE POST-1945 ECONOMIC ARCHITECTURE

| Institution | Principal function | Underlying intention |
|---|---|---|
| **GATT** | Multilateral tariff reductions and most-favored-nation trade. | Prevent protectionist spirals. |
| **IMF** | Exchange-rate stability and international payments support. | Reduce monetary instability. |
| **IBRD / World Bank** | Reconstruction and development financing. | Mobilize resources for investment. |

HISTORICAL NUANCE

### "Deglobalization" was incomplete

The interwar era sharply curtailed liberal trade and migration, but technological innovation, aviation, cinema and consumption continued to cross borders.

INSTITUTIONAL RESPONSE

### From breakdown to rebuilding

**1914–45 wars and economic instability**

↓

**Protectionism exposes fragility of open markets**

↓

**Bretton Woods institutions developed**

↓

**GATT/IMF/IBRD support structured international exchange**

EXAM POINT

### Separate flows from institutions

A decline in one form of globalization—such as cross-border capital movement—does **not** imply all cultural and technological connections disappeared.

# IV The Acceleration of the Late Twentieth Century

*Logistics, telecommunications and financial liberalization transformed the scale of networks.*

### CONTAINERIZATION AND SATELLITES

**Standardized containers** revolutionized port handling from the **1960s**; port throughput rose in the example from roughly **15 to 700 tons per hour**. **Intelsat IV (1971)** symbolizes the communications leap. Combined with digital computing, logistics allowed geographically dispersed production and real-time information.

### DEREGULATED FINANCE AND TRANSNATIONAL CORPORATIONS

The decline of fixed exchange rates and **Washington–Wall Street** policies encouraged cross-border investment flows. By **2000**, the figures show over **60,000 transnational corporations** employing **46 million people abroad**. The surge in **FDI** during the late 1990s reflects the speed of capital internationalization, not a guarantee of stability.

# V The Ideological Contest: Advocates and Critics

*The benefits and costs of globalization were politically distributed.*

CONTRASTING ARGUMENTS ABOUT GLOBALIZATION

| Supporters argue | Critics argue |
|---|---|
| **Convergence:** common rules and markets improve efficiency. | **Sovereignty:** external market pressures constrain choice. |
| **Growth:** competition and investment can reduce poverty. | **Dislocation:** vulnerable workers face wage and job insecurity. |

LOGISTICS REVOLUTION

**Port-handling illustration**

**15 → 700**

Tons per hour, as estimated in the account for the containerization transition.

MODERN ACCELERATION

**Three steps**

- **1960s** — Standard containers scale up
- **1971** — Intelsat IV satellite communications
- **1990s** — Cross-border finance and transnationals expand

THE CORE DISPUTE

**Who benefits—and who bears the risk?**

**Optimistic view**

Productivity, wider opportunity, exchange and growth.

**Critical view**

Economic insecurity, unequal bargaining power and social disruption.

CONTRASTING ARGUMENTS ABOUT GLOBALIZATION (CONTINUED)

| Supporters argue | Critics argue |
|---|---|
| **Connection:** information can encourage open societies. | **Homogenization:** global consumer culture may erode local traditions. |
| **Mobility:** capital funds development across borders. | **Volatility:** mobile funds can transmit financial crises quickly. |

### THE “FLAT WORLD” THESIS

**Thomas Friedman**, especially in the discussion of *The Lexus and the Olive Tree*, embodies the optimistic argument: workers and firms in **India** and **China** can participate in expanding global markets, encouraging economic growth and shared standards.

### THE 1997 ASIAN FINANCIAL CRISIS

Critics saw the crisis as exposing the hazards of liberalized finance. **Joseph Stiglitz** criticized IMF rescue programmes for prioritizing financial interests and austerity over local social conditions. In **Indonesia**, hardship and protests illustrated the possible political consequences of shocks transmitted through global capital markets.

## VI Inevitability or Fragility?

*Technical possibilities cannot substitute for political support and capable institutions.*

### WARNINGS FROM EARLIER HISTORY

Arguments that globalization was **“inevitable and irreversible”** resembled the confidence of the pre-1914 world. Yet war, great-power rivalry, financial imbalances, pandemics and security threats could still disrupt flows. The US external deficit and geopolitical competition over **Taiwan** were among the vulnerabilities discussed. The account’s possible shift toward **Asian leadership after 2050** is a projection, not an established outcome.

FUTURE PROJECTION

**Projected global leadership**

A possible shift toward **Asian leadership after 2050** is presented as a future projection.

**Global Systems and Unequal Security.** Global supply chains multiply efficiencies but transmit shocks. The analysis names terrorism, cyber-attacks, biological hazards and pandemic disease as potential disturbances. Durable openness thus requires strong institutions and governments willing to respond to insecurity over jobs, cultural change and unequal economic gains. Globalization is neither one technology nor a natural law. Its waves show how **technology, private incentives, political ideas and government decisions** combine to widen networks. The same processes create vulnerability to sudden financial reversals, war and social backlash. The crucial historical lesson is that an open global economy must be **politically maintained**.

# § Revision

*The history of an open—but vulnerable—world*

GLOBALIZATION ACROSS SUCCESSIVE ERAS

| Period | Central technologies or policies | General direction |
|---|---|---|
| **1850–1914** | Steam, telegraph, British trade and gold standard. | Expanding flows under British leadership. |
| **1914–1970s** | Borders, state controls; GATT/IMF foundations. | Disruption alongside institutional and cultural continuity. |
| **1970s onward** | Container logistics, satellites, computing, finance. | Deep, fast and sometimes volatile integration. |
| **Future horizon** | Possible stronger roles for Asian economies. | Uncertain: a projection, not a settled outcome. |

**Revision prompts:** Identify four engines; outline the three historical waves; compare GATT/IMF/IBRD; explain containerization and the 1997 crisis; distinguish global gains from local costs.

MEMORY FRAME

**Three periods, one lesson**

**1850–1914** High confidence in integration

**1914–1970s** Disruption with continuities

**1970s–2000s** Acceleration and social backlash

EXAM CONCLUSION

**Answer the inevitability question**

Use the **1914 rupture** to challenge claims of permanence, and the **postwar rebuilding** to show that states can also deliberately restore international openness.

CHAPTER 32

# Terrorism: September 11, 2001 and its Consequences

*Study notes: The Architecture of Asymmetry — September 11 and Global Security*

CENTRAL THESIS

**September 11 transformed the international response to terrorism from a predominantly criminal-law approach toward an expansive military-security framework.** The growth of transnational extremist networks and the US doctrines of preemption and prevention exposed the limits of unilateral power and generated durable legal and diplomatic disputes.

TIMELINE

- **1789**
- **1967**
- **1980**
- **1989**
- **1990**
- **1998**
- **2001**
- **2002**
- **2003**
- **2004**
- **2005**
- **2006**

The **11 September 2001 attacks** showed that a powerful state could be harmed by a comparatively small, non-state organization. The resulting **“War on Terror”** reshaped statecraft and legal debates. The chapter examines how definitions, tactics, the **al-Qaeda** network, international self-defense claims and preventive-war arguments interacted with questions about American hegemony and international cooperation.

# I Defining Terrorism and Its Neighbors

*Analytical precision matters because the label itself is contested.*

## A POLITICALLY CHARGED TERM

The account notes the lack of a **universally accepted judicial definition** of terrorism and invokes the saying **“One man’s terrorist is another man’s freedom fighter.”** These problems do not erase meaningful distinctions: targets, tactics, territorial aims and political objectives help separate terrorism from guerrilla warfare or organized crime.

ANALYTICAL CONTRASTS IN THE ACCOUNT

| Dimension | Terrorism | Guerrilla war | Organized crime |
|---|---|---|---|
| **Main aim** | Political psychological effect | Military-political victory | Profit or material benefit |
| **Typical structure** | Small covert or specialized cells | Larger armed units | Criminal networks |
| **Territory** | Often operates without holding land | Often seeks territorial control | Seeks market and trafficking control |
| **Typical targets** | Civilian or symbolic targets; may also include officials or troops | Primarily military or state infrastructure | Profitable targets |

KEY DISTINCTION

**“Propaganda by deed”**

Violence is used as a **political message**: the response it elicits may matter to perpetrators as much as the immediate act.

COMPARE METHODS

**Terrorism versus guerrilla war**

**Terrorism**

Psychological leverage and visible attacks, often by covert cells.

**Guerrilla war**

Military pressure by armed formations, often linked to territorial objectives.

CONCEPTUAL CAUTION

**Labels alone do not explain an act**

Academic analysis should examine **objectives and methods** rather than treating a political label as a complete explanation or assuming all members of a religion share an extremist programme.

### “PROPAGANDA BY DEED”

Terrorist violence is meant not only to injure immediate victims but to communicate with a wider audience. It can advertise resolve, recruit supporters and provoke a state into **excessive retaliation** that reduces its legitimacy and increases sympathy for the perpetrators’ cause.

## II Old and “New” Terrorism

*A changing range of motivations and tactics altered the perceived scale of the threat.*

### FROM STATE TERROR TO NATIONALIST VIOLENCE

The term **terror** is associated with **Robespierre’s French Revolutionary regime**. In the nineteenth and twentieth centuries, revolutionary and nationalist movements also used political violence. The account mentions **Bakunin**, **Johann Most**, nationalist groups and organizations such as the **IRA** and **ETA**.

### INTERNATIONALIZATION AND MASS CASUALTIES

After **1967**, Palestinian organizations carried out hijackings and attacks across borders. In the **1990s**, a shift occurred toward some extremist religious or “transcendental” groups, including **Aum Shinrikyo** and **al-Qaeda**. Some sought far larger civilian death tolls and employed suicide attacks, challenging assumptions about how violent groups calculate success.

TACTICAL EVOLUTION

**A selective chronology**

- **French Revolution** — State-sponsored “terror”
- **19th–20th centuries** — Revolutionary and nationalist organizations
- **After 1967** — International attacks and hijackings
- **1990s** — Some mass-casualty transnational extremist groups

STRUCTURAL SHIFT

**“Old” and “new” as ideal types**

| Earlier patterns | Newer patterns |
| --- | --- |
| Frequently linked to defined nationalist or revolutionary political demands. | Some transnational movements invoke unlimited religious ends and accept mass casualties. |

# III Al-Qaeda: A Transnational Network

*Transnational organization challenged territorial models of security.*

## AFGHAN ORIGINS AND LATER TRANSFORMATION

**Osama bin Laden** and **Abdullah Azzam** helped form **al-Qaeda** in the late **1980s** amid mobilization for the Afghan struggle against Soviet forces. After the Soviet withdrawal, the organization developed a wider, decentralized network connecting activists and affiliated groups across multiple regions.

## PROGRAMME AND CLAIMS

Its leadership presented US military presence in the **Arabian Peninsula**, **Israel**, and the restoration of a **caliphate** uniting the **umma** as core political concerns, couched in an extremist religious worldview. These were the organization's stated goals—not representative positions of Muslim populations broadly.

## NETWORKS AND TALIBAN AFGHANISTAN

Al-Qaeda cooperated closely with the **Taliban** regime in Afghanistan, gaining sanctuary for training and coordination while affiliates elsewhere adopted elements of its ideological programme. This blurred the distinction between a **state sponsor**, a **protected non-state network**, and semi-autonomous local groups.

NETWORK LOGIC

**How a transnational movement extends reach**

Training and ideological coordination

↓

Sanctuary in sympathetic or weakly governed territory

↓

Regional affiliates and local cells

↓

Global propaganda beyond a single territory

TERMINOLOGY

**State and network**

**Taliban regime**
The governing authority in Afghanistan at the time.

**Al-Qaeda**
A transnational extremist organization associated with that territory and others.

# IV September 11: From Criminal Act to Armed Conflict

*The international response recast counterterrorism as a matter of war and collective defense.*

## THE ASYMMETRIC SHOCK

The 2001 attacks used civilian aviation and international networks to strike prominent American targets. The account emphasizes the disproportion between a relatively low operational cost (approximately **$500,000**, by its estimate) and the devastation caused. It also gives the death toll as **“over 3,000.”**

## SECURITY AND COLLECTIVE SELF-DEFENSE

The Bush administration treated the attacks as **acts of war**. The measures below extended international security responses to a major non-state attack: **Resolution 1368** recognized self-defense, and **NATO invoked Article 5 for the first time**. This shift explains why the response moved beyond criminal investigation to collective defense and military operations.

## AFGHANISTAN, OCTOBER 2001

**Operation Enduring Freedom**, launched **7 October 2001**, sought to remove the Taliban regime and disrupt al-Qaeda bases. It rapidly displaced the Afghan government and destroyed training infrastructure, but senior al-Qaeda figures escaped capture, illustrating the challenge of suppressing a cross-border network militarily.

THE NEW SECURITY FRAMEWORK AFTER THE ATTACKS

| Instrument | Action | Significance |
|---|---|---|
| **UNSC Resolution 1368** | Condemnation and recognition of self-defense. | International legal response to a non-state attack. |

ASYMMETRY

**Source cost estimate**

**~$500k**

Approximate preparation cost for September 11 cited in the account.

THE RESPONSE

**Key 2001 steps**

- **11 September** — Coordinated attacks on the United States
- **September** — UN response and NATO Article 5
- **7 October** — Afghanistan operation begins

THE NEW SECURITY FRAMEWORK AFTER THE ATTACKS (CONTINUED)

| Instrument | Action | Significance |
|---|---|---|
| **NATO Article 5** | Collective-defense clause invoked. | A security alliance responds beyond conventional state invasion. |
| **Operation Enduring Freedom** | US-led intervention in Afghanistan, October 2001. | Military dismantling of sanctuary and training sites. |

# Ⓥ Preventive War and Iraq

*The strategic doctrine extended beyond attacks already launched or imminently threatened.*

## PREEMPTION VERSUS PREVENTION

The **2002 National Security Strategy** argued that states could not rely exclusively on traditional deterrence against networks and possible weapons of mass destruction. It treated action against emerging dangers as potentially necessary even where imminent attack was unclear.

TWO FORMS OF ANTICIPATORY FORCE

| Concept | Threat threshold | Central question |
|---|---|---|
| **Preemptive force** | Enemy attack is imminent. | Can a strike avert an impending blow? |
| **Preventive war** | Threat may materialize in the future. | Can force stop an uncertain danger from developing? |

DOCTRINAL TEST

**Preemption is not prevention**

**Imminent attack**

Preemption claims immediate necessity.

**Future possibility**

Prevention acts before a threat becomes immediate; legality and prudence are strongly disputed.

CRITICAL DISTINCTION

**Afghanistan and Iraq had different rationales**

**Afghanistan (2001)** followed attacks attributed to a network sheltered by the Taliban. **Iraq (2003)** rested on wider claims about future danger and WMDs. Do not merge them into one legal justification.

### THE “AXIS OF EVIL” AND WEAPONS FEARS

President **George W. Bush** described **Iran, Iraq and North Korea** as an **“axis of evil”** in **2002**, arguing that WMD proliferation and extremist violence might converge. The resulting logic justified unilateral action, in the administration’s view, if international agreement could not be reached.

### IRAQ IN 2003

**Operation Iraqi Freedom** was justified publicly by alleged Iraqi WMD capabilities and a broader hope of political transformation. The war proceeded without clear new UN authorization specifically endorsing the invasion, and governments including **France, Russia and Germany** opposed it. The later absence of the alleged stockpiles severely damaged the credibility of the rationale.

## VI Legal, Political and Strategic Consequences

*Operational successes coexisted with profound disputes over state power and legitimacy.*

### DETENTION AND JUDICIAL REVIEW

**Guantánamo Bay**, secret **“black sites”**, extraordinary detention and the categorization of **“unlawful combatants”** prompted allegations of unlawful treatment and denial of due process. US Supreme Court decisions in **2004** and **2006** reasserted legal limits and mechanisms for reviewing detention and military commissions.

### FRANCHISING AND DECENTRALIZATION

The weakening of centralized al-Qaeda structures did not eliminate violent activism. The account associates attacks in **Madrid (2004)** and **London (2005)** with a more dispersed landscape of loosely linked or ideologically inspired cells.

STRATEGIC BACKLASH

**Potential “propaganda by deed” loop**

Spectacular violence prompts fear

↓

State answers with coercive action

↓

Excesses may harm the state’s legitimacy

↓

Extremists exploit the reaction in propaganda

TWO LIMITS

**Tactical success versus political durability**

**Disrupted infrastructure**

Camps and some leadership networks could be attacked.

**Enduring ideology**

Affiliates, grievances and contested legitimacy survived.

**Reputation and the Limits of Military Primacy.** The failure to find Iraqi WMD stockpiles and the **Abu Ghraib** detainee-abuse scandal undermined American legitimacy. Long-running insurgencies illustrated that military superiority could not ensure swift political stabilization or make a unilateral order sustainable. September 11 challenged conventional concepts of state power. The US response placed **self-defense, preventive force, detention, alliance obligations and international legitimacy** at the center of world politics. The course of events in Afghanistan and Iraq illustrated both the reach and the limits of military superiority. The enduring problem is how states can disrupt transnational violent networks while preserving legal safeguards and the international cooperation needed for durable security.

# § Revision

*Asymmetry and the international legal order*

CONSEQUENCES OF THE WAR ON TERROR

| Area | Principal consequence | Broader lesson |
|---|---|---|
| **Law** | Controversies over detention, torture and due process. | Security powers remain subject to legal limits. |
| **Networks** | Affiliates and autonomous cells persisted. | Decentralized movements are hard to extinguish by capturing leaders. |
| **Diplomacy** | Disagreement over Iraq and reputational damage. | Military primacy does not guarantee international legitimacy. |

**Revision prompts:** Distinguish terrorism, guerrilla warfare and organized crime; explain propaganda by deed; outline al-Qaeda's structure; contrast preemption and prevention; compare Afghanistan (2001) and Iraq (2003); assess legal and alliance consequences.

FINAL RECALL

### Three central shifts

**Threat** Non-state transnational networks

**Response** Criminal law to wartime self-defense

**Consequence** Debates over legality and hegemony

LAST EXAM PROMPT

### The core analytical question

How can a state use force against **decentralized threats** while preserving international legitimacy, due process and alliance cooperation? Link the **2001 consensus** to the **2003 division**.